

On Multiple Selves

On Multiple Selves

David Lester



Transaction Publishers

New Brunswick (U.S.A.) and London (U.K.)

Copyright © 2015 by Transaction Publishers, New Brunswick, New Jersey.

All rights reserved under International and Pan-American Copyright Conventions. No part of this book may be reproduced or transmitted in any form or by any means, electronic or mechanical, including photocopy, recording, or any information storage and retrieval system, without prior permission in writing from the publisher. All inquiries should be addressed to Transaction Publishers, 10 Corporate Place South, Piscataway, New Jersey 08854. www.transactionpub.com

This book is printed on acid-free paper that meets the American National Standard for Permanence of Paper for Printed Library Materials.

Library of Congress Catalog Number: 2014024943

ISBN: 978-1-4128-5572-3

Printed in the United States of America

Library of Congress Cataloging-in-Publication Data

Lester, David, 1942-

On multiple selves / David Lester.

pages cm

Includes bibliographical references and index.

ISBN 978-1-4128-5572-3

1. Self. 2. Personality. I. Title.

BF697.L4123 2015

155.2--dc23

2014024943

Contents

Preface	ix
Prologue: What Is the Self?	xi
1 A Multiple Self Theory of the Mind	1
2 Robert Lifton's Concept of the Protean Self	33
3 The Metaphor of the Greek Gods	37
4 Multiple Selves versus Meta-Preferences	43
5 Mendlovic's Psychoanalytic Approach to the Multiple Self	47
6 Rita Carter and Multiplicity	51
7 Gestalt Therapy and the Multiple Self	55
8 A Plethora of Similar Ideas	63
9 Bilinguals and the Multiple Self	97
10 Shifting	101
11 Psychotherapists and the Multiple Self	111
12 The Multiple Self in Fairy Tales	121
13 Economists' Views of the Multiple Self	125
14 What is Not a Multiple Self	129

15	Empirical Studies of the Multiple Self	139
16	Conclusions and Final Thoughts	159
	References	169
	Senior Author Index	189
	Subject Index	193

No living thing is One, I say,
But always Many.

(Johann Wolfgang von Goethe, 1819/1996)

. . . the experience of being a unitary self . . . is an acquired, developmentally adaptive illusion.

(Philip M. Bromberg, 1993, p. 162)

We all have multiple personae: The face that meets my children during the day is not the face that meets my friends out for a beer in the evening, and neither of those faces greets my students on Monday morning. While I have had more than a half-dozen years to find a teaching face that feels comfortable to me, I'm still not sure I have settled on one yet. Some days in the classroom I want to be the laid-back, sit-on-the-edge-of-the-desk seminar leader, and sometimes I want to be a fiery orator . . . I wonder whether I have to settle on just one. Is there anything wrong with presenting different faces to my students?

(James M. Lang, 2007)

Cette duplicité de l'homme est si visible, qu'il y en a qui ont pensé que nous avons deux âmes.

Pascal

Preface

A student at my college, applying to graduate school of sociology, stated that his goal was to study exosociology, the social organization of life on other planets. When I asked him about this, it appeared that he knew life existed on other planets. He wanted to study their social organization!

I am faced with an analogous problem. I know that human minds are made up of several subselves (at the very least, my own mind is so constituted), and I am interested in how these subselves interact and result in behavior. Since there are psychologists who do not accept this plurality of selves, I have been criticized by those who ask me to prove the existence of subselves.

When I first encountered this demand, I was taken aback. Was it possible that there might indeed be proof that the mind is made up of several subselves, even though I could not think of any? Let us consider one theory that does propose subselves, Eric Berne's Transactional Analysis. Berne argued that organized subsystems existed in the mind, and he proposed three *ego states*: Child, Adult, and Parent. Each of the three ego states has component parts. Child ego states have rudimentary Child, Adult, and Parent components. Adult ego states have *pathos* and *ethos*. Parent ego states have two components, each modeled on one of our parents, *father* and *mother*. Transactional analysts use this conceptualization of the mind in their psychotherapy, and their clients accept it and find it useful. Is it proven that our minds have three ego states? No. Is it provable? Probably not.

Yet testy (and pesky) reviewers continue to ask me to provide empirical evidence for the existence of subselves. Since I cannot, I fall back on the established procedure of citing other, prestigious scholars who have had the same idea. I presented my formal theory several ago (Lester 2010), and the present book provides many examples of subselves in action. This does not *prove* their existence, but I hope that it is persuasive.

Prologue: What Is The Self?

I. Me. Myself. We use these terms to refer to ourselves all the time, but who are we? We also use terms such as self-concept, self-esteem, self-control, self-portrait, and self-deception, among many others. What is our concept of ourselves? How high or low is our self-esteem? Are we in control of ourselves or not? Baumeister (1998), in a comprehensive review of writings on the nature of the self, noted that the thousands of articles written on the self have made the answer to the question “what is the self?” more, rather than less, elusive.

Two terms are of special interest. In self-deception, we deceive ourselves. Yet this implies two parts of our self—the one who deceives and the one who is deceived. When we deceive others, at least the deceiver and the deceived are in two different bodies, but in self-deception, the two selves are in the same body! A similar dilemma exists when we say, “I am ashamed of myself.” There seem to be two selves involved, the one who has behaved badly and the one who makes judgments about the behavior.

Consider the term which is very popular in psychological theory and research—the *false self*. The false self is the self that we present to others when we interact with them. What makes it false? It is our own self. If we act differently when we are with our children than when we are with our parents or colleagues, are all of these selves false? The peel of an orange covers the flesh inside, but the peel is not “false.” It is as real as the flesh underneath. As you will see later in this book, I prefer the term *façade self*. A façade is real and not false; it simply covers what is behind.

Perhaps you have friends who, at one point in their lives, told you that they need to take some time “to find themselves.” They mean that, along the way, they lost the sense of who they really *were*, which implies that they do not like or accept who they *are*. In a recent essay I wrote on the

motivations for suicide (Lester, 2013), I discussed suicide resulting from loss of self. I quoted from the diary of a young man who killed himself: “Not enough of me exists or works right for me right now.” His existence felt fragile to him: “I’m slipping. I’m falling.” I also discussed suicide as an escape from the self, an idea proposed by Baumeister (1990). I quoted from the diary of a man in his 30s who died by suicide and who wrote: “This experience [of praise for a talk at a conference] has left me with less of the feeling that I am a useless cog in society, that I don’t count, that no one cares what I do, that my actions are fruitless, that I’m stupid and incapable . . . that I’m not a blot on the societal world, a misfit, a cancer, a sponger, a misnomer.” Although that experience seems to have helped, he did not live much longer. Other experiences confirmed to him that he was a misfit and a cancer, and his death by suicide allowed him to escape from his mental pain.

Apart from those who have “lost their self,” most of us believe subjectively that there is a “real me,” a core self that is partially hidden by the façade selves that we erect in different social situations. However, this is a view primarily in the Western world. In the West, the analogy for the mind is a peach in which, after you have peeled away the flesh, you find the pit, the core self, at the center. In the Eastern world, particularly in those countries influenced by Zen Buddhism, there is no real self. In the East, the concept of the self is more like an onion. You peel layer and layer away, one after the other, but there is no central core, merely a final layer. How then, in the East, can there be a self? To use an analogy, the self is perhaps more like a river. The water flows along the river, and the water in the river is always changing and never the same as it was a moment ago, yet the river exists.

Another dichotomy is often drawn between individualistic cultures and collectivist cultures (Triandis 1989). In individualistic cultures, people view themselves as unique individuals, sometimes interacting with others. In collectivist cultures, people view themselves in terms of their relationships, a dichotomy perhaps symbolized by the pronouns “I” and “we.” Triandis described this dichotomy in terms of the relative importance of the private self and the collective self, although he limited these “selves” to simple cognitions rather than the organized subselves described in the present book.

Psychology, early in its history, preferred to ignore subjective experience and focus on observable behavior. As Epstein (1973) noted, “One can neither see a self-concept, nor touch it.” Social psychologists conceptualize the self in a social context, that is, in terms of the relation-

ships we have with others. As cognitive approaches to psychology have assumed dominance, studies of the self-concept have also focused on the cognitive processes involved in the description of our self-concept. For example, Greenwald and Pratkanis (1984) describe the self as an *attitudinal schema*.

In research on the nature of the self, there has been an increasing use of self-report inventories and quantitative behavioral measurement. A researcher can give out a fifty-item self-report scale, report its reliability with accompanying factor analyses, and explore its construct validity in the scores on other inventories that are correlated with the scores on the scale, an easily publishable article. In contrast, if we ask individuals to tell us, for example, how many subselves they have and to describe them, we can write a qualitative analysis of their reports, but qualitative researchers have long complained of the difficulty they have in getting their papers published. However, psychotherapists have no choice but to deal with their clients' subjective worlds, and they are, therefore, much more accepting of their clients' experiences, which often suggest a multiple self. Each of us has a unique subjective experience of ourselves, and we use a variety of terms to describe this experience. Some psychotherapists, such as Eric Berne, provide terms (Child, Adult, and Parent ego states) for clients to use in describing their subjective experiences, while others, such as Stewart Shapiro, permit their clients to provide their own labels for their subselves.

Baumeister (1998) suggested that there are three important issues in understanding the nature of the self. First, *reflexive self-consciousness* involves attending to the flow of our mental processes and forming a concept of ourselves. Second, selfhood has an *interpersonal component* since we are often interacting with others. Third, the self involves an *executive function*, a function which seems to determine our decisions and actions.

Although the present book does not provide a simple answer to the question, "what is the self?" it does provide one possible way of viewing the self, a way which jibes with the subjective experience of many individuals. I have formulated the model in postulates and corollaries in order to specify the model clearly and in order to stimulate modifications to the model and research designed to test the usefulness of the model. This multiple self theory argues that many of us, perhaps the vast majority of us, have an awareness (a self-consciousness) that we have multiple selves rather than one single self. In our interpersonal interactions, we adopt different façade selves (social selves) depending

on whom we are with. The theory also adopts the idea of Eric Berne that, at any given moment in time, one of our subselves is in control (has executive power) and determines our mental processes and behavioral acts. The theory, therefore, addresses the three important issues noted by Baumeister above and provides one possible set of answers.

A Multiple Self Theory of the Mind

A perusal of most textbooks designed for courses on theories of personality reveals the influence of two themes. The first is that many psychologists believe that human behavior is determined in part, and some believe completely, by stimuli in the environment. This is evident from the inclusion of a chapter on Skinner's learning theory, which may be appropriately described as a theory of *no mind*. Textbooks also usually present the ideas of Walter Mischel (1968), who argued that people behave differently because of the different situations in which they find themselves and because of their different histories of learning. Mischel later modified this extreme view, but its influence persists today.

The second is the notion that humans have a single *self*. Some theorists argue that this is always the case, while others argue that integrating the various components of the mind into a single self is a task for the second half of life. This view has been argued most forcefully by Baumeister (1998), who stated: "The multiplicity of selfhood is a metaphor. The unity of selfhood is a defining fact" (p. 682). Baumeister presented no facts to back up his assertion, so it could just as appropriately be asserted that the unity of the self is a metaphor whereas the multiplicity of the self is a fact. Proulx and Chandler (2009) noted that philosophers from Hobbes and Locke to Kierkegaard and Camus have argued for a single unified self, best summarized by Flanagan (1996, p. 52) as the *one self per customer rule*.

A contrasting view, that the mind is made of a multiplicity of selves, was stated most clearly by Andras Angyal (1965) whose theory of the mind is, unfortunately, rarely mentioned in personality textbooks. (www.panarchy.org/angyal/personality.html) Although a holistic theorist, Angyal proposed that the mind is made up of *subsystems* which interact, resulting in setting and shifting set, as one after another subsystem takes over control of the mind, and which sometimes conflict,

resulting in symptoms of pressure, intrusion, and invasion. Angyal's presentation of his theory remained abstract, but later theorists provided illustrations of Angyal's ideas without, however, acknowledging Angyal's contribution. For example, Eric Berne (1961) proposed the existence of ego states (Parent, Adult, and Child) that control the mind at different times (that is, each assumes executive power temporarily) and that come into conflict (leading to contamination, a situation that resembles Angyal's concept of intrusion).

The theory that mind is made up of multiple selves has been proposed most forcefully in recent years by John Rowan (1990: www.JohnRowan.org.uk) and myself (Lester 2010: www.drdauidlester.net). Rowan prefers to use the term *subpersonalities*, whereas I use the term *subselves* or *multiple selves*. My theory is the most formal presentation, and I laid out my theory in ten postulates and fifty corollaries, presented later in this chapter.

What is interesting is the role that serendipity plays in the progress that each of us makes in our scholarly work. Since publishing my version of the multiple self theory of the mind, I have come across others who have had similar ideas and commentators who describe multiple selves in their discussion of human behavior. My goal in the present book is to assume that the reader has read (or will read) the formal presentation of the theory (Lester 2010) and here present the work of others who have proposed a similar idea and some interesting applications of a multiple self theory of the mind. In order to help readers understand the formal theory, a summary of my theory is presented below.

A Subself Theory of Personality¹

Accordingly it is not surprising that some people have great resistance to seeing their personality as other than one monolithic coherent unit. Something inside them resists the awareness that their personality is made up of many different parts—as if to admit such a breakdown would cause the breaking down into non-being of their identity itself. (Vargiu 1974, p. 53)

Many of the major theorists of personality have proposed that the mind is made up of many subselves. For example, Eric Berne (1961) talked of ego states, Carl Jung (Proff, 1973) of complexes, Abraham Maslow (1970) of syndromes, Gordon Allport (1961) of traits, Henry Murray (1959) of themata, and Andras Angyal (1965) of subsystems. However, despite this agreement on the usefulness of the concept of the subself,

very little theoretical discussion has appeared using this concept. The present section explores the past use of the concept and proposes postulates and corollaries for a formal subself theory of the mind.

Other scholars interested in this topic have taken a cognitive approach to the multiple self (e.g., Higgins, Klein, & Strauman, 1985) or focused on scales to measure aspects of self-complexity (e.g., Campbell, Trapnell, Heine, Katz, Lavallee, & Lehman, 1996), and they seek to ground their writings in the earlier ideas of William James (1890) and George Mead (1934). The present paper, however, is grounded in the major theories of personality which are usually ignored by these other approaches.

It should be noted that many writers appear to be talking of the *structure* or the *architecture* of the personality or the mind, but close examination indicates that they are not. For example, Cervone (2005) entitled his article "Personality Architecture," but his examples include the five-factor model (McRae & Costa, 1999). The five-factor model simply proposes five basic dimensions (or traits) of personality. Individuals may have profiles on these five factors, much as they can on the MMPI, but there is no organization or structure. In contrast, Eric Berne's ego states have structure and interactive properties. It is this type of "architecture" that the present theory explores.

Subselves in the Major Theories of Personality

Carl Jung

Jung's term for the totality of psychological processes was the *psyche*. Jung proposed that complexes exist within the psyche, autonomous partial systems that are organizations of psychic contents. Complexes are subsystems of the whole. (The complexes in the collective unconscious are the archetypes.) In particular, Jung identified several complexes that he felt were of particular use for a discussion of human behavior.

The ego consists of our conscious psychic contents and contains percepts, memories, thoughts, desires, and feelings. The persona is a subsystem within the ego and is the self that we present to others, the mask we wear in daily intercourse with others. It consists of the roles we play in our lives.

The shadow consists of those psychic contents in the personal (and to a lesser extent the collective) unconscious that are in opposition to the contents of the ego. These contents are less developed and less differentiated than the contents of the ego, but their presence is made

apparent to the ego whenever the boundaries between the systems break down and the contents from the shadow intrude into the ego.

In addition, the subsystem in the collective unconscious that is in opposition to the persona subsystem of the ego is called the anima in males and the animus in females. By modern standards, Jung erred here in identifying the core of human behavior in terms of the sexual stereotypes of his day. Jung described males as “masculine” and females as “feminine,” in what today would be considered a gender-biased fashion. For example, Jung described the unconscious animus of females as rational and discriminating, showing that Jung believed females to have an irrational and emotional conscious ego. Today, there is no need to accept all of Jung’s ideas wholesale. The anima and animus can be conceptualized more appropriately as the subsystems of the shadow that are in opposition to the persona, and their content can vary depending upon the psychic contents of the particular persona. (Perhaps these should both be called “animum,” using the Latin neuter gender?)

Eric Berne

Whereas psychoanalytic theory usually uses the terms id, ego, and superego to characterize particular wishes, Eric Berne (1961) followed Paul Federn (1952) and Edoardo Weiss (1950) in defining ego states. An ego state is a coherent system of feelings and behavior patterns. Complete ego states can be retained in the memory permanently. The defense mechanisms can operate upon complete ego states, and, for example, ego states can be repressed as a whole. Ego states from earlier years remain preserved in a latent state, with the potential to be resurrected (recathected in Berne’s terminology).

The Parent ego state is a judgmental ego state, but in an imitative way (primarily, of course, by imitating the person’s parents). It seeks to enforce borrowed standards. The Parent ego state parallels the superego in psychoanalytic theory. The Adult ego state is concerned with transforming stimuli into information and then processing that information. It corresponds to the ego in psychoanalytic theory. The Child ego state reacts impulsively, using prelogical thinking and poorly differentiated and distorted perception. It corresponds to the id in psychoanalytic theory. However, although this simple correspondence is worth noting, the id, ego, and superego are sets of wishes, whereas the Child, Adult, and Parent are integrated and coherent ego states. People are always in some ego state, and they shift from one to another (a process which Angyal [1941] called setting and shifting set).

Abraham Maslow

Abraham Maslow (1970), an important influence in the development of humanistic psychology, urged a holistic approach to the study of personality. Behavior, he argued, is an expression or creation of the whole personality, which in turn is the result of everything that has ever happened to it. Personality is composed of syndromes— that is, structured, organized, and integrated complexes of diverse specificities (behavior, thoughts, impulses, perceptions, and so on) that have a common unity. The total personality and the syndromes tend to be well-organized, and they resist change, instead seeking to re-establish themselves after forced changes and to change as a whole because of tendencies to seek internal consistency. Behavior is an expression of the whole integrated personality (and thus, an expression of all of the personality syndromes).

Other Proposals for Subselves

Decision Theorists

In discussing the phenomenon of self-deception, some decision theorists have proposed a model of the mind like “the older medieval city, with relatively autonomous neighborhoods, linked by small lanes that change their names half way across their paths, a city that is a very loose confederation of neighborhoods of quite different kinds, each with its distinctive internal organization . . .” (Rorty, 1985, p. 116). Rorty views the self as a loose configuration of habits—habits of thoughts, perception, motivation, and action, acquired at different stages, in the service of different goals. Margolis (1982) proposed that the person can be viewed as two selves, one concerned with selfish benefits and the other with group benefits.

Lynne (1999) applied Eric Berne’s proposal of three ego states (Parent, Adult, and Child) to economic decision-making, where the Adult mediates between the competing self-interests and we-interests. Steedman and Krause (1985) talked of a multifaceted individual having different points of view, while others (de Sousa, 1976; Dennett, 1978; Hofstadter & Dennett, 1981; Lycan, 1981) have argued in favor of picturing the self as a hierarchical structure of ever-simpler homunculi. Finally, Elster (1985) proposed what may be a fitting analogy—the mind as a computer with different programs (software) being loaded and taking control at different times, to which might be added a further analogy for subselves, that is, different routines of the software being called up, for example, the crosstabs routine of SPSS.

W. R. D. Fairbairn

Fairbairn (1954) is one of the group of psychoanalysts who have become known as object-relations theorists. Fairbairn proposed that the infant, when faced with a frustrating parent, tries to control this aspect of his environment. In his mind, the infant splits the object into its good and bad aspects and introjects or internalizes the bad aspect. This makes the environment good and the infant bad. Even in extreme cases, abused children see themselves as bad and their parents as good. Fairbairn proposed that these internalized aspects, or *objects*, become dynamic structures which are capable of acting as independent agents within the mind. These structures are located in the ego, and the situation is as if there were a multiplicity of egos at war with one another. Fairbairn called this the *endopsychic situation*.

Fairbairn described the *libidinal ego*, those parts of the mind that feel needy, attacked, and persecuted; the *internal saboteur* (the antilibidinal, or attacking, ego), which is aggressive and attacking, especially toward the libidinal ego and which resembles the classic Freudian superego; and the *central ego*, which tries to repress these subsidiary egos. The goal of psychotherapy is to make the bad objects conscious so that their emotional power can be dissolved.

Georges Gurdjieff

Ouspensky (1949) has described the teachings of Gurdjieff, an Armenian mystic, whom he met in the early part of the twentieth century in Russia. Many of Gurdjieff's ideas concerned the structure of personality, and he saw people as containing many different people.

We think that if a man is called Ivan he is always Ivan. Nothing of the kind. Now he is Ivan, in another minute Peter, and a minute later he is Nicholas, Sergius, Matthew, Simon. And all of you think he is Ivan. You know that Ivan cannot do a certain thing. He cannot tell a lie for instance. Then you find he has told a lie and you are surprised he could have done so, and, indeed, Ivan cannot lie; it is Nicholas who lied . . . You will be astonished when you realize what a multitude of these Ivans and Nicholases live in one man. (Ouspensky, 1949, p. 53)

Each of these selves call themselves "I." They each consider themselves masters and do not like to recognize one another, leading to conflict. Gurdjieff thought that there was no order among them. Whoever gets the upper hand is master until another seizes power. One solution is for the many I's to elect a leader who can keep the other I's in their place

and make each function at the appropriate time. The ultimate solution for Gurdjieff was for the person to develop a true master, a higher self who could control all of the lesser selves.

Gurdjieff also phrased his ideas in terms of roles. Each person has a definite repertoire of roles which he plays in most circumstances. The repertoire of roles is quite limited, no more than five or six. One or two for his family, one or two at work, one for social friends, and one for intellectual friends. When we are in a role, we are fully identified with the role. Without a role we feel undressed.

Mardi Horowitz

Horowitz (1988) proposed the concept of a state of mind. A state of mind is a relatively coherent pattern, a composite of diverse forms of experience and expression which appear almost simultaneously. These states of mind are accompanied by characteristic expressive behaviors (such as voice pace, or tone and facial expressions). Horowitz categorized these states of mind for the degree to which emotions and impulses were controlled: undermodulated, well-modulated, or overmodulated. Horowitz also suggested that one particular state of mind could sometimes try to coexist with another. Horowitz suggested naming these states of mind so that they can be discussed with clients in psychotherapy and observed by clients when alone. This naming helps clients control the states, and they can observe their mind moving from one state to another.

J. M. M. Mair

Mair (1977), a psychologist, proposed viewing the mind as a “community of selves.” The expressions “to be of two minds” about an issue and “to do battle with ourselves” suggest that we sometimes talk and act as if we were two people rather than one. Mair suggested that it is useful in psychotherapy to encourage people to conceptualize their minds in this way, with some selves which are persistent while others are transient, some isolates while others work as a team, some who appear on many occasions while others appear only rarely, and some of which are powerful while others are submissive.

Marvin Minsky

Minsky (1986), cofounder of the artificial intelligence laboratory at MIT, proposed that there are *agencies of the mind*, but by *agencies* he meant any process. Although he granted that a view of the mind of made up as many

selves may be valid, he suggested that this may be a myth we construct. When introducing the concept of agencies (a broad term which includes selves as one type of agency), Minsky suggested several important questions to ask about agencies which can also be asked about subselves (p. 18): (1) function—how do agents work? (2) embodiment—what are they made of? (3) interaction—how do they communicate? (4) origins—where do the first agents come from? (5) heredity—are we all born with the same agents? (6) learning—how to make new agents and change old ones? (7) character—what are the most important kinds of agents? (8) authority—what happens when agents disagree? (9) intention—how could such networks want or wish? (10) competence—how can groups of agents do what separate agents cannot do? (11) selfness—what gives them unity or responsibility? (12) meaning—how could they understand anything? (13) sensibility—how could they have feelings and emotions? and (14) awareness—how could they be conscious or self-aware?

James Ogilvy

Ogilvy (1977), a philosopher, described the mind as a multiplicity of selves with a decentralized organization. This multiplicity of selves, a pluralized pantheon of selves, as opposed to a single monotheistic ego, leads to freedom. He saw the least free person as one who has a single, highly predictable personality, a predictability which, in his view, signifies lack of freedom. Each self is a source of differing interpretations of the world, based on differing interpretive schemes. The person is the result of mediation among this collection of relatively autonomous subselves. The goal is to prevent one of these selves from taking over control as a single administrator or having them in a hierarchical organization. Ogilvy viewed the subselves as working together, much as in a group, to devise a final product (a behavior). Individual differences result from the different evolution of the multiple selves and their differing organizations.

John Rowan

Rowan (1990) surveyed the many theorists who have used the concept of subselves, or variants of it. Rowan's preference is for the term *subpersonality*, and he defines it as "a semipermanent and semiautonomous region of the personality capable of acting as a person" (p. 8). Rowan noted that it is necessary, on the one hand, to reify subpersonalities, but, on the other hand, to remember that we are talking not about things but about processes which are fluid and in change.

In discussing the origin of subpersonalities, Rowan suggested that roles could bring out accompanying subpersonalities. Internal conflicts, in which two or more sides argue within us, also can lead to the formation of subpersonalities. Our bodies can participate in these conflicts and act antagonistically to our minds. Thus the body, and even parts of the body, can also be regarded as subpersonalities. Identification with heroes or heroines can sometimes lead to the person's taking on the identity of the hero. Subpersonalities can also derive from the Freudian personal unconscious and the Jungian collective unconscious.

Stewart Shapiro

Stewart Shapiro noted that we often talk to ourselves (Shapiro & Elliott, 1976). Inner dialogues take place as conversations between various subselves, different parts of our self, with different distinct personal characteristics. Shapiro attempted to listen for evidence of conflict in the patient during psychotherapy and then tried to separate the different parts of the person involved in this conflict. Shapiro saw his role as that of coach or facilitator, that is, helping the subselves emerge and training the patient to deal with them in constructive ways. It is critical that none of the subselves be rejected. Each must be understood and integrated back into the self-organization.

Shapiro tried to identify or develop a mediator for the subselves. He called it a chairman of the board, or some term best suited for the particular patient. The goal is to transfer energy and power to this mediator (c.f., the ego in psychoanalysis and the Adult ego state in Transactional Analysis). Subself therapy differs from a psychotherapy such as Transactional Analysis because it permits the patient to identify and label the subselves, rather than fitting them into a predetermined set of subselves (such as Child, Adult, and Parent ego states).

Shapiro felt that the optimal number of subselves was between four and nine. Too many subselves results in a fragmented or chaotic self and is a form of psychological disturbance. Five kinds of subselves are found in most people:

1. A nurturing parent subself—This self supports and gives love, care, attention, praise, and positive reinforcement.
2. An evaluative parent subself—This self is often called the Critic, Pusher, or Voice of Authority. It reflects the norms and values of the society and sets up standards and assesses you to see if you have lived up to them.

3. A central organizing subself—This is an Executive, Chairman, or Coordinator, who is the self that often works with the Observer and should act as the leader, although it is often displaced by other subselves, such as the Critic.
4. A good, socialized, adapted child subself—This is an obedient, conforming child who tries to please authorities. If this subself is too strong, it can lead to overconformity, role obedience, and lack of creativity.
5. A natural child subself—This subself is creative, nonconforming, rebellious, spontaneous, and playful.

Subselves can be introjected subselves, especially those that result from identification with a parent. For example, there may be an Audience (or Other People), and there can be internalized parents, such as a Mother.

These subselves can interact in a drama (or life script), as a family, as an organization or task group, or as a discussion group. It is important for the psychological health of the client for the subselves to get along with one another. An internal civil war or great conflict and tension can lead to psychological disturbance. The group of subselves should be democratic, with a minimal amount of partisanship, favoritism, and moralistic judgments. The energy of the subselves should also be rechanneled away from fighting into constructive problem solving under the leadership of the Chairman. In addition, the Observer should be developed to act as a consultant to the group of subselves.

The Performer versus the Pusher is a common conflict. The Performing Child or Performer is the subself who puts on a performance of some kind, and the Pusher, or Slave Driver, demands that the Performer perform. This often makes the Performer rebel against performing, resulting in conflict. (The Performer may in fact have two subselves, the Socialized Child and the Natural Child.) The Pusher is often associated with a Critic too. In marital conflicts, we often externalize this inner conflict. We project one of our subselves onto the partner and fight with it in the marriage relationship instead of internally.

Shapiro identified several different types of psychopathology:

1. Too many subselves, leading to inner chaos.
2. Too great an inner conflict, especially where the Chairman has little power.
3. Negative emotions (such as sadness and depression) are often caused by one subself attacking the Child, often without the patient's awareness.

Psychological health involves having an effective Chairman, who can observe, coordinate, and execute decisions, and promote basic harmony among the subelves. However, Shapiro notes that integrating the subelves is not enough. We have various subelves, but we are not them. We are greater than the sum of the parts. We have to dis-identify with our subelves eventually, and transcend them. We have to achieve a higher level of awareness—a spiritual harmony that is beyond the psychological harmony.

James Vargiu

Vargiu (1974) has proposed that semi-autonomous subpersonalities exist in the mind, and when any one expresses itself, it leads us to play the corresponding role. We choose which subpersonality we want to express at each moment, which raises the question as to who is the subself that chooses. As a psychotherapist, the goal of therapy is to help the client to become aware of these subpersonalities, get to know them, and then regulate and direct their expression. The subpersonalities must be in harmony rather than conflict, and Vargiu achieves this during psychotherapy with his clients in stages—recognition, acceptance, coordination, integration, and synthesis.

The Personal Use of the Concept

The concept of subelves is one which people find easy to use. There are many examples that could be provided here, but a well-known series of films provides an illustration. In the set of films in which a client called Gloria is interviewed by Carl Rogers, Frederick Perls, and Albert Ellis (Shostrom, 1965), the metaphor of subelves is present in all of the interviews.

With Carl Rogers, Gloria talks of her “shady side” and her “ornery devilish side.” She also talks of splits in her self. “I want to approve of me always, but my actions won’t let me,” to which Rogers comments that “It sounds as if your actions are kind of outside of you. . . . It sounds like a triangle, doesn’t it? You feel that I or other therapists in general or other people say ‘It’s all right, natural enough. Go ahead.’ I guess you feel your body sort of lines up on that side of the picture, but something in you says, ‘But I don’t like it that way unless it’s really right.’” There seems to be a part of Gloria that passes judgment on another part. She has a body and actions that do one thing, and a part of her mind that argues for an alternative course of action.

With Perls, Gloria exhibits the two polarities of her existence—the mother, treating others as if they were her children, afraid to be close, and, at the other extreme, the little girl, hiding in a corner, waiting to be rescued, but willing to be close. With Ellis, Gloria again refers to parts of herself. She fears showing a “stinky part of me” to others, and Ellis tells her that she is taking a part of herself and acting as if it were the total self. He tells her that she must accept herself with the defective part. Finally, in the summary interview with Everett Shostrom, Gloria says that she felt her more lovable, caring self with Rogers, but that he would make it hard for her spitfire self to come out. Shostrom comments that she “felt your feeling self with Dr. Rogers, your fighting self with Dr. Perls . . .” and she finished for him: “. . . and my thinking self with Dr. Ellis.”

In the following sections, a series of postulates about subselves will be proposed, together with references to other theorists who have suggested the ideas. In addition, some of the postulates will have accompanying corollaries. First, the question of what is a subself must be answered. Any of the definitions provided by those theorists of personality who utilize such a concept will suffice, but for present purposes a subself is defined as a coherent system of thoughts, desires, and emotions, organized by a system principle.

Is a Multiple Self Universal?

POSTULATE 1: The mind can be construed as made up of several subselves

COROLLARY 1a: Not every individual has a multiple self.

Frick (1993), who preferred the term “the fractured self” or “partial identity,” asked whether everyone has a multiple self. Frick suggested that only neurotics have multiple selves, not mature and integrated people. He proposed that the level of integration parallels the level of self-awareness. Subselves are associated with low or distorted levels of awareness. Despite Frick’s negative view of the concept of subselves, his views lead to the proposition that not everyone may have a mind made up of multiple selves.

This raises the question, therefore, of what are the differences between those whose mind can be conceptualized as a multiple self and those whose mind can be conceptualized as a unified self, an issue open to empirical investigation in the future.

Executive Control

POSTULATE 2: At any point in time, one subself is in control of the mind. It may be said to have executive power.

The notion that one subself is in control of the mind at any point in time was proposed by Eric Berne (1961) in his description of ego states. A good analogy here is a computer in which different programs are in operation at each point in time, such as Excel or SPSS, or Microsoft Word. For the present theory, the subself that has executive power will be called the “executive subself.”

COROLLARY 2a: When one subself has executive power, the other subselves are said to be suspended.

The concept of suspension of systems of constructs, of course, was fully described by George Kelly (1955) in his theory of personal constructs. Berne (1961) called this process decommissioning.

COROLLARY 2b: When one subself has executive power, some of the other subselves may be monitoring what is being processed by the executive subself, but others may not. Empirical investigation of the individual is necessary to determine which subselves are monitoring and which are not.

The extreme of this situation is in multiple personality, where the different subselves may have amnesia for what transpires when other subselves have executive power. On the other hand, in descriptions of the “hidden observer” in hypnosis (Hilgard, 1986), the belief is that one subself monitors what is going on when other subselves have executive power. Beahrs (1983) has called this co-consciousness, which he conceptualizes as subselves functioning simultaneously. It is, therefore, possible that some suspended subselves may monitor what transpires in the executive subself while other subselves may not.²

COROLLARY 2c: Some subselves collaborate in groups or teams, while others may be isolates; some appear in many situations while others may appear on only rare special occasions; some are domineering while others are submissive.

These dimensions on which subselves may be construed have been suggested by Mair (1977) and others.

COROLLARY 2d: A subself may have executive power for anywhere from seconds to hours or longer.

In the majority of situations, each subself has executive power for a reasonable period, perhaps extending for hours. If subselves are

associated with roles, a person may teach a class (in a professorial role) for two hours and then drive home to a family where he or she switches into a spouse role. On the other hand when people have internal dialogues within themselves, debating whether to take some action, each subself has executive power for the time it takes to argue one side of the argument. In the extreme, the internal dialogue may become chaotic as in Laing's (1969) analysis of the fragmented speech of a schizophrenic woman who was in psychotherapy with him.

COROLLARY 2e: Selfhood is whichever subself has executive power at the time.

The issues of who "I" am has long been debated by psychologists interested in the notion of selfhood. In the present theory, selfhood is perceived by the individual to be whichever subself has executive power at the time.

COROLLARY 2f: Subselves may form coalitions within the larger group. These coalitions may improve or impair the functioning of the mind.

In groups and in families (Cox & Paley, 1997) coalitions may form between smaller subsets of the whole, such as children versus the parents in family systems. The same process may occur with subselves. This can be good if the coalitions assist a weak subself to assert itself, but bad if a group of subselves forces other subselves into submission.

COROLLARY 2g: The existence of subselves accounts for the occasional inconsistency in the behavior of individuals.

Mischel (1968) argued that the occasional inconsistency of behavior provided strong support for a contextual or situational theory of human behavior (as opposed to intrapsychic explanations). The existence of subselves weakens Mischel's arguments by viewing the apparent inconsistencies as the result of different subselves having executive power in the different situations.

Subselves as a Small Group

POSTULATE 3: The subselves function in a manner similar to a small group of individuals.

Lester (1985) suggested the usefulness of viewing the various subselves in the mind as a small group. In group dynamics research, intragroup conflict is typically seen as counterproductive, expending energy on activities unrelated to the group purpose. For example, in Cattell's (1948) group syntality theory, the energy expended on establishing and maintaining cohesion and harmony in the group is called

maintenance synergy, while that used to achieve the goals of the group is called *effective synergy*. The more energy that goes into maintenance, the less is available for achieving goals. Vargiu (1974) has noted that achieving harmony and resolving conflict may also require the various subselves to change, and this requires effort.

Shapiro and Elliott (1976) demonstrated the usefulness in psychotherapy of creating new subselves in clients designed to reduce this intragroup conflict. For example, it is useful to have a subself with the function of “recording secretary” for information storage, another with the function of “mediator,” and sometimes a “chairman of the board” with the power to help resolve conflict between the subselves. In addition, occasional subselves may outlive their use and should be encouraged to “retire” or no longer try to influence the individual’s mind.

Lester noted that small groups with a hierarchical structure are often more productive, but their members are less satisfied. On the other hand, some structure is often useful. The goal is perhaps to have a dominant subself, but not one that is overly dominating.

Lester noted that research on group dynamics indicates that increasing the size of the group eventually increases the chances that a dominant member will emerge and force conformity from the other group members. Thus, there is a limit to the size of a group for effective functioning. In writing on subselves, Allport (1961), Rowan (1990), and Shapiro and Elliott (1976) have suggested that from four to ten subselves is ideal. Psychotherapists who work with clients using a subself perspective have noted many more subselves in some clients, occasionally claiming that a client had “hundreds” of subselves.

Two empirical studies have been reported on this issue. Rowan (1990) asked the clients in a group he led to list their subselves. The mean was 6.5 with a range of 0 to 18. Lester (1992) asked a sample of undergraduate students to list their subselves and found a mean of 3.5 with a range of 2 to 6. The number of subselves reported in Lester’s study was not associated with age, but the women reported more subselves than the men (with means of 3.8 versus 2.5). The number of subselves reported was also associated with neuroticism and extraversion scores. The extraverted neurotics reported the most subselves, with a mean of 4.6. In another study, students who were unable to report subselves scored lower on a test of self-monitoring (Lester 1997). Lester (2003a) found that the number of subselves reported was not associated with cognitive complexity measures from George Kelly’s REP Grid, having a Taoist orientation, or scores on Altrocchi’s (1999) plural self scale.

Research on group dynamics also indicates that egalitarian small groups typically produce more and better solutions to problems than individuals, but that they take longer to reach decisions and are more likely to make risky decisions. Perhaps these same principles might apply to people with many subselves. For example, it has been proposed by Andras Angyal (1965), Eric Berne (1961), and Carl Jung (Proffoff, 1973) that subselves that are excluded from ever assuming control of the mind exert pressure on the dominant (and domineering) subself, often intruding upon (and even invading) the dominant subself, leading to psychological disturbance.

These ideas can be summarized in several corollaries.

COROLLARY 3a: In some productive organizations of subselves, one subself acts as a leader, analogous to the conductor of an orchestra, coordinating the contributions of the other subselves.

COROLLARY 3b: Egalitarian groups of subselves typically result in greater satisfaction for the individual.

COROLLARY 3c: The individual's subselves can reorganize themselves in new ways as they develop.

COROLLARY 3d: Groups of subselves are best limited to at least four and no more than ten.

Can a Multiple Self be Healthy?

POSTULATE 4: Having a unified self for a multiple self has no bearing on the individual's psychological health.

Campbell, Assanand, and Di Paula (2003) noted that some theorists (such as Gergen, 1971) propose that greater pluralism is associated with greater psychological well-being, whereas others (such as Rogers, 1959) propose that greater unity is associated with greater psychological well-being. In their research, using a variety of measures related to a multiple self-concept, Campbell et al. found that some measures of pluralism were unrelated to measures of psychological adjustment while others were.

Although Frick (1993) saw a multiple self as an index of psychological disturbance, not all multiple self theorists share this view. Bogart (1994) argued that subselves (which he called personas) can be active players in our efforts to be fully functioning or self-actualized. Bogart uses personas in his system of psychotherapy and explores them using Fritz Perls's hot seat technique (Perls, Hefferline, & Goodman, 1951), Virginia Satir's (1967) conjoint family therapy, and Jacob Moreno's psychodrama (Yablonsky, 1976). He has clients write autobiographies for

each subself and name them, a process which continues and becomes more precise as the community of selves interact with one another (which he calls “multiloguing”). He endeavors to get the subselves and the whole self to grow together toward greater levels of maturity, to shift from one of them wielding power to all of them sharing power.

COROLLARY 4a: It can be healthy for one subself to maintain overall control of the group of subselves while delegating duties to other subselves and allowing each subself to have executive power from time to time. It may be pathological when this “chairman of the board” is impaired in its role, for this may lead to conflict, struggles, and even war between the subselves, rendering the person’s mind chaotic.

Conflict between subselves can be avoided by having good communication between them, validating the existence and function of each subself, and strengthening the “chairman of the board.”

Rationality and Plural Subselves?

POSTULATE 5: Multiple selves may lead to more rational decisions than a unified self.

Moldoveanu and Stevenson (2001) explored the implications of a plural (versus a single) self for the economic theory of humans as rational agents. They portrayed the multiple self as an “ever-changing, possibly internally conflicting entity” (p. 295), and they argued that “Split-self—or schizoid approaches—recognize the internally incoherent nature of selfhood” (p. 318). Economic man implies a self-interested, rational, and temporally stable individual, and classical economic theory conceptualizes humans as rational decision makers. The possibility of multiple selves might pose grave problems for classical economic theory.

Lester (2003a) responded to their assumptions by noting that, indeed, some models of the multiple self, such as Eric Berne’s (1961) proposal of three ego-states (Child, Adult, and Parent) could lead to irrational decision-making. For example, if decisions were made while the individual was in the Child ego-state, then decisions would be made by a subself which resembles the mind of a small child.

However, not all conceptions of the multiple self would result in irrational decision-making. Indeed, some models, such as that of Shapiro and Elliott (1976) discussed above, in which subselves such as “recording secretary” and “mediator” exist, might lead to greater

rationality in decision-making. We have also seen above that decisions made by a small group may be better decisions than those made by a single individual, and we have noted that a parallel situation may be true for a mind made up of many subselves, rather than a single unified self. Lester argued, therefore, that a multiple self may fit the concept of economic man better than a unified self.

Future Subselves

POSTULATE 6: Individuals can seek to create new subselves for the future.

Several scholars have introduced the concept of *possible selves* (Hooker & Kaus, 1992; Dunkel & Kerpelman, 2004). Although their concept appears to be similar to the present focus on subselves, it is not. Hooker and Kaus's concept of possible selves refers to goals and fears for the future. Hooker and Kaus instruct their subjects to think about "the kinds of experiences that are in store for us and the kinds of people we might possibly become . . . what we hope we will be like" (p. 395), and they give an example of "one of my own [possible selves] is to win the lottery and become a millionaire" (p. 395).³

Despite this difference between their concept and the present theory, their discussion raises the possibility that people might indeed seek to create new subselves as defined in the present theory. For example, with regard to roles (one possible form of subselves), an individual might plan to have a child and become a parent, thereby creating a new role. When depressed people enter therapy of some kind to change their lives, their behavior can be construed as seeking to create a new, happy subself for the future. In this last example, the reality is that the depressed subself will not disappear or be destroyed, but rather that it will take over the mind for less and less time in the future, in the way that Angyal (1965) proposed that the biopositive system principle organizes the mind for longer periods of time as patients progress through psychotherapy, whereas the bionegative system principle organizes the mind less often.

Do Subselves Come in Pairs?

POSTULATE 7: The subselves in some individuals are complemented by subselves differing on critical dimensions.

Boulding (1968), in writing about the subsystems of society, noted that each system tends to create the need for an opposing system that balances it, and that typically these two subsystems share similar

characteristics. A forceful pro-choice movement for abortion leads to the development of a forceful pro-life anti-abortion movement, and vice versa. Racketeering employers and racketeering unions go together.

Lester (1987a) noted that this might occur in subelves. Carl Jung (Proff 1973) felt that each complex in the conscious mind was balanced by a complementary complex in the unconscious mind with opposed traits. For example, if the conscious complex is extraverted and prone to use intuition, then the unconscious complex will be introverted and prone to use sensing. Jung saw complexes and sub-complexes balanced in extraversion-introversion, thinking-feeling, and sensing-intuition. A similar idea was proposed by Vargiu (1974), with subpersonalities (to use his terminology) developing as a reaction against others.

Freeing this idea from the polarity of conscious/unconscious, it can be proposed that any subelf will tend to encourage the development of another subelf with complementary characteristics. An example here is the description of the “top dog” and “bottom dog” by Perls, Hefferline, and Goodman (1951) in their description of Gestalt Therapy—the righteous, nagging, and threatening self versus the self that promises to change if only it could! These two subelves are similar to those described by Schelling (1980). One of Schelling’s examples is the subelf that wants clean lungs and a long life and the other subelf who adores tobacco. The underlying construct could be rational-irrational, in which the irrational subelf discounts the future. This dichotomy is similar to that found in Zen where one subelf tries to control another subelf, You (one subelf) must empty your mind (another subelf) of all intrusive thoughts.

COROLLARY 7a: Some subelves may occur in pairs with complementary attributes, whereas other subelves may occur in pairs with similar attributes. It is an empirical question as to whether individuals have such pairs, the genesis of these pairs, and why some complement each other while others do not.

COROLLARY 7b: A common polarity in pairs of subelves is the top-dog/bottom-dog dichotomy proposed by Fritz Perls.

Integration

POSTULATE 8: The individual eventually tries to integrate the subelves.

If the mind is conceptualized as made up of several subelves, the issue arises as to how the mind might be integrated (Lester, 1987b). It

might be that the process of integration, seen by both Erik Erickson (1959) and Carl Jung (Proff, 1973) as the task of the second half of life, involves breaking down the boundaries between the subselves and integrating them into a single unified self. Alternatively, it might be that the different subselves are fully developed and coexist in harmony with one another as Berne (1961) and Shapiro and Elliott (1976) have suggested.

Vargiu (1974) described several forms of integration, including time-sharing (where each subself has control of the mind on some occasions), cooperation, absorption (where one subself absorbs another), fusion or merging, and finally synthesis, which Vargiu sees as a transpersonal movement.

COROLLARY 8a: The integration of subselves is a task for the second half of life.

COROLLARY 8b: One form of integration is peaceful and harmonious co-existence, cooperation, and collaboration between the subselves.

COROLLARY 8c: One form of integration is the fusion or merging of the separate subselves into a single unified self.

COROLLARY 8d: It is an empirical issue as to which individuals choose each path of integration and what determines this choice.

The Varieties of Subselves

Richards (1990) argued that the schemes for categorizing a person's subselves are unlimited. There may be no common set of labels, but rather, individuals may have their own set of labels. This is reminiscent of George Kelly's (1955) Theory of Personal Constructs, in which there are no common constructs found in all people, but rather a unique set of constructs found in each individual.

However, other theorists have argued that the subselves of different people do have similar properties. For example, Eric Berne (1961) proposed that every individual has three ego states: Parent, Adult, and Child. The contents of each person's Child ego state, for example, may be different, but everyone has a Child ego state of some kind.

There have been many proposals for the types of subselves that might exist. Some theorists have suggested that there is a core self (Kelly, 1955) and what has been called a social self, pseudo-self, false self, or, preferably, *façade self* (Laing, 1969; Rogers, 1959; Wagner, 1971; Winnicott, 1965). It is perhaps not useful to single out only one of the subselves as a core self or to have only one *façade self*. It seems more

reasonable to propose several subselves which are equivalent (though differing in their influence on behavior) as core subselves and several as façade selves, in much the same way as a person can have several roles.

POSTULATE 9: There are several possibilities for subselves that are common to all individuals.

COROLLARY 9a: One common set of subselves consists of one or more core selves and one or more façade selves.⁴

COROLLARY 9b: Another common set of subselves is the top-dog/bottom-dog subselves proposed in Corollary 7a.

COROLLARY 9c: There are probably regressive subselves in most, if not all, individuals which are the subselves that they had at an earlier stage in life.

COROLLARY 9d: There are probably subselves formed by the introjection of the desires and thoughts of powerful others (in particular, parental figures) and imitation of their personality and behavioral styles.

COROLLARY 9e: Subselves may be defined in terms of social group membership or personal attributes and, in some people, there may be mixed types.

This last corollary is based on the ideas of Reid and Deaux (1996), who defined two types (or what they called identities): collective-allocentric-social versus individualistic-private-idiocentric-personal. Reid and Deaux thought that these types can be segregated, that is, brother, friend, or advocate versus disciplined, fun, or skeptical, or they could be mixed, such as advice giver/friend and disciplined/student. Although Reid and Deaux tried to test which of these models was found in their subjects, it is reasonable to assume that individuals can have either one or both types, in both segregated and integrated forms.

COROLLARY 9f: Kelly's REP Grid technique may be useful for describing and measuring the content of subselves.

The psychological content of the subselves (wishes, thoughts, and emotions) probably varies greatly from person to person, and, as Laing (1982) argued, makes each of us unique. Therefore, a good way of exploring the contents of the subselves of an individual is by the use of an instrument such as George Kelly's REP Grid (Kelly, 1955). For example, Lester (1998) had students complete a REP Grid for eight of their college professors (using an 8-by-8 grid) and, separately, for eight of their family members, two of their major roles (and perhaps subselves). The REP Grids of the students for their professors were

less complex than those for their family members (the first factor for the professors' grids accounted for more of the variance). The constructs identified for the professors were rated as more appropriate for the professors than for the family members and, *pari passu*, for the constructs identified for the family members. Thus, each subself may be ideally suited for the role it has and less useful if applied in other situations.

Subself Theory and Dissociation

POSTULATE 10: Some subselves may be in a dissociated state about which the other selves have delusional, minimal, or no knowledge.

There are many phenomena which lend themselves to a subself explanation.

- (1) At one extreme is multiple personality in which an individual has two or more personalities (often known as "alters"), each of which may have amnesia about events occurring to the individual while in another personality. The different "personalities" of the person with multiple personality may be conceptualized as "subselves."
- (2) In possession, a person, sometimes in a trance state, is "possessed" by a deceased spirit (Bourguignon, 1976). This spirit may be exorcized by a shaman, and the individual may or may not remember the possession experience (Lester, 2005). It is possible that the "spirit" which apparently possesses the individual is one of his or her subselves which has taken over control of the mind.⁵
- (3) Mediums who communicate with the dead often have a spirit guide (also known as a control) who passes on messages from deceased individuals intended for those who have come to the medium for such messages (Lester, 2005). Occasionally mediums are "possessed" by the deceased spirit and speak as if they "are" the deceased person. Such controls may be subselves of the mediums which they do not recognize as such. This possibility was first suggested by Flournoy (1900).
- (4) People sometimes claim to remember previous lives as another person and this is seen as evidence for reincarnation (Stevenson, 1977a, 1977b). These memories may occur spontaneously or under hypnosis (Marriott, 1984). Stevenson has noted that it is very hard to distinguish cases of reincarnation from cases of possession. However, both may be situations where subselves take over the control of the mind temporarily, what Jung (1977) called split-off or secondary personalities. Woolger (1988), who uses past-life exploration as a therapeutic technique, remained uncertain as to whether memories of past lives are proof of regression or aspects of the person's real self. However, he stated, "these characters from previous eras are recognizable as *other selves*, that we dimly know have always been there in the background of our consciousness" (p. 15).

- (5) Schizophrenics often have auditory hallucinations in which they hear voices. Typically the schizophrenics attribute these voices to some external agency, but the voices most likely originate in their own minds and may be conceptualized as coming from other subselves.

It is clear that the phenomena described in points (1) through (5) fall on a continuum of “distancing” or “dissociation.” In multiple personality, there is amnesia for the events occurring in other personalities, and amnesia is often present also in possession experiences. In memories of past lives and the spirit controls of mediums, there is no amnesia, but rather the subject locates the experience as coming from an external source (a previous life or the spirit world). The same is true for the auditory hallucinations of schizophrenics which the patient views as coming from “other realms” (Van Dusen, 1973).

In contrast, normal people usually experience their different subselves consciously and acknowledge them as part of the self. They may label these subselves as roles (employee, parent, spouse, etc.), by mood (the depressed self, the happy self, etc.), or in some idiosyncratic way. When they “talk to themselves,” they recognize both “voices” as their own. When they have conflicting desires, they recognize that the opposed desires are all their own.

Interestingly, those who believe in the phenomena described here often use the other phenomena to explain them. Reincarnation phenomena could result from possession (Stevenson, 1976). Multiple personality also may be explained as an example of possession (Stevenson, 1977a, 1977b). The auditory hallucinations of schizophrenics may be viewed as communications from deceased individuals dwelling in the spirit world (Van Dusen, 1973).

However, the model of the mind as composed of subselves, with varying amounts of dissociation, remains the most parsimonious explanation of all of these phenomena. It explains the phenomena without recourse to explanations (such as reincarnation or a spirit world) which many scientists reject as unproven, and it does so using a holistic conceptualization of the human mind which has a long history in psychological thought.

The present hypothesis also suggests research for the future. For example, Ring (1992) studied groups of individuals who reported near-death experiences and alien abductions and found that both groups had a high occurrence of childhood trauma and abuse and high scores on a measure of dissociative tendencies. Lester (2005) found no studies of those reporting reincarnation or possession experiences or on mediums along these lines. Such studies would be of great value.

The traditional view of dissociated states is that they are pathological. Richards (1990) argued, however, that they may play a major role in growth and transformation. For example, in multiple personality, the client may have a subself (or alter) that is the client as the child who was abused, a persecutor who inflicts pain on the other subselves, and other subselves that represent facets of the personality of the client. The psychotherapist working with such a client may try to identify or create other subselves, such a “recorder” who has a memory function and a “helper” who provides guidance and advice. Occasionally, a higher subself can appear or be created who can communicate with the other subselves and control which subself takes control of the client’s behavior at any point in time.

Richards discussed whether fusion of the subselves in cases of multiple personality was always the best outcome for the client, or whether coexistence, with good communication and cooperation, is preferred. Richards notes that those who become mediums or channelers (Klimo, 1987) can be seen to have chosen (perhaps unconsciously) the latter tactic.

Richards wondered whether each subself can move toward psychological health independently, or, whether the community of subselves must move along the path together. Would the techniques of group and family therapy assist the psychotherapist, if the latter tactic was chosen? If one subself is pathological, perhaps isolating that subself would be beneficial for the client. Richards argued that a democratic internal cooperative effort on the part of the subselves was the best tactic, with good communication between the subselves, each of which must be given permission to exist. However, the executive subself must be strengthened once it has been “elected” though internal diplomacy.

COROLLARY 10a: The concept of dissociated subselves can explain such phenomena as multiple personality, possession, mediumship, reincarnation, and auditory hallucinations.

Psychological Disturbance

The theory of subselves proposed here leads to many types of psychological disturbance.

POSTULATE 11: There are many forms of psychological disturbance which can arise from the conceptualization of the mind as consisting of many subselves.

COROLLARY 11a: Psychological disturbance can arise from symptoms of pressure, intrusion, and invasion between subelves.

This description of psychological disturbance was proposed most cogently by Angyal (1965). In symptoms of pressure, one subelf tries to assume executive power while another subelf is in control. This can result in mild symptoms such as insomnia, heightened anxiety, restlessness, and fatigue.

In symptoms of intrusion (called *contamination* by Berne), while one subelf has executive power, other subelves affect isolated behaviors. The tone of voice or other nonverbal qualities of the behavior may be controlled by a suspended subelf. Slips of the tongue, obsessive thoughts, hallucinations, and delusions are other manifestations of symptoms of intrusion. Jung considered neurosis to be the result of intrusions.

In symptoms of invasion, subelves invade one another, and the behavior of the individual becomes chaotic as different behaviors are controlled by different subelves. It is a state of being at war with oneself, and Jung saw the psychoses as the manifestation of symptoms of invasion.

COROLLARY 11b: Psychological disturbance can arise when one subelf has executive power exclusively.

When one subelf governs exclusively, the other subelves are deprived permanently of executive power, and this creates an imbalance amongst the subelves. The ideal situation is for each subelf to be recognized, accepted, and permitted expression and to have executive power from time to time.

COROLLARY 11c: Psychological disturbance can arise when the individual has difficulty setting and shifting set (changing which subelf has executive power) appropriately in a situation.

A person may show a stubborn resistance to shifting subelves when a shift is warranted, as when the role that the individual is operating in changes (from worker to parent, for example), or when the individual shifts sets opportunistically and inappropriately (for example, when a psychotherapist commits a boundary violation and becomes sexually intimate with a client).

COROLLARY 11d: Psychological disturbance can arise when the content of the subelves is pathological.

There may be psychopathology because the content of one or more subelves is pathological. A serial murderer may, for example, have several subelves with firm boundaries (and so symptoms of

intrusion or invasion) and be able to set and shift set appropriately, and yet may enjoy torturing and killing others. Berne (1961) gave the example of a happy concentration camp guard as illustrating this type of psychopathology. Angyal (1965) in his theory of personal proposed a bionegative system principle (consisting of the pattern of vicarious living and the pattern of noncommitment which are also examples of content psychopathology).

COROLLARY 11e: The healthiest individuals may have one subself that is in charge of the set of subselves.

Frick (1993) suggested that a superordinate subself is required for healthy functioning—as some have phrased it (e.g., Schwartz, 1995), someone to conduct the orchestra. There may also be a core subself that can and should assume leadership.

COROLLARY 11f: Some subselves may cease to be useful as the individual matures and may need to become less influential in determining the individual's life.

Hermans (2002) discussed the case of “Nancy,” a client he treated, who decided that she no longer wanted a subself she named the “child” to determine her life. She worked with her therapist to develop another subself that she named the “independent” figure, which she introduced into her group of subselves so as to minimize the impact of the “child.”

COROLLARY 11g: Subselves that may be unhelpful for some tasks and impair performance and development may be useful in other situations.

Excellent examples of this can be found in Eric Berne's ego states in which each ego state (Child, Adult, and Parent) is appropriate in some situations.

COROLLARY 11h: The possibility of attributing negatively valued aspects (thoughts, desires, emotions, or behaviors) of oneself to one or more subselves may enable the individual to maintain high self-esteem, since the negative aspects of one subself do not color the other subselves.

This corollary is based on the ideas proposed by Markus and Wurf (1987) in a discussion of self-schemas.

Developmental Considerations

There is a long tradition in psychology of viewing development as a progression from a state of relative un-differentiation to a state of greater differentiation and hierarchical integration (Wapner, 1964), leading

eventually, in the second half of life, to integration. There are two major issues here. How are subselves formed, and what determines whether they become part of the plural self (Yost, Strube, & Bailey, 1992)?

POSTULATE 12: Subselves may be formed as a result of early experiences.

Many subselves are formed early in life, remain with us throughout life, become more or less salient over time, but also change (Ewing, 1990). Subselves can be created by experience. Relevant formative processes include the processes described by psychoanalysis (with its emphasis on early experiences, especially traumatic experiences), the impact that the conditions of worth have on the development of a child's façade self as described by Carl Rogers and Andras Angyal ("the pattern of vicarious living"), and parents who are inconsistent as described by Andras Angyal ("the pattern of noncommitment"). Firestone (1997) drew attention to "well-integrated patterns of negative thoughts" (which he called "voices") which stem from the introjection of hostile parental attitudes toward the child, which become accepted as part of the individual.⁶

POSTULATE 13: Subselves may be formed by the encountering of possible subselves exemplified by other people.

Kelly (1955) in his theory of personal constructs introduced the concept of threat—the possibility of an imminent change in the individual's core constructs. Encountering someone who presents an alternative life style can be a threat—"I should behave as that person does." In some situations, other people act toward the individual as if he or she should behave in a certain way—and it is tempting to adopt that subself in order to cope with the situation.

POSTULATE 14: Subselves are selected to become more or less permanent members of the plural self depending on their usefulness in helping the individual succeed.

This success may be healthy (a humanistic perspective) or may help the individual persist in maladaptive behaviors (as in the view of Gestalt therapy, which conceptualizes a common goal in psychotherapy as learning how to become better at being neurotic).

POSTULATE 15: Individuals form fewer possible selves as they age. Aging narrows the possibilities for the individual as he or she moves toward completing his or her specific system principle (script, karma).

Angyal saw individuals as eventually having too little time left in their lives for changing their specific system principle and, as a consequence, they have less freedom of choice.

Subselves and Psychotherapy

POSTULATE 16: The concept of subselves is useful for psychotherapy and counseling.

The hypothetical existence of subselves has a long history of use in psychotherapy. Transactional Analysis (Berne, 1961) is based on the existence of ego-states. Transactional Analysis begins with a structural analysis in which the clients are introduced to the concept of ego states and helped to identify which ego state they are in at any time. Intrusions (called contamination in Transactional Analysis) are identified and eliminated. Psychotherapy then moves to a transactional analysis, in which transactions are examined for such issues as whether they are complementary or crossed and overt or covert (as in “games”). Goulding and Goulding (1979) have proposed their own system which also uses ego states, called Redecision Therapy. Other psychotherapists who use subselves (or similar concepts) include Schwartz (1995), Shapiro and Elliott (1976), and Firestone (1997).

COROLLARY 16a: One useful tactic in psychotherapy is to have the client identify and provide names for their subselves.

Naming the subselves helps clients recognize, explore, describe, discuss, and understand these aspects of themselves.

COROLLARY 16b: Some subselves are more useful in the psychotherapeutic process than others

The usefulness of particular subselves at particular stages of the psychotherapeutic process is illustrated by crisis intervention. Orton (1974) said that, in dealing with a client in crisis, it is helpful to get the client’s Adult ego state (in Transactional Analysis terminology) in control. If the crisis counselor speaks from a Parent ego state, this will encourage the client to let the Child ego state take over as executive and increase the feelings of helplessness. Asking nonthreatening questions designed to elicit information facilitates the client’s Adult ego state assuming executive power and calming the client down.

COROLLARY 16c: It is important in psychotherapy to know the relationships among a client’s network of subselves, that is, the alliances and coalitions that exist and how they change from time to time and situation to situations.

COROLLARY 16d: Some subselves may become enmeshed, and the psychotherapist must help the client create sufficiently impermeable boundaries. Alternatively, some subselves may become disengaged, and the task then is to recognize them and encourage them to express themselves.

Corollaries 16c and 16d come from ideas common in family therapy (e.g., Minuchin, 1974), in particular, families in which each family member is far too involved in the personal concerns of the other family members, and families in which coalitions form as the members take sides in family disputes. Case studies of clients whose therapists have worked with their subselves can be found in Hermans (2002).

Criticisms

Several writers have noted that the criteria for identifying a subself must be specified. What are attributes and parameters of a subself? Katzko (2003) criticized those writing about subselves (or some other comparable term) for not specifying what the term means. He noted that the term can have a dictionary definition, which he saw as the connotative usage, “the relation between a term and a concept” (p. 85), as in the phrase, “the term ‘self’ means . . . He gave an example from Kihlstrom and Klein (1994), who defined the term *self* as a knowledge structure.

More importantly, Katzko noted that the term also refers to some phenomenon, what he saw as the denotative usage. It “points” to a real-world object, as in the phrase, “the term ‘self’ refers to . . . Katzko noted that the object to which the term “self” or “subself” refers is rarely identified. Lester (1995, 2004c) tried to avoid Katzko’s criticism by noting examples from the self-description of a patient, in which the individual talks of different parts of herself, and by giving pathological examples of subselves as shown in multiple personality, the auditory hallucinations of schizophrenics, possession, and reincarnation memories. Lester has, thereby, identified several phenomena which illustrate subselves.

Katzko further criticized the terminology. He disliked describing the “self” as made up of “subselves,” which he contrasts with a phrase, “an atom is made up of subatoms” (p. 94), a phrase that physicists would abhor. Several theorists have avoided this by using the term “mind” (or psyche, etc.) rather than “self” and by using terms such as ego states or complexes instead of subselves.

Finally, Katzko stressed the importance of distinguishing between a multiplicity of subselves and multiple aspects of one single self. A multiplicity of subselves “implies an aggregate of several independent entities, all of which are members of a single class” (p. 95). Eric Berne’s (1961) proposal of three ego-states and Lester’s (1995) proposal of treating the subselves as analogous to several people working together

in a group setting (neither example cited by Katzko) clearly fit into the multiplicity of subselves concept.

Harre (1998) also rejected the idea that the mind is made up of multiple selves. Rather he viewed multiple selves as grammatical fictions (p. 26). Harre, however, defined three types of *Self*. *Self 1* refers to the sense of self as a singularity, and disruptions of the Self 1 are manifest in those who show amnesia or fugue. Self 1 is our sense of occupying one and only one standpoint from which to act. *Self 2* refers to the collected attributes of the person, our beliefs about our self, and to the sense of self that we have. *Self 3* is the way we seem as persons to others, or better, as the publicly presented self. Harre argued that we each have only one Self 1, but that we can have more than one Self 2 and more than one Self 3.

Harre argued that multiple selves are fictions, simply picked out in our ways of speaking and writing as entities as if they had an existence of their own. This seems to me to be counter-intuitive. If we have one and only one standpoint from which to act, why do almost all of us experience conflict in the choice of action in many situations. Furthermore, rather than simply viewing this conflict as conflicting desires, we are holistically organized quite differently in these differing choices. The perpetrator of domestic violence is not simply torn by conflicting desires. He is a different subself when physically abusing his spouse than when he is remorseful and begging forgiveness. Or, in my example later in this book, the mind of Rudolf Höss, the Commandant of Auschwitz, was differently organized when sending people to the gas chambers than when playing with his children. To say that his multiple selves are grammatical fictions or ways of speaking (or even conflicting desires) completely fails to describe his mind.

Discussion

Ewing (1990) has argued that the notion that individuals have a unified, whole self, is an illusion, particularly strong in the Western world. As Geertz (1984) has said:

The Western conception of the person as bounded, unique, more or less integrated motivational and cognitive universe, a dynamic center of awareness, emotion, judgment, and action organized into a distinctive whole and set contrastively both against other such wholes and against its social and natural background, is however incorrigible it may seem to us, a rather peculiar idea within the context of the world's cultures. (p. 126)

This illusion of wholeness is created by defense mechanisms, the psychological processes of condensation, displacement, transference, and identification, which “create an illusory sense of wholeness and personal continuity out of what are actually inconsistent self-experiences” (Ewing, 1990, p. 266). In contrast, cultural anthropologists, making what psychologists would call clinical observations of indigenous peoples in their natural settings, are aware of the varieties of subselves that appear in different contexts, or social settings.

Despite this, Baumeister (1998) stated: “The multiplicity of selfhood is a metaphor. The unity of selfhood is a defining fact” (p. 682). Since Baumeister presents no facts to back up his assertion, it could just as appropriately be asserted that the unity of the self is a metaphor while the multiplicity of the self is a fact. In contrast, Postulate 1 of the present theory has granted that some people have a single self while others have a multiple self. It is not crucial, but it is of some importance, that psychological theories match people’s experience. The present author is convinced of his continued existence as a single individual, but he is also quite sure that he has different, subjectively experienced subselves.

Turner (2007, 2008) noted that theologians almost unanimously view a multiple self as pathological (and perhaps sinful). They prefer to refer to a multiple self as a fragmented self and advocate developing an indivisible wholeness (e.g., McFayden, 1990; White, 1996). White, for example, sees individuals who have a private self and social selves as having an internal sense of alienation from themselves. Thiselton (1995) sees religion as relieving the angst of fragmentation and restoring unity to individuals. In contrast, Turner views a multiple self as compatible with a self-view of being a continuous being, singular and unique. Since people do experience themselves as structurally and experientially plural, *multiphrenic*, as Gergen (1991) labeled this state, Turner argued that theologians must change their views. Rather than seeing multiplicity as involving intolerable tension, they need to recognize the freedom and creativity in multiplicity. Turner proposed that multiplicity does *not* result in an identity problem but, rather, cites Gergen, who quoted the Arabian poet Sami Ma’ari: “Identities are highly complex, tension filled, contradictory, and inconsistent. Only the one who claims to have a simple, definite, and clear-cut identity has an identity problem” (Gergen, 1991, p. 155).

As we have seen above, many have proposed the concept of a multiple self. Evreinov (1923) introduced the concept of monodrama, a theater genre in which the characters in a play represent different aspects of

a human mind, an idea later developed into psychodrama by Jacob Moreno (see Yablonsky, 1976). A Jerome Bruner (1986) has said:

There is within each person a cast of characters—an aesthetic, a frightened child, a little man, even an onlooker, sometimes a Renaissance man. The great works of the theater are decompositions of such a cast, the rendering into external drama. The life too can be described as a script, constantly rewritten, guiding an unfolding drama. (p. 137)

There are many sources from which additional propositions and corollaries about subelves might be identified. Role theory provides such concepts as a role set (a collection of roles), formal and informal roles (such as “professor” and “scapegoat” in the family system), role conflict and role strain (Merton, 1957) role distance in which the individual resists the role and purposely gives inauthentic performances (Goffman, 1961), and role merger, that is, the degree to which individuals see themselves as defined primarily through one of the roles they play (Turner, 1978). It may be important, however, to clarify the distinctions between (or relationships among) the concepts of subelves, identities (especially as defined by Deaux [1991]⁷), and roles. Other sources of propositions and corollaries may come from analogies with group dynamics and family therapy. It is hoped that this formal presentation of a subself theory of the mind will stimulate analysis and development of the theory.

Notes

1. This section is based on Lester (2010, 2012).
2. The concept of the hidden observer has some similarities to the concept of the “observing ego,” a concept introduced by Freud, which itself has some similarities to the Adult ego state of Transactional Analysis (Glickauf-Hughes, Wells, & Chance, 1996).
3. A similar objection may be made to concepts such as “ideal self” and “ought self” (Markus & Wurf, 1987) since these are subelves that do not exist as such. They are simply aspirations.
4. For a discussion of the façade self see Arkin (1981).
5. In an analogous manner, the “it” that comes over us and makes us behave in socially unacceptable ways was construed by Freud as originating in the individual’s own id and may be construed as a subself.
6. This concept is similar to Berne’s Parent ego state, except that, in Firestone’s theory, the voice often engages in a dialogue with what has been called in this paper other subelves.
7. “. . . membership in recognizable social groups . . . personal characteristics . . . [and] attributes of personality shared with a large number of other people” (Deaux, 1991, p. 78). Examples are professor, spouse, friend, woman, Roman Catholic, and Hispanic.

2

Robert Lifton's Concept of the Protean Self

Lifton (1993) noted that our sense of self has become radically different in the modern era in which we now “engage in continuous exploration and personal experiment” (p. 1). Proteus was the Greek sea god of many forms, and so Lifton labeled the modern mind the *protean self*. Lifton developed this idea when interviewing Chinese in Hong Kong (who had been brainwashed and who underwent a series of identity shifts) and Japanese university students (who had gone from a period of Emperor worship to one in which they embraced democracy). The *self* seemed to Lifton to be extremely malleable.

The protean self brings together disparate and seemingly incompatible elements of identity in odd combinations and continuously transforms these elements. This can be sequential or simultaneous.

Proteanism can also be simultaneous, in the multiplicity of varied, even antithetical images and ideas held at any one time by the self, each of which it may be more or less ready to act upon—a condition sometimes referred to as “multimind.” . . . Proteanism, then, is a balancing act between responsive shapeshifting, on the one hand, and efforts to consolidate and cohere, on the other. (pp. 8–9)

This is clearly compatible with my proposal of a multiple self. Lifton gave the former president of Czechoslovakia as an example and quoted Havel.

I get involved in many things. I'm an expert in none of them . . . In general . . . though I have a presence in many places, I don't really have a firm, predestined place anywhere, neither in terms of my employment nor my expertise, nor my education and upbringings, nor my qualities and skills. . . . I write mercilessly skeptical, even cruel plays—and yet in other matters behave almost like a Don Quixote and an eternal dreamer. . . . For many people I'm a constant source of hope, and yet I'm always succumbing to depressions, uncertainties, and doubts. (p. 10)

Lifton noted that the protean self can have a positive outcome or a negative one. On the negative side, it can result in psychic numbing, a diminished capacity to feel, and a state of meaninglessness. It can result in a demand for absolute dogma and a monolithic self, as seen in fundamentalism.

The modern era has increased the trend toward the protean self because of the historical dislocation, the revolution in mass media, and the threat of extinction. Change occurs in society today too rapidly to be absorbed (assimilated and accommodated to), which can result in a fragmented self, or impulses to renewal. The media present an array of images and ideas, bombarding us from all sides. Lifton noted that modern art styles, including cubism and the collage, reflect this multiplicity of viewpoints and combining fragments, and noted that James Joyce's *Ulysses* is a cubist enterprise in which Joyce decomposed the mind into its component parts.

Yet, at the same time, we are faced with the possibility of annihilating ourselves as a species. This trend is especially prominent in Americans, who Lifton claims see themselves as people of metamorphosis more than those in other nations. "Americans are always on the way to some-place else" (p. 32). Lifton noted that Benjamin Franklin embodied this in his *Autobiography*, in which he says he "tries out a series of identities and adapts himself to the situation and the audience, . . . always with exhilaration in performance" (p. 34).

America is a nation of immigrants seeking a new life, making America a melting pot where they are transformed and re-created as new people—and if not them, then their children. Lifton quoted Ellison's *Invisible Man*

You could actually make yourself anew . . . travel up *and* down, in retreat as well as in advance, crabways and crossways and around in a circle, meeting your old selves coming and going and perhaps all at the same time. (p. 40)

Lifton gave many examples of Americans, both real and literary, who embody this shape-shifting, and he noted that the essence of the protean self was the odd combinations that result, with elements often irreconcilable. However, the fragments are combined continually in order to avoid fragmentation. This continual restructuring can lead to transformation.

Lifton suggested that sources of the protean self lay in fatherlessness, homelessness, and the absence of clear mentorship, which renders us

feeling personally adrift. This can produce threat, making the person behave in the way that survivors do, resulting in confusion, restlessness, and flux. The survivor can either shut down (resulting in a constricted, fundamentalist self) or open up. Fatherlessness and homelessness can provide a strong motivation for the self's quest for form. The absence of a father (or father-like figure) frees us from the heavy authority of the past and leaves us free to create our selves.

Lifton noted that we have to hold the disparate elements of the self together, a form of integrative proteanism. Since life often proceeds without a steady and predictable direction, the self has to maneuver and cope with widely divergent circumstances. This necessitates particular psychological characteristics.

These include strong tendencies toward mockery and humor for "lubricating" experience, emotions and communities that are "free-floating" rather than clearly anchored, preference for fragmentary ideas rather than large belief systems, and continuous improvisation in social and occupational arrangements and in expressions of conciliation or protest. (p. 93)

The protean self needs communities that are partial, fluctuating, come in odd places and combinations, and vary greatly in their intensity and capacity to meet the needs of the members. The protean self needs connections (to others and to ideas), but these connections can be traps and so they must leave openings for escape.

The self can close down rather than open up, and this Lifton calls the *fundamentalist self*, a pejorative term indicating a constricted self. The fundamentalist self condemns every form of pluralism and often leads to violence against those who deviate from the fundamentalist norm. Often "conversion" occurs, a protection against chaos.

There is also a "dark side" of proteanism. There can be diffusion to the point of rendering the self incoherent and immobile (a chaos of possibilities). There can be a sense of loss, resulting in withdrawal, apathy, and depression, as manifest in the American "drifter" and, Lifton suggests, as perhaps illustrated by Lee Harvey Oswald, the murderer of President Kennedy. The fragmented self can become dissociated and, in the extreme, a multiple personality. Lifton suggested that the apparent increase in cases of multiple personality in recent years is a reflection of the same forces that have encouraged the protean self.

3

The Metaphor of the Greek Gods

Greek mythology began with *Gaia* (Earth), Mother Nature and both female and male, who produced children, including a boy *Ouranos* (Sky). Gaia then began to produce children with Ouranos, but Ouranos was threatened by the possible existence of siblings, and so he pushed them back into Gaia's womb. Gaia counseled one of her children, *Kronos*, to cut off Ouranos's genitals the next time he came to make love to her. Kronos did so and threw them into the sea, where they eventually gave rise to *Aphrodite*.

Kronos freed his brothers and sisters from Gaia's womb, including a sister *Rhea*, with whom Kronos began to produce children. However, like his own father, Kronos feared them and swallowed each one as soon as it was born. Like her mother, Rhea tricked Kronos. When *Zeus* was born, she hid him and substituted a stone in his place, which Kronos swallowed, thinking it was his son. After Zeus grew up, he gave Kronos an emetic which made him throw up, thereby releasing all of the children into the world, including *Demeter*, *Hades*, *Hera*, *Hestia*, and *Poseidon*. Zeus himself produced many children, including *Hephaestus* (who married Aphrodite) by his sister Hera, as well as *Athena*, *Ares*, and the twins *Artemis* and *Apollo*.

The twelve Olympian gods were:

Aphrodite: goddess of love and beauty

Apollo: god of the sun, music and medicine

Ares: god of war and murder

Artemis: goddess of the hunt, wild things and the moon

Athena: goddess of wisdom and arts

Demeter: goddess of the harvest and fertility

Hades: god of the underworld and wealth

Hera: goddess of marriage, women, and childbirth (the family)

Hephaestus: god of fire, the forge, and metallurgy

Hermes: god of flight, thieves, and commerce

Poseidon: god of the seas

Zeus: King of the gods, god of the sky and thunder

There were several lesser gods, including:

Dionysus: god of wine, festivals, and madness, the son of Zeus and Semele

Eros: god of love, the son of Aphrodite

Hebe: goddess of youth and the Spring, Hera's daughter

Hecate: goddess of witches and the Queen of Hades

Herakles: adopted by Hera and married to her daughter Hebe

Hestia: goddess of the hearth and the home

Bolen (1985, 1989), a Jungian psychologist, viewed the myths about the Greek gods as archetypes, innate patterns in the collective unconscious. Bolen viewed archetypes as "powerful predispositions . . . with characteristic drives, emotions, and needs that shape personality" (1989, p. 5). Many people develop roles as they mature which are inconsistent with the inner archetypes, resulting in a feeling that life is meaningless and stale.

Archetypes are described in different ways by Jungian psychologists, but Bolen used the Greek gods as labels for some archetypes. For example, Bolen described Zeus as ruthless, a risk taker in order to accumulate power and wealth, and a philanderer, with an ability to act swiftly to get what he wants. In contrast, Hermes, the Messenger God, is a communicator and trickster. Like Mercury, the Roman version of Hermes, he avoids the grasp of those who want to hold onto him. Bolen argued that Zeus and Hermes are two different life styles.

Sometimes, an individual seems to embody one or the other, but both can occur at the same time in the same individual. They may complement each other or come into conflict.

What happens in a man when he finds that his wife is unfaithful . . . ? Does he become like Zeus and try to destroy the other man? Or does he want to destroy the woman, as Apollo did? Or does he want to know the details, as would Hermes? Or does he think up intricate ways of catching the couple and exposing them to public scrutiny, like Hephaestus? (1989, p. 11)

If the archetypes can be described in terms of the Greek gods, and since each of us, in Jung's theory, has the same collective unconscious (and, therefore, the same archetypes), why does each of us manifest only one or two life styles in our observable behavior? Bolen noted that,

although the *archetypes patterns* are universal, not all are activated (*activated archetype*) in each individual. Bolen argued that:

Archetypes are basic human patterns, some of which are innately stronger in some people than in others, as are such human qualities as musical aptitude, an innate sense of time, psychic ability, physical coordination, or intellect. (1989, p. 9)

Archetypes are responsible for differences among people. What is meaningful to one person may be meaningless to another depending on which archetype is activated. People also differ in how complicated they are, that is, how many archetypes are active within the individual. Bolen noted that, as a person “shifts gears” and goes from one style of behaving to another, we can view this as shifting from one god pattern to another. Bolen noted also that this shifting can influence the type into which the individual fits in the Jungian typology (extraversion-introversion, sensing-intuition, and thinking-feeling).

Leslie is the idea person in her advertising agency. Her presentations sparkle. Her creativity and her ability to be persuasive make her very effective. She’s a dynamic mix of Artemis and Aphrodite, who easily slips into being a compliant Persephone with her husband. (Bolen, 1985, pp. 274–275)

Some individuals embody a particular archetypal life style from birth on and maintain this throughout their life, while others may change archetypal life styles one or more times in their lives (which are usually called “identity crises”). Different gods may influence each stage of life and, since the gods themselves went through different stages as they developed, an individual who identifies strongly with only one god may go through stages corresponding to those of that god.

What determines which god-archetypes are activated in an individual? Bolen suggested that genetic factors, particularly inherited temperaments, may play a role, as may the expectations of the parents for their child, cultural values and stereotypes, hormones (particularly at puberty and menopause), the people that the individual encounters, and the activities in which the individual engages.

We should note that the assumption that some archetypes are innately stronger in some people than in others is one that not all Jungians make. Bolen makes other assumptions that are not universally accepted by Jungians. For example, she proposed that the child’s family

plays a role in which archetypal life style the child adopts by having expectations for the child and by rewarding and punishing alternative life styles.

Bolen suggested that “doing is becoming.” Archetypal patterns can be evoked or developed by choosing a course of action and allotting time to engage in it. Bolen gave the example of a man who develops a hobby but, if he spends too much time preoccupied with his wage-paying job, he will never develop that facet of his personality.

Gods, for Bolen therefore, are like scripts (Steiner, 1974), a concept in Transactional Analysis in which people develop life scripts which guide and make predictable their life course. For Steiner, scripts are not innate. but rather based on what families and friends say to the child and from characters in stories and movies that the child encounters.

Bolen (1985) gave an example of describing an individual's behavior using the Greek god analogy.

This patient was a young woman who had just discovered that her husband was having an affair. Since then, she had been obsessed with the other woman. She had vindictive fantasies, was spying on her, and was so caught up with getting even that she felt crazy. As was typical of Hera, her anger was not directed toward her husband, who had been the one who lied to her and been unfaithful. (Bolen, 1985, p. 7)

There have not been many psychodynamic analyses of the Greek Gods describing their characteristics in great detail, but Stein (1973) provides a rich psychodynamic analysis of Hephaestus.

A Multiple Self Interpretation of Bolen's Ideas

Ogilvy (1977), a philosopher, has criticized two ideal organizations of the mind. First, he argued against the notion that a single unified self exists. Second, he argued against the rationale of theories in which a multiplicity of selves are organized as a social hierarchy with a single powerful self that rules the mind. Ogilvy advocated a theory in which a multiplicity of selves have a decentralized organization. Ogilvy preferred viewing the selves as working together, much as a group does to achieve a final product (behavior). Individual differences result from the different evolution of the multiple selves and their differing organization.

For Ogilvy, having a multiplicity of selves, a pluralized pantheon of selves, as opposed to a single monotheistic ego, leads to freedom. (Ogilvy saw the least free person as one who has a single, highly

predictable personality. Predictability, in his view, signifies lack of freedom.) Each self is a source of differing interpretations of the world, based on differing interpretive schemes. These intrapersonal selves have different personalities. The person is the result of mediation among this collection of individual, relatively autonomous intrapersonal selves. The goal is to prevent any one of these selves from taking control, that is, acting as a monarch or single administrator.

Ogilvy suggested that the intrapersonal selves are often projected onto mythic figures such as gods, and in turn, the intrapersonal selves are formed from introjected elements from past projections. Thus, we can expect certain commonalities in the intrapersonal selves of different people.

Independently of Ogilvy, Bolen (1985) suggested the analogy of a committee to describe the way in which the many god-archetypes interact within us. In making a decision, the committee members (god-archetypes) may engage in a contest, or one may rule. In an orderly process, all the god-archetypes have a voice and are heard, but an *observing ego* listens and then decides. If the observing ego is ineffectual, then the competing voices lead to see-saw ambivalence in the individual or to chaos. One woman who was considering leaving her husband described this chaos in the following words:

She said it felt like “having a washing machine going on in my head” or “being in washing machine.” Aspects of herself were reacting with fear and alarm to what was an authentic decision, although full of risks. (Bolen, 1985, p. 272)

In other cases, the observing ego may have favorites and listen to some god-archetypes while ignoring others.

Multiple Selves versus Meta-Preferences

One of the protagonists in Irving Yalom's novel *The Schopenhauer Cure* (Yalom, 2005) is a sexual addict who wants to stop. The character asks "why can't I do what I truly want to do?" This simple statement presents a puzzle because "I" is used twice in that phrase with the implication that there are two different referents, the I that wants sex and the I that wants an alternative. There are two ways to resolve this dilemma. One approach is to propose a multiple self model (Lester, 2010) in which the individual is assumed to have two or more selves each having its own preference.

This idea has intrigued decision theorists. Those concerned with rational decision making, including economists, psychologists, and philosophers, have been concerned with the ability of people to deceive themselves. For some, self-deception appears to involve two selves, the subject and the object of deception. Writers on this issue typically consider the problem to be one self ignoring the "truth" perceived by the other self. Pears (1985) warned against confusing these two selves with the conscious and the unconscious and suggested the concept of functional insulation instead. The subject-self contains elements that do not interact with all of the object-self's elements. The two systems can be conceptualized as overlapping circles. Pears viewed the subject-self as "a small temporary system, like a camp set up for the duration of a particular campaign and then abandoned, and the force that splits it off from it is an ordinary wish" (Pears, 1985, p. 77). The desire to avoid accepting what the requirement of total evidence counsels causes this functional isolation (Davidson, 1985).

Others, in discussing the phenomenon of self-deception, have proposed a model of the mind of "the older medieval city, with relatively autonomous neighborhoods, linked by small lanes that change their names half way across their paths, a city that is a very loose

confederation of neighborhoods of quite different kinds, each with its distinctive internal organization" (Rorty, 1985, p. 116). Rorty views the self as a loose configuration of habits, habits of thoughts, perception, motivation, and action, acquired at different stages, in the service of different ends. Margolis (1982) proposed that the person can be viewed as two selves, one concerned with selfish benefits and the other with group benefits.

Sidgwick (1893) drew attention to the temporal multiplicity of selves, namely that the I of the present moment may be very different from the I of the past or of the future. Steedman and Krause (1985) talked of a multifaceted individual having different points of view, whereas others (de Sousa, 1976; Dennett, 1978; Hofstadter & Dennett, 1981; Lycan, 1981) have argued in favor of picturing the self as a hierarchical structure of ever-simpler homunculi. Finally, Elster (1985) proposed what may be a fitting analogy—the mind as a computer with different programs (software) being loaded and taking control at different times.

George (2001) has rejected this proposal in favor of a meta-preference approach, where a meta-preference is a second-order preference. Let an individual prefer A over B and choose A. This is the first-order preference. The individual can be happy with this situation (harmony), or he could wish that he preferred B over A (conflict). For example, a person could choose a cheeseburger over a salad for lunch, but wish that he was the kind of person who would choose the salad. In a first-order preference, it is objects or elements that are being ranked. In second-order preferences, it is rankings that are being ranked, and they are better called *second-order preference rankings* (George, 2001, p. 34).

Lester and George (2000) applied this idea to suicide. They suggested that there may be individuals who are driven to take their own lives while wishing that they were free of this desire. Their first-order preference is to commit suicide, but their second-order preference is to choose life over death. The converse could also be true, individuals who choose to live but who wish that they were the kind of person who could commit suicide.¹

George has argued that his concept of meta-preferences is superior to a multiple self concept. Before examining his arguments, it should be noted that George has an incorrect understanding of multiple self theory. He asserts that a multiple self theory leaves us with an agent who "both prefers D to A and prefers A to D at a single moment in time" (p. 34). This is not so. In Lester's formal statement of a multiple

self theory, one postulate is that the different subelves can have executive power at different points in time. Even in a multiple self situation in which the selves function as a small group, only one subself talks at a time (as in the top-dog/bottom-dog dialogues in Gestalt therapy).

First, while admitting that both approaches allow sound predictions to be made, George argues that only the meta-preference approach “sheds new light” (p. 37) on the problem. This is clearly an opinion and not an empirical observation or logical deduction.

Second, George argues that the meta-preference approach retains the integrity of the “maximizing individual,” a concept that is central to classical economics. However, the recent rise in behavioral economics (Altman, 2006) has shown that many economists reject this classical concept as they have come to realize that individuals do not always behave rationally (that is, maximize utility) and that some individuals never behave rationally (see Yang & Lester, 2008).

Third, George argues that the meta-preference approach maintains the coherence of the moral responsibility of the individual. George’s preference for a cohesive individual flies in the face of reality. For example, Lifton’s (1986) example of “doubling” in the Nazi doctors in the concentration camps, in which they sometimes saved the lives of Jewish prisoners (thereby acting humanely) while at other times condemning thousands to the gas chambers as they stepped off the trains arriving at Auschwitz, illustrates the lack of coherence of their moral responsibility.

Finally, George argues that the meta-preference approach permits a more straightforward assessment of people’s choices for maximizing utility, but he (inadvertently) admits that this is true only if the individual “has a stable second-order preference ranking” (p. 40). George advances no empirical evidence that people have stable rather than unstable second-order preference rankings.

George’s meta-preference approach, although it describes the conflict when second-order preferences conflict with first-order preferences, neither explains why the conflict arises, nor provides any tactics for resolving the conflict. In contrast, a multiple self approach does provide ways of resolving the conflict, for example, by permitting each subself to have executive power for some periods of time and in some settings.

In short, George’s arguments for the superiority of a meta-preference approach over a multiple self approach are not valid. What would be preferable would be to find an experimental situation in which the two approaches predict different outcomes.

Note

1. The notion of two selves that arises in discussions of the issues of “why can’t I do what I truly want to do?” and in self-deception (which appears to involve two selves, the subject and the object of deception) is also relevant to suicide. As Petrov (2013) has noted, suicide implies a similar duality, “a dissociation between the one who performs the act and the one who is affected by it.” Petrov noted that St. Augustine viewed the suicide of Lucretia (who had been raped by the son of an Etruscan king) as the guilty Lucretia killing the innocent Lucretia. In psychoanalytic theory, the suicide is killing an introjected object rather than the self, a murder of the “hated other.” Suicide is sometimes referred to as self-murder, *felo de se* (felon of himself) and, in German, *selbstmord* (or *selbstmörder*), and the word *suicide* contains this duality (sui-cide).

Mendlovic's Psychoanalytic Approach to the Multiple Self

Mendlovic (2008) has proposed a multiple self theory of personality based on psychoanalysis. Mendlovic reviews and builds on the work of Melanie Klein and Donald Winnicott. Klein made the concept of the *object*, the internalized representation of the other-than-self in the mental world, central to her theory, and this led to the development of the theory of object relations—exemplified by Ronald Fairbairn and Donald Winnicott.

Most relevant is the work of Stephen Mitchell (1993), who described how early interactions with significant others create different *self statuses*, which are divided from one another. As Mendlovic describes this, “each version of self includes cognitive elements as well as feelings, drives, values and behaviors organized around a certain point of view.”¹ Here we have the first clear inkling of a multiple self. These different modes of the self “appear one after another and side-by-side in the consciousness.” The sense of a unified self is, therefore, “a fabricated illusion.” In object relations theory, outside objects are assimilated into the mind as new mental agencies, sub-structures of the ego. These internalized objects lead a life of their own.

Being psychoanalysts, these theorists located the development of these selves in the child's interactions with the mother (and other primary figures), and often cast them as internalized objects in the mind. Psychoanalytic theory, therefore, shapes the concepts and limits them. In contrast, Eric Berne (discussed in an earlier chapter) in his Transactional Analysis freed himself from the constraints of psychoanalytic theory (while following it to some extent), and yet imposed his own constraints.

The basic elements in Mendlovic's theory are labeled as “self appearances” and “multiple self-s,” and he emphasized that the organization of this community of selves is critical. These “different versions

of the self” have to establish reciprocal relationships, leading to questions such as,

Does the society of multiple self-s take action for the preservation of some structure or center? Or perhaps it rather works towards the purpose of having a polar difference, creating vitality and causing revival?

To answer this, Mendlovic borrows from the work of sociologists who have explored how individuals interact in the world. What kinds of social structures are created and how does the mind stabilize and protect the social structure, and how does change, when it occurs, take place? Do changes arise from inner forces or from outside forces?

The multiple selves originate from the inner experiences created by the infant as a result of its interactions with its mother and, later, others. Eventually, social structures are created to organize these multiple selves. However, later in life, new multiple selves can be introduced, and there is a need for assimilation and accommodation on both sides for these new selves to be incorporated. Adolescence is a time for the multiple selves to define their identity, character, boundaries, aspiration, goals, and means of action.

At the present time, Mendlovic’s proposal lacks details, including suggestions for types of multiple selves and organizational characteristics. However, Mendlovic is creative in his descriptions of two major pathologies: paranoia and obsessive-compulsive disorder.

Mendlovic casts paranoia as a situation in which there is a totalitarian regime ruled by a single self (or in some cases, a small group of selves). Before the onset of paranoia, there is an impossible reciprocal relationship between powerful configurations of the selves. The selves cannot accept one another or find common ground, resulting in paralysis and a sense of insecurity. If the individual was able to set up, in the process of development, an administering mechanism, then one self (in Mendlovic’s terms, a self configuration) could take over this mechanism and use it to fulfill its aspirations, oppressing all other selves. If an administrative mechanism has not been set up, then anarchy results. Inner discourse between the multiple selves now becomes impossible, resulting in disorganization and disassembly and leading to disorganized schizophrenia. In paranoia, the governing self becomes more and more oppressive and especially aggressive and destructive to those selves that are based on family and close friends. The goal of the psychotherapist is not to eliminate the totalitarian self (for then the

patient's life would lose its meaning), but to liberate the patient's other selves and create a more democratic society of selves.

For obsessive-compulsive disorder, Mendlovic saw overly bureaucratic organizations as the model. Roles are set, rules devised, and the multiple selves have to fit into this bureaucratic structure. The multiple selves of the obsessive-compulsive patient are organized in a rigid and uncompromising bureaucratic structure. The individual, during development, imposed law and order on the selves, and more complex means of organization were devised. Experiences which create tension and danger strengthen this bureaucratic ritual. Efforts are made to neutralize and exclude any selves that are threatening. The result is a "loss of creativity, initiation, flexibility and innovativeness, the stifling of emotion and the reduction of internal discourse." It is clear that this situation can arise as a result of inconsistent parenting as in Andras Angyal's (1965) pattern of noncommitment. In passing, Mendlovic proposes that, in the hysteric disorders, the inner order is too loose. The selves move with no direction.

Mendlovic presents a case study, and he refers to Ilan's self-s as "his experience of his parents." In particular, he has "various self appearances relating to his father (the over-achiever) and to his mother (the perfectionist)." In Eric Berne's terminology, these both would be viewed as parts of his Parent ego state. Mendlovic notes that the dominance of the self configurations relating to his mother and father resulted in the elimination of other alternative voices. In Ilan's case, both parents had other sides to their personality, and the self-s reflecting these aspects (his father's love of literature and his mother's sensitivity and gentle touch) were buried. Ilan's psychotic breakdown was a rebellion against the dictatorship of the dominant selves.

At various times, Mendlovic refers to *different forces, inner-psychic voices, identities, self configurations, self appearances, and multiple self-s*. In Lester's multiple self theory of personality, Lester makes it clear that each multiple self in the individual's mind is a complex organization of psychological contents (thoughts, feeling, emotions, and behaviors). Terms such as forces, voices, and identities lack this connotation of organization. Yet, by applying concepts from sociology (the investigation of individuals) to the study of the mind, Mendlovic implies that each multiple self is an organized system.

Note

1. I would like to thank Shlomo Mendlovic for sending me an unpublished English translation of his book, which is the source of all of his quotations in this chapter.

Rita Carter and Multiplicity

Carter (2008) is a science writer who has written a general introduction to the idea of multiple selves and, in addition, has developed some interesting hypotheses and a set of exercises in order to explore our multiple selves. Let me first discuss her hypotheses.

Carter's Theory of Multiple Selves

Carter accepts the existence of multiple selves, defined as others such as Angyal and Rowan have defined them, but she introduced the division of multiple selves into *major* and *minor* selves and a number of fragmentary *micros*. A *major* is a “fully fleshed out character with thoughts, desires, intentions, emotions, ambitions and beliefs” (p. 23). *Minors* are less complex than majors and come out in particular situations. A minor may be no more than a small collection of responses, just enough to deal with a particular situation, such as a compulsion to argue with certain people or smoking in certain situations. *Micros* are “the building blocks of personalities—individual responses, thoughts, ideas, habit” (p. 24), as small as a physical or vocal tic or a repeated intrusive thought or emotion. *Micros* combine to form minors, which in turn can coalesce into majors.

How do we develop a sense of self if we have so many selves? Carter suggests that we identify with one of our majors and feel or call that our *self*. But if we cannot do this, then we often embark on a quest for our *real self* or, as some individuals say, “I need to take some time off in order to find myself.”

Where do these selves come from? Carter sees some as being *inner parents* deriving from our parents and early caregivers that we introject. Others are *inner children*, states that we once were in earlier years, particularly those that arose during trauma (a terrified or angry child self), but also that embody our naïveté, fun, and creativity. The similarity to Berne's ego states (in Transactional Analysis) is clear.

Others develop from roles, particularly stereotyped roles, such as teacher, counselor, or nurse. There are also *opposites* and *shadows* (resembling Jung's proposals), and *renegades* that may be destructive (such as eating or drinking binges). Other selves may be based on celebrities, made up from bits and pieces taken from various roles in movies or plays that we watched. This may happen without our being aware of the process, but it can also be done intentionally, as when professors base their style on various teachers that they had in the past. Today, it is possible to play with this in the virtual world by setting up an avatar (or, in a more minimal way, on your Facebook page or in a chat room) and then adopting this as an alternative self on some occasions.

Carter next goes on to describe various possibilities for multiple selves:

- A single major
- A double major
- A major plus a minor
- Several majors and minors
- Multiple minors

Carter bases her assessment of our multiple selves using the Big 5 (OCEAN) personality dimensions and provides eight traits for each dimension. She suggests graphing these on an eight-spiked wheel. Since some of the Big 5 poles are negative (e.g., neurotic and disagreeable), Carter also suggests measuring whether the majors and minors are clustered in the negative regions or the positive regions or extending into opposed regions.

Carter also proposed a typology of selves (pp. 160–161):

- Defenders: Protect and guard us against threats, both real and imagined
- Controllers: Drive and steer our behavior
- Punishers: Controllers or Defenders whose energy has become misdirected
- Role players: Personalities created for a particular situation or purpose
- Relics: Old minors that no longer have a useful functions
- Creatives: Originate new ideas, aims, visions

Carter provides examples for each of these types. Defenders include guardians, worriers, pleasers, and fighters. Controllers include wise friends, drivers, and organizers. Punishers include critics, bullies, and martyrs. Role players include successes, professionals, bosses, and

clowns. Relics include the abandoned child and mules, while Creatives include artists and dreamers.

Carter suggests exploring your various majors and minors, letting them express themselves, learning what triggers each self, deciding which should be abandoned and closed off, which should be encouraged to come forth, and which should be created (such as a *wise friend*), and working on getting them to cooperate. New selves can be created by absorption (from people you know) and mimicry, facilitated by writing them down and even by creating an avatar with those traits.

Gestalt Therapy and the Multiple Self

Gestalt therapy was developed by Frederick (Fritz) Perls, who saw himself as firmly rooted in the concepts of the Gestalt psychology that was current in America in the 1930s. Gestalt psychology emphasized that psychological processes were an organized whole. This organized whole was made up of several parts, but the properties of the whole were more than the sum of the properties of the component parts. A favorite analogy of the Gestalt psychologists was that water is made up of hydrogen and oxygen, but its properties were very different from those of the two elements separately. This theoretical position permeates Perls's ideas on human behavior.

The Gestalt Theory of Human Behavior

Perls (Perls et al., 1951) focused upon the interaction between the organism and the environment. Organisms live by maintaining the difference between themselves and the environment. They assimilate parts of the environment and reject others and, therefore, grow at the expense of the environment. The parts that are assimilated are always novel, and so assimilation involves creative adjustments by the organism.

Whenever the person and the environment interact, there is *contact*. This contact is mutual. The person can be seen as the agent or the environment, and so Perls refers to the contact boundary as a *field* and as a *mutual interaction*. In this, Perls's view is very similar to the theory of personality proposed by Andras Angyal (1965).

Gestalt therapy is concerned with analyzing the structure of the actual experience of the contact. The therapist is not concerned with what is being experienced, but on how it is being experienced—not on what the person says, but how he says it. The goal is to heighten the contact and brighten the awareness of the person.

As people grow and assimilate new experiences, they have to make creative integrations of this new material with the old material. This often involves destroying the status quo, the former ways of perceiving the world. The person should aim for a better integration of all the material, not a mere re-shuffling of the components. The person finds and remakes himself. This process may easily arouse fear and anxiety, for it is scary to change one's set habits if the new material demands that one do so. The psychologically healthy person does not shrink from that task, but the neurotic avoids restructuring his perceptions and habits. Here, Perls is proposing views similar to those of George Kelly (1955).¹

The *self* is your system of contacts with the environment at any time. The healthy person identifies with his self; the unhealthy person is alienated from his self. The unhealthy person tries to conquer his own spontaneity and limit his assimilations. The set of identifications and alienations you have is called your *ego*.

The General Framework of Gestalt Therapy

Since therapy aims to increase the contact between the person and the environment, therapy works on the ego. The goal is to train the ego by making it experiment with awareness, to make it more aware of the environment and of the body of the person. Once the ego has its senses revived and is making better contact, therapy is finished; the patient can take over from the therapist.

Neurotics typically are under-aware. They are not fully aware of what they are seeing or of what their body is experiencing (perception and proprioception). They achieve this under-awareness by blocking out of awareness certain inputs, and by creating and focusing on distracting inputs. For example, they may deliberately tighten and tense muscles. They may reject parts of their experience. The psychosomatic patient, for example, labels his body as NOT ME. His body becomes a problem to him. He suffers from asthma or ulcers. Yet he himself causes these problems. His symptoms are him. Rigid behavior and compulsions also serve to restrict the awareness of the patient.

The role of the therapeutic situation is to provide the patient with safe opportunities to experiment with opening up his awareness. Perls is aware that the major difficulty is to release the patient's healthy power of creative adjustments without having him mimic the therapist's conception of reality. The aim is growth, not correction. Can society tolerate people regulating themselves with less regard for societal norms and values? Perls feels that society can tolerate more self-regulation than occurs at present.

The therapeutic situation is safe. The patient can experiment with low levels of anxiety. The patient does not flee from the anxiety but remains in control of both the anxiety and his responses to it. The role of the therapist is to increase the anxiety of the patient while keeping the situation controllable.

Perls believes that what takes place within the person is good. The body can be trusted to be self-regulating. So, for example, if the patient has some inner conflicts, the therapist should not try to eliminate these conflicts. Conflict is a means of growth. The therapist's task is to make the patient aware of the conflicts so that they may feed on environmental material and come to a crisis point. The more sharp a conflict, the greater is the battle, and the more likely the outcome or solution will be a good one. Working through conflicts enables people to grow. The neurotic has become neurotic partly by trying to resolve the conflicts too quickly.

Many conflicts stem from early situations that the patient left unfinished and unresolved. They affect present behavior because the patient repeatedly tries to finish the situation in current situations, and so energy is diverted from growth-producing activity. One task of therapy is to find these unfinished situations and try to help the person resolve them. Once the unfinished situation is completed, the dominance of past trauma will be lessened. If you can experience a conflict in you, you must remember that both sides of the conflict are you. The person must not label one part of the self as "me" and the other part as "not me." Both are "you" and must eventually be synthesized into a unified whole.

Perls defines three major neurotic mechanisms. (1) *Retrospection* involves redirecting activity toward oneself, substituting oneself for the environment as the target for behavior. Instead of aggressing against someone else, you direct the anger inwards onto yourself and become depressed. (2) *Introjection* involves taking in material from the environment but not assimilating it as a genuine part of yourself. (3) *Projection* involves your not experiencing your own traits, attitudes, feelings, or behaviors as your own, but attributing them to other people in the environment who are then seen as directing them toward yourself. Perls has accepted many psychoanalytic ideas, but places more emphasis on holistic considerations.

For Perls, the way to psychological health lies in the harmonious integration of all aspects of your self. Therapy aims to increase awareness. Awareness will help resolve your problems. The body is wise and, left to itself, will heal itself. The therapist does not aim to direct you, but rather to free you for growth. You can then grow by yourself. Thus, the implication is that people are basically healthy and good.

The Specific Techniques of Gestalt Therapy

Levitsky and Perls (1970) outlined some of the techniques of Gestalt therapy which the client is encouraged to perform and experiment with. In general, the client is encouraged to remain in the here and now or the present. What is happening now? What do you feel at this moment? If the client refers to the past, he is encouraged to enact the drama from the past in present terms. "I say to my father . . . and he says to me . . ."

The client is encouraged to truly communicate with others. To whom are you saying this? Say it to her. Call her by name at the beginning of the sentence. Instead of saying "The trouble with Ann . . .," the client tries saying "The trouble with you . . ." If the client refers to parts of himself as "it," he is encouraged to take responsibility for his behavior. What is your hand doing? "It is trembling. No, I am trembling." The client who says "I can't do that" is encouraged to say instead "I won't do that."

Games of Dialogue: The therapist looks for splits in the personality (nagger versus nagged, aggressive part versus passive part, top dog versus bottom dog, nice guy versus scoundrel) and has the client write a dialogue between these two parts. He may give the client an empty chair in front of his own and have him move between the two chairs as he speaks the dialogue. The dialogue game can be played with various body parts, left hand versus right hand, upper body versus lower body, and so on.

Making the Rounds: The therapist may believe that something the client says is important and so will have him go to each member in the group and say it directly to each member. The communication may be verbal, touching, or observing.

Reversals: A client who claims to suffer from timidity will be asked to play an exhibitionist. If he is overly sweet, he will be asked to play a spiteful person.

Exaggeration: A client who makes a nonverbal or verbal gesture that seems important will be asked to repeat it and to exaggerate it. If the behavior is nonverbal, the client may be asked to develop it into a dance.

Feeding Sentences: The therapist tries not to interpret the client's behavior to him, but occasionally, if he picks up an implication, will say, "May I feed you a sentence? Say it and try it on for size. Say it to several people here."

Staying with Feelings: If the client experiences an emotion, the therapist will encourage him to stay with it. The client may be asked to describe it. What are you feeling? Describe it. He may also be asked to exaggerate it.

Playing the Projection: If a client projects his feelings onto others, he will be asked to act out the projection. If the client says to the therapist, "You're not interested in me," he will be asked to play the therapist not being interested. Then he will be asked if he himself possesses this quality or trait.

Responsibility: Clients may be asked to describe their present condition and add statements of personal responsibility. "My voice is quiet, and I take responsibility for it. Now I don't know what to say, and I take responsibility for not knowing."

Levitsky and Perls commented that there was no finite or definite list of techniques. The Gestalt therapist must be inventive and use any technique that is consistent with the goals of Gestalt therapy.

It is important to note that many of these techniques (especially dialogue, reversals, exaggeration, and playing the projection) are designed to encourage the client to act out the various splits in his self or the roles that he plays. Once he becomes aware of these component parts of his self, the goal is to integrate them into a coherent complex personality, a Gestalt. The goal is the formation of a unified person, but the path involves first exploring the fragmented parts.

Goulding and Goulding (1979) presented the case of a psychiatrist who had made several suicide attempts. In one session they asked him to fantasize his mother sitting in the chair across from him and say to her "I will not kill myself." He tried this with various other significant others and created dialogues between them and himself. The therapist then had him split his self into two parts. In one chair he played the one that has not allowed himself to kill himself in the past, the part of him that did not take quite enough pills, that allowed him to be found, and that survived after his heart stopped beating. In the other chair he put the rest of himself. He created a dialogue between the two parts of himself.

"I will not let you kill me. I want to be alive and stay alive. I will not let you kill me."

"I hear you; you really want to live, don't you. I won't kill you. I won't kill myself."

"I am the most powerful part of me and I will not let anything happen to me that ends in my death."

(Goulding & Goulding, 1979, 181–182.)

The Inner Voice

Firestone (1986) presented a good description of the thinking process of the suicidal individual which suggests the potential usefulness of Gestalt therapeutic approaches. Firestone presented clinical evidence that suicidal people are often tortured by thoughts or “voices” which degrade and criticize the self. These thoughts can grow in intensity until they take precedence over the normal rational thoughts. Suicide is the result of acting upon these negative thoughts.²

The voice is not natural, but rather learned or imposed from without. Firestone traces the origin of the voice to the rejecting thoughts of the parents, both overt and covert, toward the individual in childhood. These parental thoughts may even extend to unconscious death wishes toward the child, which are then incorporated by the child and remain as part of the individual’s mind into adulthood.³

The voice becomes the core of a negative self-concept, especially since it typically goes unchallenged by the person. Over time, people may even modify their behavior to fit the accusations of the voice. In a mild form, the voice manifests itself in the things we say to ourselves after mistakes. “You clumsy idiot!” “You’re going to make a fool of yourself!” But the voice can move to vicious abuse and self-recriminations with injunctions to harm oneself.

Firestone gave the example of one young man who had attempted suicide who, during one session, verbalized his voice:

Go ahead, smash your hand, just smash your hand! Get yourself off the earth. You don’t deserve to live. You’re not a man! You’re a simple, poor excuse for a man! Get rid of yourself. . . . Smash yourself. (Firestone, 1986, p. 442)

Firestone gave a more detailed case history of a woman who at the age of thirty checked into a hotel and overdosed on Miltown, Seconal, and Valium. Early in life she tried to cut herself off from her feelings. Her voice would order, “Don’t let anybody see what’s going on. Look okay. Smile—look normal.” Her voice also criticized her looks and told her she was ugly. Her voice told her that she did not matter to anyone and that no one would miss her. Eventually, the voice began to tell her to end her life, and on the fateful day ordered her to the hotel, called her a coward when she hesitated, and told her that she had to take the pills.

Firestone suggests several therapeutic approaches that have value for helping people challenge their inner voices, but Gestalt therapy

techniques would also help bring the voices out. Sitting the voice in a chair and speaking the thoughts out loud and then moving to another chair to challenge the voice, creating a dialogue between the voice and the normal rational part of the mind would be an effective way of dealing with this split in the mind.

Discussion

It is clear that Gestalt therapy views the self as consisting of multiple subelves. The goal is to explore these subelves experientially and, in the end, to allow the mind to integrate them into a whole. The technique is especially noteworthy in the Gestalt approach to dream analysis, in which every aspect of the dream (human, animal, and object) is hypothesized to represent one aspect of the individual's self. By acting out each element of the dream in the here-and-now, dreamers will explore each aspects of their multiple self.

Notes

1. Kelly defined *hostility* as a refusal to change your beliefs, but instead distorting and extorting information so as to confirm your beliefs.
2. Beck (1976), in his description of his version of cognitive therapy, noted that many of his clients reported automatic thoughts that came to them as specific and discrete thoughts, without deliberation (they just happen), and the client views them as plausible or reasonable (although they may seem far-fetched to outsiders). These automatic thoughts are similar to Firestone's inner voices.
3. This idea has also been proposed by Transactional Analysts.

A Plethora of Similar Ideas

The idea that mind is composed of many subselves has been proposed by many theorists, although not in as great a depth as Lester (2010). There have been popular articles on the notion, for example Bloom (2008). Bloom wrote a general article about the mind for a lay audience, but he noted that each of us is a community of competing selves. If one of these selves is happy, then others may be miserable because they are not necessarily cooperating and moving toward the same goal. Bloom thought that this could explain addictions and compulsions, and why people spend much of their time in non-real worlds (television, fiction, and virtual reality). Bloom felt that there should be one self which functions as a chief executive, and he quoted a philosopher, Jerry Fodor, who once said, "If there is a community of computers living in my head, there had better be somebody in charge; and, by God, it had better be me" (Bloom, 2008, p. 92). Bloom suggested that the community of selves should not be a democracy, but neither should it be a dictatorship.

Bloom viewed these multiple selves as popping in and out of existence, with different desires, fighting for control, bargaining, deceiving, and plotting. Bloom noted that we can add selves, as psychotherapists who use the concept of multiple selves encourage their clients to do. This can also happen without planning, as when we read a novel or watch a movie and we give up our identity and take on that of one of the characters in the story. We then view the world from their perspective and share their experiences. Daydreaming sometimes involves conjuring up people as props for our day dreams, and the current possibility of creating avatars in an online world is an extension of this.

Ideally, Bloom argued, the multiple selves should work as a team, avoiding clashes, but this does not always happen. However, some subselves can predict that others plan to take over and protect themselves. Bloom calls this self-binding, and Andras Angyal (1965) called this erecting defense mechanisms. The dieter avoids buying large

quantities of food to put in the pantry and refrigerator, so that it is not available to eat. Not all of the subselves should have equal say in decisions made by the individual. Some are immature, others focus on the short-term rather than long-term goals, and still others are impulsive, rather than reflective.

Bloom noted that some scholars argue that the society, through legal rules, should support the more mature and healthy subselves. Thaler and Sunstein (2003) labeled this *libertarian paternalism*. For example, since people may not save enough for retirement, Thaler and Sunstein suggested that employees should have part of their paycheck put into savings by default and, if they do not want this, they would have to opt out.

William James¹

The notion of the multiple self is not new. Many early writers proposed concepts that are primitive versions of the idea. William James (1842–1910) was an early psychologist, and some commentators see James as one of the first to propose a multiplicity of the self (Browning, 1980; Levin, 1992). James described two basic subselves: (i) the self as a knower, a subself which has an executive function, and (ii) a subself which is that which is known. James saw little relevance of the knower for psychologists and argued that only philosophers should discuss it.

In his major works (James, 1890, 1902), he described the mind as made up of pure ego and an empirical self. The empirical self was itself a multiple self with three parts: a material self, a social self, and a spiritual self. The *empirical self* is “Me,” our coherent experience (or sense) of self. For James, this empirical self also includes objects that are *mine*, that is, our children, fame, reputation, and home. “In its widest possible sense—a man’s Self is the sum total of all that he can call his,” (James, 1890, p. 273) a notion that broadens the definition beyond how most of the theorists in this book would define it.

The *material self* is primarily the bodily self—the body plus our awareness of our body. For the bodily self to be part of the empirical self, we must have an emotional investment in it and care about it. The *social self* is not the self that we present to others, the mask behind which we hide, but rather that part of our self that we owe to the existence and presence of others. Our family and our friends add to our sense of self. If someone we love dies, our self shrinks. Perhaps, we could re-phrase this in terms of roles. If our partner whom we love dies, we lose that role, and that role may have been a large part of how we experience

our self. The *spiritual self* is our inner subjective being, our core self. It includes our moral sensibility and our conscience, our will, and our “entire stream of our personal consciousness” (James, 1890, p 284).

That leaves *pure ego* which is the source of our personal identity. It is the subjective synthesis of all that occurs within us so that we feel that we are the same, a continuous being, that we are the same self as we were yesterday and the day before that. James talked about the stream of consciousness, and so it seems appropriate to draw a parallel with the Buddhist notion of a river. A river remains the same river despite the fact that the water streaming through it is continuously changing and never the same.

Yost, Strube, and Bailey (1992) have provided an interesting elaboration of William James’s ideas that goes far beyond James’s formulation. Yost et al. noted that there are two issues in the discussion of multiple selves: (i) how are subselves generated and (ii) how are they selected? Yost et al. base their analysis of these issues on an evolutionary perspective.² They proposed that the individual generates the subselves (a process they call *self-variation*), whereas the environment plays a role in selecting those subselves that are kept.

Subselves are generated, according to Yost et al., by the pure ego in James’s system, which they see as a process rather than as an entity or structure in the mind. Yost et al. see the process of producing subselves as a fundamental instinct, and so do not address the issue of why the pure ego should produce variation. Although the pure ego must choose which subselves to keep and which to relinquish, this process is aided by the environment. The subselves that are retained are those which help us deal effectively with the environment, and this constrains to some extent which subselves are generated by the pure ego. In particular, being rational, the pure ego selects only those subselves which are testable by the environment for their usefulness.

Yost et al. noted that, as we age and become more “set” in our ways, fewer and fewer possible subselves are generated. Furthermore, the subselves develop more links, and these links become stronger, making change more difficult. The mind is more “disparate and malleable in the early stages of its construction, or in entirely novel environments” (p. 119). Significant life events and crises can also produce radically different selves or change the pool of alternatives.

Theodore Sarbin

Theodore Sarbin (1952) suggested the existence of cognitive structures, one of which is the *self*. The self is organized around substructures which

he labeled *empirical selves*. These empirical selves are the result of experience and any one of them can occupy “the focus of the interbehavioral field at any given time,” a concept which seems similar to Eric Berne’s notion that each ego state (in his theory) can assume executive power over the mind from time to time. These empirical selves differ in the strength of their boundaries, and very strong boundaries result from overlearning. Very strong boundaries inhibit and delay the formation of new empirical selves.

Sarbin viewed these empirical selves as appearing at different stages of development, and so they differ in their level of sophistication. The first empirical self is developed by the newborn infant and is the *somatic self*, initiated by the somesthetic senses, proprioception, and the cutaneous senses. This is followed by a *receptor-effector self*, a *primitive-construed self*, an *introjecting-extrojecting self*, and finally, a *social self*, which consists of organized acts or *roles*. Sarbin noted that individuals may be dominated by one of these empirical selves and, if the dominating empirical self is one of the primitive selves, then the social self may be absent or poorly developed.

The idea that subselves may develop in stages is interesting, but Sarbin’s theory leaves too many primitive selves in the matrix and not enough mature selves. In particular, he proposes only one social self, whereas it seems likely that there are many as Rowan (1990) and Lester (2010) have proposed.

Heenan and Double Lives

Heenan (2002) argued that, in order to have a fulfilling life, it is often useful to develop a second passion or vocation (or a second life). In his book, Heenan profiled ten individuals who illustrate this. For example, Winston Churchill was not only a politician who led Great Britain and the Allies to victory over Germany in the Second World War, he was also a painter (and, we might add, an author). His writing provided him with fame and fortune, but painting was his solace, a release from the pressures of governing his country. In 1915, when he was 41 years old, Churchill watched his sister-in-law painting watercolors, and he decided to try it himself. He says of his hobby, “Painting came to my rescue in a most trying time. . . . I had great anxieties and no means of relieving it. . . . The Muse of Painting came to my rescue” (Heenan, 2002, p. 35). During the First World War, Churchill was assigned to Belgium in 1915 as a colonel. His junior officers were amazed to see him set up his painting equipment in the midst of battle. For most of

the Second World War, he put his painting aside, but in 1943, after a conference with President Franklin Roosevelt in Morocco, he traveled 150 miles inland to paint the snowcapped Atlas Mountains.

In many ways, the “second life” is very different from the major occupation, and the person behaves differently when in this second life. Churchill, a fiery orator and a dynamic and effective ruler, became focused and quiescent when painting. It is as if a subself develops and takes over during this double life. Perlmutter (2008) urged non-tenured faculty to develop this second life as a way of lessening the anxieties associated with getting tenure, but Heenan urged all of us to develop a second life and gave guidelines for achieving this.

Eagleman's *Incognito*

Eagleman (2011) talks of the mind as a *team of rivals*, which sounds encouraging from the point of view of a multiple self theory of personality, but Eagleman is a neuropsychologist, and much of what he writes about is neurophysiologically based and not mind based.

Eagleman cites Minsky (1986), who suggested that the mind could be viewed as made up of a collection of machine-like, connected *sub-agents*, each a specialized worker with a task to perform. Yet Minsky implied more than a collection when he titled his book *The society of mind*, a society being more than a collection of objects, but rather an interconnected network. Commenting on this, Eagleman noted that Minsky did not include competition in his collection of subagents. For Eagleman, the brain runs and benefits from conflicts, with parts that have differing opinions and which argue with one another. We can curse at ourselves and cajole ourselves to do something, things that modern computers cannot do. In short, we can be *conflicted*. It is this conflict that results in consciousness.

Eagleman moves on to discuss *dual-process* theories of the brain. One system is fast, automatic, and operates below the surface of consciousness. The other is slow, cognitive, and conscious. These two processes often “battle it out.” Eagleman notes that there may be more than two such systems, and he cites Freud's concepts of id, ego, and superego, and MacLean's reptilian brain (involved in survival), limbic system (involved in emotions) and neocortex (higher order thinking), as examples of tripartite classifications. Eagleman suggests also that dividing the brain into *rational* and *emotional* systems may prove useful, which he saw as related to the division into two systems that seek immediate gratification and that seek longer-term rationality, similar

to division in ancient Jewish writings of the body (*guf*) and the soul (*nefesh*). Alcohol does not reveal the *true self*, but rather tips the balance to the short-term, unreflective faction.

Eagleman next considers the split-brain, in which connections between the two hemispheres of the brain are disconnected. He argues that the two hemispheres have different personalities and skills, such as thinking abstractly, creating stories, drawing inferences, and making good choices—two separate realms of consciousness. However, except for a few unfortunate individuals, the two hemispheres of the brain can never correspond to two multiple selves. Eagleman concludes that we “are made up of an entire parliament of pieces and parts and subsystems” (p. 148).

Power’s Multistory Self

Power (2007) proposed that “certain attributes or concerns of the self can be split off or separated from the rest of the self-concept” (pp. 188–189), and these split off parts have greater internal connectedness and weaker unity connectedness with other concerns. He also called this *modularization* (Power & Dalgleish, 1997), while others have called it *compartmentalization* (Showers, 1992). Each of these multiple self-constructs gives rise to its own *reflective self* or *observing self*, and there is only one *experiencing self* at any one time. In general, Powers saw disunity as a result of psychological trauma such as sexual, physical, and mental abuse, and he saw the internal dialogue between these internal voices as grounding for disorders such as schizophrenia, an unnecessarily negative view in my opinion.³

Powers proposed four types of mind: (i) a unitary self-construct, (ii) a self-construct in which significant concerns are split off, (iii) a multiple self-construct in which selves are coconscious, and (iv) a multiple self-construct in which different selves take turns to dominate conscious experience. The different self-constructs can be centered around emotions, roles, or goals, and Powers refers to this as the *ambivalent self*.

Showers’s Multifaceted Self

Showers, Zeigler-Hill, and Limke (2006) accepted the view of the self as a *multifaceted self*, containing “a broad array of sometimes conflicting attributes, organized into a set of multiple *self-aspect categories*. Each self-aspect may represent a state, traits, domain, or social role, and contains a set of specific attributes or beliefs” (p. 474). Showers proposed a model of *evaluative organization* with two forms of self-organization.

Compartmentalization organizes the self-aspects so that the information in each is primarily positive or primarily negative. The self-aspect of oneself as a scholar may be positive but one's self-aspect during an examination may be primarily negative. *Integrative self-structures* have self-aspects that are mixtures of positive and negative attributes. I think that these two terms are poor since, in both cases, the self-aspects are compartmentalized in the lay-sense of the term, and neither are integrated according to typical psychological definitions of the term (Lester, 1995, p. 85).

Showers noted that, if one's self-aspects are primarily positive, especially the salient self-aspects, then compartmentalization should result in better well-being since it will easier to isolate and minimize the impact of negative experiences, emotions, and thoughts. In contrast, if the salient self-aspects are primarily negative, then integration permits the intrusion of some positive attributes into the self-concept and results in better well-being, at least in the short term.

Showers also introduced the concepts of *differential importance*, that is, the relative important of positive self-aspects versus negative self-aspects, and *self-complexity*, that is, the number of distinct and well-elaborated (and non-overlapping) self-aspects. High self-complexity should prevent negative experiences in one self-aspect from spilling over into other self-aspects. (However, it may also prevent positive experiences in one self-aspect from spilling over and influencing other self-aspects!) For a recent review of research on compartmentalization and integration, see Showers and Zeigler-Hill (2007).

Individuals who would be interesting to study for purposes of subselves are bipolar disorder patients. Unlike patients with multiple personality (a dissociative disorder involving amnesia), bipolar disorder patients do not have amnesia, although they do have cognitive distortions in their different mental states (Platman, Plutchik, Fieve & Lawlor, 1969). Taylor, Morley & Barton (2007), explored compartmentalization and self-complexity in remitted bipolar disorder patients, recovered depressed patients, and healthy controls. They found that both bipolar and depressed patients demonstrated greater compartmentalization than healthy controls. In addition, recovered bipolar patients showed greater self-complexity (measured by number of self-aspects generated and the degree of overlap of attributes) than healthy controls under some conditions.

Power et al. (2002) tested bipolar patients in the euthymic phase and found that their modularized self-concept was organized into self-aspects that were completely positive or completely negative (that is, more com-

partmentalized) as compared to medically-ill patients (with diabetes). It would be of interest to test bipolar disorder patients in the depressed phase.

Dan McAdams and Imagoes

McAdams (1985) coined the term imago which he defined as “an idealized and personified image of self that functions as a main character in an adult’s life story” (p. 116). Imagoes are “essential constituents of identity . . . created by the individual to aid in defining the self . . . [that] serve to orient the individual in interpersonal relationships” (p. 116). McAdams illustrated his construct with the three main identities of George Bernard Shaw, the English writer—the Snob, the Noisemaker and the Diabolical One.

McAdams saw constructs proposed by others as similar to imagoes, including Harry Stack Sullivan’s (1953) *personified images of the self* (such as the *good me*, the *bad me*, and the *not me*), the *object relations* of the neo-Freudians, and Carl Jung’s *archetypes* (which are universal imagoes). More recently, McAdams noted that this type of construct has been proposed by cognitive psychologists, especially the constructs of schemata, self-schemata (Markus & Sentis, 1982), systems of schemata, and prototypes (Rogers, 1981).

McAdams also noted that many theorists using imago-like constructs have proposed a dialectical framework in which imagoes exist in pairs, typically opposite to each other, with a tension of thesis and antithesis. For example, McAdams saw Sullivan’s good me and bad me as illustrating this. He also saw Eric Berne’s Parent and Child ego states as existing in this dialectic, with the Adult ego state as the mediator. Of course, this dialectic is clearest in Jung’s theory in which each complex has its opposite, balanced for sensing-intuiting, thinking-feeling, and extraversion-introversion. Maturation involves synthesizing these pairs, a process called individuation in Jung’s theory.

In seeking a typology of imagoes, McAdams, like Bolen (see Chapter 3), chose the Greek gods. McAdams noted that the Greek gods represented projected personifications of what the Greeks saw as basic human propensities and strivings. McAdams divided the gods into what he saw as David Bakan’s (1966) division of agency versus communion, similar to Andras Angyal’s (1965) trends toward autonomy and homonomy.⁴ The agentic gods are:

Zeus: patriarch, judge, conqueror, creator
Hermes: explorer, adventurer, trickster, persuader
Ares: fighter, soldier, policeman

The communion gods are:

Demeter: altruist, sufferer, martyr
Hera: helpmate, confederate, assistant
Aphrodite: charmer, enchanter

Some imagoes have high agency and high communion:

Apollo: protector, artist, shaman, legislator
Athena: arbiter, counselor, therapist
Prometheus: mentor, defender of the weak, evangelist

Other imagoes are low on both agency and communion:

Hestia: homemaker, keeper of order in the house
Hephaestus: craftsman, laborer
Dionysius: hedonist, pleasure-seeker

In his research on 50 men and women, McAdams found 35 individuals who had two contrasting images of themselves—which he called imago and anti-imago. Twelve of these people had managed some degree of integration of these two, as in a woman who synthesized her friend imago (Hera) with her sense of being strong and masterful by becoming a psychotherapist. McAdams also found that those who had achieved good integration were more mature on a measure of ego development.

Robert Kurzban

Kurzban (2010) seems to like the idea of multiple selves. He begins his book with three lines from a poem by Walt Whitman:

Do I contradict myself?
Very well then I contradict myself
(I am large, I contain multitudes)

But Kurzban's concepts are rooted more in neuropsychology and computer science. He does propose that the mind is made up of many mental processes, and he sees programming subroutines or iPhone applications (apps) as parallels, each with their own logic. He uses these ideas to explain such problems as self-deception and the contradictions within ourselves. For example, how we can want to know

something (like how our retirement fund is doing) and also not want to know at the same time. He also says that, “the large number of parts of the minds can be thought of as, in some sense, being different ‘selves,’ designed to accomplish some task” (p. 6). However, his selves are less organized and less complex than the multiple selves that form the basis of my theory.

Kurzban calls the parts of mind *modules*. Because modules are distinct from one another, they can hold mutually inconsistent views. Kurzban saw the need for one module to speak for the whole, and he labels this the *press secretary*, that is, it has little power and does not always know the whole truth, but it is the module that experiences the world and gives us the sense that we are in control. Kurzban’s computer concept is clear in his definition of a module as “an information-processing mechanism that is specialized to perform some function. . . . An information-processing module, then, is a computational mechanism that does some job . . . very much like a subroutine in computing” (p. 24).⁵ Kurzban is quite extreme in his views, asserting that modules are functionally specialized and that there are no general function modules because “that makes no sense” (p. 41).

Any module could be connected to another module, but need not be connected. Thus, information in one module may be communicated to others, but it may also not be communicated. If it is not communicated to other modules, then it is walled-off, *information encapsulation*. Indeed, some modules might be designed to encapsulate their information. It is this encapsulation that results in self-deception and hypocrisy. For Kurzban, there is no central module, one that is in command. As to how the symphony of modules is coordinated, Kurzban admits that he does not know (p. 67). A mind cannot be smart by proposing a smaller brain inside it, but rather by having lots of pieces. No part of the mind (Kurzban typically uses the word *brain* rather than mind) can be the whole mind, but each module could take over the mind for a period of time. There is no core self or real self—no “me.” Some modules are associated with consciousness, but Kurzban argues that those modules may not have important roles to play in our lives and, in fact, they may constitute only a small part of our mind.

Since the *spin doctor* is an important module, Kurzban details its function in detail. Spin doctors do not simply transmit information, they “spin” the information, framing it in a way that is favorable to the President. As such, it is better if the spin doctor does not know every-

thing so that they do not deliberately have to lie. It is the part of you that feels like you that executes this public relations function. “You” are not the President. Of course, Kurzban slips here, because spin doctors spin for the President, yet Kurzban asserts that there is no “President” in the mind. However, Kurzban’s view means that that it does not make sense to say what “you” believe, or what you believe in “your heart of hearts” or “in your gut.”

Kurzban quotes approvingly Dennett (1978), who said, “selves are not things at all, but instead are explanatory fictions” (Kurzban, 2010 p. 62), and also Minsky (1986), who said that the mind is a community of agents each with limited powers, and communicating only with certain other agents (p. 75).

Assagioli’s Psychosynthesis

Roberto Assagioli (1971) proposed a theory and system of psychotherapy which he called *psychosynthesis*. Psychosynthesis is a blend of psychoanalytic ideas (albeit modified) with humanistic ideas, but it has always remained on the fringes of mainstream counseling. However, what is relevant for the present book is that Assagioli proposed as one small part of his theory the existence of subpersonalities. Assagioli suggested that a therapist could ask a client, “Have you noticed that you behave differently in your office, at home, in social interplay, in solitude, at church, or as a member of a political party?” (p. 74). Assagioli proposed that each of us has different selves, based on the relationship we have with other people, surroundings, groups, etc., that is, roles. We should not identify with any one of these selves. The goal is to become aware of the subpersonalities and immerse ourselves in each role, so that we can play consciously these various roles. The subpersonalities must be synthesized “into a larger organic whole without repressing any of the useful traits” (p. 75). Assagioli touched only briefly on the transitions from one subpersonality to another and to their organization. He also saw the value of having an *observing self* that monitors the different subpersonalities.

Brown (2000) noted that subpersonalities may be unconscious in clients, who may be unaware that they have different *pattern sets* (to use his word), and the therapist must help the client become aware of them through the imaginative process of personification, after which the subpersonalities can be easily recognized, available to be reflected upon, understood, and worked with. Subpersonalities differ from

multiple personality disorder only in the degree of suppression (or repression) and the presence of amnesia.

Rainwater (1979) wrote a self-help book from the perspective of psychosynthesis (and cognitive therapy), emphasizing the usefulness of self-observation. Rainwater introduces clients to the concept of subpersonalities and, rather than limiting clients to the terms of Fritz Perls (top dog versus bottom dog) or Eric Berne (Parent, Adult, and Child ego states), Rainwater prefers to let clients identify and label their subpersonalities. Each subpersonality is organized around a “want” of the total personality, and so clients are instructed to identify their needs and desires. The range of subpersonalities within each person is vast, according to Rainwater, and include all of the roles we have. There is, however, a central self which must be given the power to arbitrate among the warring subpersonalities. It is a mistake to ignore or banish any of the subpersonalities because each is organized around something that the client wants.

Rainwater has clients identify their “wants” first, and then recognize the subpersonalities centered around each want. Clients are then encouraged to create dialogues between the subpersonalities, both in a notebook and in a psychodramatic fashion in which the subpersonalities interact as if in a play on stage. Rainwater also suggested that there are common types of subpersonalities (although clients must be encouraged to devise their own labels for their subpersonalities), such as critics, saboteurs, and victims. Rainwater also urges clients to identify which subpersonalities have become obsolete as their wants change over time.

Maurice Bloch

The ideas of Maurice Bloch (2011), an anthropologist, are somewhat different from my concept of subselves, but they are of interest. Bloch began by noting the many terms used to describe the self and decided to use the term *blob*, and he distinguished several *levels* to the blob.

The first level is the *core self*, which involves, (1) a sense of ownership and location of one’s body, and (2) a sense that one is author of one’s own actions. Above this level is the *minimal self*, which involves the sense of continuity in time. Next up is the *narrative self*, which involves conscious experience of the self over time. Bloch adopted the distinction made by Strawson (2005) between those who create conscious autobiographical narratives about themselves (*diachronics*) and those who do not (*episodics*), although he dislikes the latter term. Diachronics create a *meta-representational diachronic narrative self*, but episodics do not. Diachronics have a meaningful autobiography and talk about

their feelings, inner states and autobiographies. As an anthropologist, Bloch believed that some cultures encourage the development of diachronics while other cultures do not. Perhaps it is more accurate to say that cultures differ in the proportion of the two types.

However, the fact that diachronics can *talk about themselves* (that is, tell stories about themselves) does not mean that, when doing this, they *are themselves*. They are interpreting the aspects of their self of which they are conscious, publicly *meta-representing* these aspects. Furthermore, Bloch muddies the typology he proposed by claiming that, rather than being three distinct levels, there is a continuum from the core self to the narrative self. This continuum moves from the private (and internal) level to the public and social level, and all levels can be affected by cultural factors. Although Bloch stressed that his levels actually constituted a continuum, the notion that subselves might be arranged hierarchically is an interesting possibility and one that Lester (2010) did not consider.

Takeo Doi

Takeo Doi (1973, 1986) is a Japanese psychiatrist who has written about the common split between the façade self and the real self, but from a Japanese viewpoint. *Omote* is the appearance one shows to others, and so omote corresponds to the façade self. Constructing an omote in Japan is a sign of maturity. In contrast, *ura* is what one hides from others. Affairs of omote refer to what we do to impress other people whose presence puts us on guard. Affairs of ura refer to secrets that we disclose only to those closest to us, and so ura seems to refer to real self.

These two concepts are related to two other Japanese concepts. *Tatemaie* refers to formal principles that we follow in order to ensure the harmony of the group. *Honne* refers to our feelings and opinions which we hold privately regarding matters. These again seems to parallel the façade self and the real self. Doi says that tatemaie can be defined as omote-mind and honne as ura-mind.

In an effort to apply these concepts to Western-labeled psychiatric disorder, Doi suggested that neurotics appear to be those whose ura threaten to come out against their better judgment. They can distinguish between omote and ura but cannot contain the ura. Psychopaths, on the other hand, ignore their omote and let the ura have free rein. Manic-depressives believe that they have no ura. However, eventually they cannot maintain their omote as executive of the mind, and the ura come out, resulting in either a manic or a depressive state. Schizophrenics have failed to develop a distinction between omote and ura

so that they are transparent to others and to themselves. Doi's concept can explain why schizophrenics often believe that others are reading and influencing their minds, often in a destructive way.

Kitayama and Markus

Kitayama and Markus (1999) presented different version of the Japanese conception of self. They gave an example of Yuko Arimori, who won a bronze medal in the women's marathon in the 1996 Olympic Games in Atlanta (USA). She said to the Japanese reporters after the race that she wanted to give praise to "the self who persevered and hung on until the end" (p. 242). In Japan, these words are given by a teacher to praise a student or a mother to her child. In relationships, the two people differ in status or power. Thus, when applied to oneself, the implication is that there is a warm self (the self which gives the praise) and a tough self (the self which attempts a difficult task), which Kitayama and Markus viewed as yin and yang producing a "person of integrity and coherence" (p. 244). Kitayama and Markus viewed this balance view of the self as coming from an Eastern cultural philosophy, whereas the Western tradition is one in which self is viewed as unitary and consistent.

Kitayama and Markus also saw the Western conception of the self as an independent and autonomous entity, whereas the Eastern conception of the self is an interdependent mutually connected entity. The independent conception assumes that: we are autonomous individuals with a distinctive set of traits and psychological processes that determine our behavior; we differ in these traits and processes from one another, and we are consistent in our behavior across situations and over time. The interdependent conception assumes that we are part of a set of social relationships. Our behavior is responsive to the others in our lives, and our behavior varies across situations.

Although this is a statement frequently made in discussions of the East versus the West, situational theories of personality (such as that proposed by Mischel [1968]) clearly stress the role of the situation (and therefore, others) in determining behavior, and many Western authors discussed in this book have proposed a relational self. The multiple self theory proposed in this book also argues that some people (in any culture) may have multiple selves based on connections to others (that is, roles). It is interesting that so many theories of the mind propose sets of subselves that *everyone* has rather than the multiple self theory of the mind proposed in this book, which permits individuals to differ in how they define their multiple selves.

Kitayama and Markus note that the interdependent conception of the self does more easily permit a “multicomponential and multiperspectival” self (p. 266), and coherence in the mind involves balance rather than an overall consistency. Furthermore, Kitayama and Markus propose that the Japanese conception of the self involves a personal and an official *generic frame* (p. 267), which I would label as subselves, a distinction similar to that made by Takeo Doi discussed in the previous section. Kitayama and Markus argued that these two subselves are found in the West but, in the West, they operate in different situations, whereas in the East they operate in any given relationship at any given moment in time (p. 274). In the example given by Kitayama and Markus, they note that a manager can be friendly with his workers during a brief tea break, but strict when work resumes. Perhaps Kitayama and Markus propose this because they confound the personal and official subselves with the tender and tough subselves (warm-hearted versus strict) that they discussed earlier in their chapter. They view the critical self as aligned with the official frame and the warm-hearted self with the personal frame (p. 288). This confounding is not necessary, and combining these two dichotomies produces four types of subselves: strict personal, tender personal, strict official and tender official.

Stone and Winkelman

Stone and Winkelman (1989) embrace a multiple self theory of the mind. They note that this concept has been proposed before and called by many names—I’s, selves, partial selves, complexes, and multiple personalities. They prefer *selves*, *subpersonalities*, and *energy patterns*. By the time we are adults, we are, inevitably, already fragmented, and it is important for us to become aware of this in order to make changes in our lives.

We are born defenseless and vulnerable, and the infant needs to establish some control. In order to accomplish this, the child learns to do what its parents want it to do. The child typically suppresses the real self and adopts a social self. One of the earliest selves to develop is the self that watches over us, a *protector/controller*. This self uses the energies of the *rational self* and the *responsible parent* to help us maintain control over the environment.

For Stone and Winkelman, consciousness is not an entity but a process, a process with three levels: (i) the level of awareness: (ii) the experience of different selves, and (iii) the development of an aware ego. Awareness is the capacity to witness or experience all of our inner life. The protector/controller is subjective, but awareness involves an

objective witness. This *aware ego* carries out the executive functions of the mind, but there is the danger that one or more selves may take over its executive functions, such as the *protector/controller*, *pusher*, *pleaser*, *perfectionist*, or *inner critic*. If this happens, then the ego has *identified* with this particular self. Conscious evolves in the healthy person, resulting in an increased level of awareness, expansion of the aware ego, and a growing experience of our multiple selves.

Selves may be conscious or unconscious. An *unconscious self* never has executive control of the mind, and so we may be unaware of it. In contrast, a *disowned self* is one that was punished as a child and so is suppressed or repressed. According to Stone and Winkelman, a disowned self become part of our Jungian *shadow*. In circumstances where we encounter an individual who embodies one of our disowned selves, our disowned self “resonates within ourselves” (p. 29), leading us to avoid this individual. Disowned selves often involve negative emotions, such as anger, since our parents had difficulty dealing with these emotions and so punished their expression by us. Although we try to suppress these disowned selves, they break through in our dreams, and Stone and Winkelman provided many examples of this in their clients.

Some selves are disowned by the culture we live in, for example, those that embody the seven deadly sins. We must become aware of these disowned selves, but not necessarily act them out. They can emerge in a safe environment, such as our day-dreams. If we do not, these selves can become *demonic*. We can “learn to honor an energy pattern without being required to live it” (p. 36).

A guide to our disowned selves can be obtained by becoming aware of what irritates, angers, and disgusts us in others. Since we also project our disowned selves on to others, it does not matter whether our perception of the others is accurate or not. They can still provide clues to our disowned selves. Stone and Winkelman caution against over-identifying with a disowned self once we become aware of it. Disowned selves should not necessarily become the executive of the mind. Awareness of them is usually sufficient.

Stone and Winkelman use voice dialogues to help people become aware of and integrate their multiple selves. After identifying the subpersonalities, the facilitator gets the client to voice each self, often using a different space (e.g., chair) to do so, encouraging a dialogue between the selves, much as the way Firtz Perls did in Gestalt Therapy. The facilitator should remain nonjudgmental and encourage the client to also remain

nonjudgmental. The facilitator should also encourage the aware ego to be present, especially at the end of a session, when the session can be discussed. In this task, the aware ego is very similar to the recording secretary often created by Shapiro and Elliott (1976) in their system of psychotherapy. Stone and Winkelman note that they are not proposing a system of psychotherapy, nor a substitute for psychotherapy. It is simply a technique for expanding awareness, a tool like meditation.

In addition to these abstract concepts, Stone and Winkelman also describe common selves that they have found in their clients.

- (i) The *protector/controller* (the boss) who observes the environment and decides which behaviors will work best and please people, and who may choose particular other selves to take over from time to time in order to accomplish this task. The protector also keeps the disowned selves disowned. Stone and Winkelman see the protector as similar to the superego in psychoanalysis and the Parent ego state in Transactional Analysis, but it is not identical to either of these.
- (ii) The heavyweights are the powerful selves, such as the *pusher* (and its nemesis, the *do-nothing*). The *critic* seems to have an incredible intelligence, powers of perception, and candor, and critics can be useful. They can make us realize that change is necessary, although not in the direction that they push us. The *perfectionist* is also a heavyweight, as are the *power-broker* and the *pleaser*.
- (iii) The disowned selves must also be explored, as well as the selves that may comprise the *inner child* (such as the vulnerable selves and the playful and magical selves), the parental selves (including the good mother, the good father, the negative mother, the negative father and the rational parent), and many others.

The goal is to embrace all of our selves and become aware of them. Stone and Winkelman see many others as proposing similar ideas, and they do not reject these alternative ideas. In the end, they can talk of Jungian archetypes and the many Gods within us (Bolen, 1985, 1989), and they provide us with both abstract qualities for selves and concrete examples of types of selves.

There are a slew of similar concepts in the scholarly literature. For example, Ogilvie and Ashmore (1991) proposed that the self-concept is comprised on several *self-with-other* components. The self-with-other is a “mental representation that includes the set of personal qualities (traits, feelings, and the like) that an individual believes characterizes his or her self when with a particular other person” (p. 290). There are many such self-with-other representations, and similar ones are grouped together to form constellations, which in turn are organized, possibly

hierarchically, into an overall self-with-others structure. Ogilvie and Ashmore felt that the representations, constellations, and structure are reasonably stable and, thus, can be reliably measured.

Kenrick's Loose Confederacy of Subselves

Kenrick (2011), writing from an evolutionary psychological point of view, proposed that the mind is made up of a loose confederacy of subselves, but he adds that these subselves are “each controlled by a different combination of neural hardware and software” (p. 77). Thus, subselves, for Kenrick, have a neural basis. There is no unitary self, but rather a “confederation of modular subselves, each one specialized to do some things well” (p. 81). The question arises, therefore, what things? Kenrick noted that the idea is as old as William James back in 1890 who proposed the notion of social selves. Kenrick proposed that the *functional subselves* are for dealing with different categories of people—friends, romantic partners, enemies, relatives, etc.—so they are akin to roles.

Kenrick asked how many subselves we have, and he thought that this depended upon how many key sets of problems we have to solve. His examples here include dangers of violence or disease, gaining status, providing for our family etc., thereby changing the notion of subselves from social roles to important goals or fundamental motives. However, Kenrick did list seven subselves that he reckoned most of us have.

The Team Player. This subself manages problems related to affiliation (friendships). This subself can tell who might make a good friend, whether we are being accepted or rejected, and other relational tasks.

The Go-Getter. This subself manages problems related to status, such as being respected by others, where we stand in the dominance hierarchy, and how to move up.

The Night Watchman. This subself manages problems related to self-protection, such being wary of strangers who might assault us or rob us.

The Compulsive. This subself is concerned with avoiding disease and is worried about the germs being spread by others and whether the food is tainted.

The Swinging Single. This subself is concerned with acquiring mates.

The Good Spouse. Once we have a mate, this subself is in charge of retaining the mate, keeping him or her happy, and watching for potential interlopers.

The Parent. This subself is concerned with caring for kin, especially our own children and grandchildren, as well as more distant relatives

(since evolutionary psychologists focus on our supposed need for the continuation of our genes in future generations, and both close and distant relatives carry some of the same genes that we have).

Kenrick noted that, at any given time, only one of these subselves is in control of the mind. However, some of the subselves may have similar goals (affiliation and parenting, for example), but others may have conflicting goals (the swinging single and good spouse subselves, for example). Kenrick drew a comparison between the mind made up of subselves and a computer containing many different programs, but all sharing the same hardware and core code.

Kenrick took Abraham Maslow's hierarchy of needs (psychological, safety, belongingness, esteem, and self-actualization needs), modified it from an evolutionary perspective, and suggested that each subself is driven by a different need (motivational subsystem). In addition, just as Maslow proposed that the needs in his hierarchy show a developmental sequence, appearing at different ages, Kenrick proposed that the subselves "come on at different phases of our life's journey" (p. 126), again, an interesting idea.

Allen McConnell and Multiple Self-Aspects

McConnell (2011) proposed that the self "is represented in an associative network (p. 3), as a "network of distributed nodes" (p. 5) or as "a collection of multiple, context-dependent *self-aspects* stored in memory" (p. 5). Each self-aspect is associated with other self-aspects, which vary in their accessibility. In the case of Rachel, whom McConnell uses to illustrate his ideas, her self-aspects include roles (daughter, student), social identities (Jewish, sorority member) and social relationships (Mike's girlfriend). McConnell described self-aspects as "broad organizing concepts, capturing roles, goals, private and public selves, and relational and collective identities" (p. 5) varying in accessibility.

McConnell saw self-aspects as "developed and refined in the service of pursuing central goals and motives" (McConnell, Shoda, & Skulborstad, 2012, p. 382), such as reproductive goals or belongingness needs. Each self-aspect has a set of associated attributes (such as nurturant, loving, female, and funny). These self-aspects are context-driven, and McConnell et al. gave the example of a woman who gets up and runs five miles (athlete self-aspect), gets her kids up and drives them to school (mother self-aspect) and then heads off to the university where she is a professor (professorial self-aspect). McConnell et al. summarized their conception of self-aspects as "collections of context-dependent self-aspects that reflect important goals,

needs, and motivation" (p. 386). What is lacking, of course, in McConnell's idea is any holistic organization for each self-aspect. McConnell's self-aspects are merely collections of personality traits, and also "other types of information including affective and emotional responses, physical appearance details, embodied knowledge, social category memberships, and behavioral responses, among others" (p. 389).

McConnell reported some research which is of interest. He asked a sample of college students to identify the meaningful aspects of their lives in an open-ended manner. The average number identified was 4.2. McConnell was unacquainted with previous research by Rowan (1990) whose subjects identified an average of 6.5 subpersonalities (his term) and Lester (1992) whose students identified an average of 3.5 subselves (his term). McConnell classified the self-aspects described by his students into types and found that self-aspects based on situations were most common, followed closely by those based on relationships, roles, emotions, and true selves. (The less common categories were goals, temporal [the old me], public, and alone [when I am alone].) Less than 3% of McConnell's students reported only one self-aspect.

In a second study, McConnell had students identify their self-aspects and then describe each using a list of 40 traits (20 positive and 20 negative). This sample listed an average of 4.4 self-aspects and used 22.6 of the 40 attributes. Of the 40 attributes, 42% were used for more than one self-aspect, but 58% were associated with only one self-aspect. This suggests that the self-aspects are quite different from one another.

McConnell drew an interesting implication from his theory and research, namely that, when psychologists test subjects in their research, the results may depend critically upon which subselves have executive power in the research participants at the time of testing (to use the terminology that I prefer). Since much psychological research is conducted on undergraduate students, they may be in their student subself when responding, which is only one of their possible subselves. McConnell also noted that trait theory needs to be modified in the light of evidence that many traits are specific to only one self-aspect, and there may be very few that are characteristic of every self-aspect.

McConnell gave some thought to how self-aspects develop and evolve over time. Some come from external sources such as feedback from other people and pervasive stereotypes (top-down self-aspects). Others are developed intrapsychically based on experiences and self-perceptions (bottom-up self-aspects). McConnell suggested that those

high in self-monitoring would have more self-aspects (a hypothesis confirmed in a study by Lester [2007]); those more independent in self-construal would be more likely to report a true self; those greater in inter-dependence would report more relational self-aspects, and this would be more likely in women than in men. There will also be cultural differences in the types of self-aspects.

McConnell saw the similarity of his ideas to those of Showers (1992) on the compartmentalization of the self and Linville's (1987) ideas on self-complexity, but he had seemed to have little awareness of earlier work on these ideas (reviewed in the current book and in Lester [2010]).

When writing for a popular audience, McConnell (2009) goes much further than discussing self-aspects. In his blog on *Psychology Today* (www.psychologytoday.com), McConnell talked of a community of selves, diverse self identities, and "many different selves that are known in the scientific literature as self-aspects." In this popular writing, McConnell's self-aspects are closer to the multiple selves in Lester's (2010) theory than they are in his scholarly writing.

Philip Bromberg and Subnarratives

Bromberg (1993) saw the process of psychoanalysis as "exploring the way in which the self-states comprising a patient's personal identity are linked to each other" (p. 150). These self-states can co-exist with conflict, but if the conflict cannot be tolerated, then dissociation may occur. The goal of the psychoanalyst is not simply to help clients change a unified, unadaptive self-representation, but to address "individual subnarratives, each on its own terms, and enabling negotiation to take place between them" (p. 161).

Bromberg defines *subnarratives* as "discrete, typically overlapping schemata of who he is, and that each is organized around a particular self-other configuration that is held together by a uniquely powerful affective state" (pp. 161–162). Bromberg argues that even the infant is not an integrated whole that becomes fragmented, but rather is nonunitary in origin. The infant begins and continues as a multiplicity of self-other configurations or "behavioral states." The linkages between the self-states can deteriorate or be suspended, preventing some of them from being experienced. In the personality disorders, the person cannot hold conflicting ways of seeing himself, and so the full contents of the mind are not accessible to the reflective capacity of the observing ego. Such people experience their immediate subjective experience as "truth."

Roles and Identities

Sociological thought has been very receptive to notion of the multiple self, although not always using the terms as defined by Lester (2010). Thoits (1983) proposed that “the developed self must be a complex, semipermanent, organized structure (p. 175), and she has provided a useful review of these ideas. The notion that self-conceptions arise in social interactions was proposed by Baldwin (1897) and Mead (1934) and can be found in Merton’s (1957) notion of role sets. Mead saw as many selves as there are social roles. The more social roles we have, the more subelves. Alexander and Knight (1971) called these selves *situated identities*, the imputations made by others about a person “that are conveyed by his actions in a particular social context” (p. 65). Alexander and Knight, however, saw these situated identities as created afresh in each encounter and are not carried over from one situation to another. This concept does not seem to apply to the more long-term roles that we have but, it may be that after many new situated identities have appeared, those that occur frequently are consolidated into more permanent social identities. Cooley (1902) introduced the concept of the *looking-glass self*, when we perceive ourselves in the way that others perceive us.

Thoits saw herself as following the tradition of Stryker (1980; Stryker & Serpe, 1982, 1983) in which the self is conceptualized as “a set of discrete identities—self-definitions in terms of occupied social positions (p. 175). Identities form in reciprocal role relationships, and these give “purpose, meaning, direction, and guidance to one’s life. The greater the number of identities held, the stronger one’s sense of meaningful, guided existence. The more identities, the more ‘existential security’” (p. 175). Multiple identities or roles also produces more ego-gratification or sense of being appreciated. The reverse is also true, namely that a depreciated (or mutilated) self facilitates the development of a neurosis. Thoits called this direct relationship between identity accumulation and psychological well-being the *identity accumulation hypothesis*.

It has also been argued that multiple identities based on social roles results in role strain and role conflict (e.g., Merton, 1957), but Thoits suggested that the relationship is curvilinear. There may be an optimal number of identities beyond which role strain and role conflict undermine a happy and meaningful existence. How are these identities organized? Thoits suggested that they are organized in a *salience hierarchy*. Salience is defined as the probability that a given identity

will be invoked across a variety of situations, and salience is related to the *degree of commitment* that a person has to each identity. Thoits called this degree of commitment the *network embeddedness* of the identities. She noted that others have used slightly different definitions of commitment such as the amount of time and energy invested in identity enactment (Goode, 1960; Coser, 1974; Sarbin, 1968), or the psychological centrality or subjective importance given to a role or identity (Rosenberg, 1979; Marks, 1977). Thoits noted that, as the number of identities comprising the self increases, the individual's commitment to each will decrease and the less stake there will be in any particular identity.

Thoits labeled a person with few or no identities as *isolated* whereas a person with many identities is *integrated* (which is an odd choice of terms). The loss of an identity will have less of an impact on the integrated person because such losses are softened or buffered by other identities. On the other hand, the integrated person will have less to gain from a new additional identity, since a new identity will have marginal value.

Social roles or identities may have little or no overlap in which case time and energy invested in one identity takes away investment in the other identities. However, this will be less of a problem if the different roles or identities have some overlap, which is often the case. The identities may be nested in one another. For example, the role of marital partner may overlap with the role of parent when the couple has children.

Burke and Tully (1977) also saw the self as a "collection of identities, each of which is experienced indirectly through interaction with others (p. 883). The *role* is the external component, whereas the *identity* is the internal component. Roles and identities are situation specific and arranged in a hierarchy of importance or salience. "At the top of this hierarchy are the most central, pervasive, encompassing, influential, and salient roles/identities" (p. 883). For many people, the most central identities involve age, sex and race, but this may not, of course, be valid for everyone.

Daniel Hart

Hart (1998) proposed that adolescents have a number of social selves, and he asked whether this confederacy of social selves exists in anarchy or whether they have an organization. How do adolescents view their social selves? At one extreme, they may recognize no differences, while at the other extreme they may see few connections, if any, between

their different social selves. This latter state was thought by Hart to result in distress and anxiety, and the adolescents with disorganized and dissimilar social selves might have the sense that there is no *real self*. Hart explored whether the different social selves are arranged hierarchically, but by this he meant which are more important than others (and not whether some are subordinate to others in power or breadth). As the child moves into adolescence, the hierarchy shifts as the social self with parents is supplanted by the social self with peers.

Hart noted how little empirical research is conducted on multiple social selves. Almost all research on self-concept is contextless. In his 1998 chapter, Hart found only two studies to cite. Gecas (1972) asked 1617 year-old adolescents to complete a self-esteem inventory when imagining themselves in each of their social selves. The correlation between the scores for different social selves was only 0.54, indicating some variability across social contexts. Volpe (1981) found that young people aged 10 to 23 described their self-with-father as more mature than self-with-mother and self-with-friend, and the self-with-friend was described as more open.

Hart reported a study of his own in which he explored five social selves (general, with mother, with father, with best friend, and with unknown kids) in students in grades 5 through 11 and found that they do differentiate their social selves, increasingly with age especially for their self-with-best-friend. In addition, the different social selves were differentiated in terms of descriptors: with father by activities, with best friend by positive personality traits, and with unknown kids with negative personality traits. For 52% of the adolescents, there was no hierarchical arrangement. For those with a “superordinate” self, the self-with parents became less dominant with age while the self-with-best-friend became more dominant. Finally, the self-with-best-friend was seen by the adolescents as the most authentic self.

Stuart Palmer and Role Tension

Palmer (1972) proposed a theory of homicide and suicide based on two concepts—the tension between then roles that we have and role reciprocity. It is Palmer’s concepts of tension that is relevant to the multiple self. There is often tension between the many internalized roles that we have, and the ideal is to have just the right amount of tension. If the tension is too little, and people perceive little interference between the roles, they begin to feel an inexplicable and severe frustration. The lack of tension seems as if the personality is disintegrated, and the

personality collapses. This is made worse if people have fewer roles, for then there will be less interference.

When inner tension grows very low, the foundations of inner belief are drastically shaken. That seeming inner peace and harmony which the individual has held as an ideal, turn out in practice to be extremely disturbing. If tension in the inner system has been consistently low, the individual suffers continually a collapsed internal state, an inner nothingness. (pp. 127–128)

This state, combined with high reciprocity with others, increases the risk of suicide. In contrast, if there is too much tension between the roles, combine with low role reciprocity, then homicide is more likely to occur.

As tension in that system grows very high, the individual is likely to experience great frustration because of the excessive strain of one role performance pulling against another. (p. 51)

Palmer's theory of suicide and homicide is much more complex than this, but this part of his theory which focuses on roles has interesting implications for the multiple self theory of the mind. Should the multiple selves be in complete harmony, or will that result in a feeling of inner emptiness? Obviously, too much conflict is bad, but perhaps a moderate amount of conflict is best. This notion (of an inverted U-shaped function) is common in theories of motivation and performance. For example, Fiske and Maddi (1961) proposed that the function relating activation level (often called arousal level by other theorists) and performance is typically an inverted U-shaped function. At low levels of activation, the organism is inattentive and easily distracted. At high levels of activation, the organism is excessively tense or hyperactive. A moderate level of activation is best.⁶ Negative affect is ordinarily experienced when activation level differs markedly from the normal level; positive affect is associated with shifts of activation toward the normal level.

The Impact of Facebook

What impact has Facebook had on subselves? In introducing Mark Zuckerberg, the founder of Facebook, as *Time's* 2010 person of the year, Grossman (2010) noted that Facebook has a deleterious impact on social selves, the selves we present to others. Whereas much of the writing on multiple selves has stressed the different roles we have in different situations (work, at home, etc.), Facebook

herds everybody . . . into the same big room. It smooshes together your work self and your home self, your past self and your present self, into a single generic extruded product. . . . On Facebook, there is one kind of relationship: friendship, and you have it with everybody. You're friends with your spouse, and you're friends with your plumber. (p. 68)

The Impact of the Social Self on the Real Self

Jones, Rhodewalt, and Berglas. (1981) identified what they called a *carryover effect*, in which the way in which people present themselves to others affects their thoughts and feelings about themselves (the *phenomenal self*). Typically, this impact is demonstrated in a short-term situation in which the person is asked to present themselves in a particular way to others (to give either a positive impression or a negative impression of themselves), and then the impact of this presentation on variables such as self-esteem is measured (e.g., Rhodewalt & Agustdottir, 1986). However, the process may also exist in the long-term, that is, adopting or developing a social self (or a role) may have an impact on an individual's real self. This can be illustrated by the way in which some professions have an impact on the individual. For example, police officers and professors often carry over their role on the job to every aspect of their life, so that their real self becomes dominated by their social self and, perhaps for some people, the social self becomes the real self.

Epstein

Epstein (1973) proposed that we all have self-theories. Each of us constructs a theory or theories about ourselves as an "experiencing, functioning individual" (p. 407). The self-theory results in an overall self-system which is both differentiated and integrated. The self-system is made up of subsystems or different empirical selves which retain some independence while also being influenced by (and influencing) other subsystems. Epstein proposed a particular set of subsystems which included a body self, an inferred inner self, and a moral self.

Epstein construed the body self as more than our biological self and included our possessions and those individuals and groups with which we identify. The inferred inner self refers to our psychological self and personality, and our cognitions, motivations and emotions, conscious and unconscious. The inner self represents the bulk of our self-system. One part of this inner self is the moral self, which contains the self-evaluations we make of events, others and ourselves.

Markus and Kunda

In their discussion of the conflicting views that the self is stable versus malleable, Markus and Kunda (1986) argued that the self is not a unitary structure or a generalized average of our cognitions and images. They viewed the self-concept as having a wide variety of *self-conceptions*, among which they listed good selves, bad selves, hoped-for selves, feared selves, not-me selves, ideal selves, possible selves, the ought selves.

Markus and Kunda proposed that which self is the working self (i.e., has executive power) depends on several factors: (i) which of the selves was active recently, (ii) which experience or event has just occurred, and (iii) the situation in which one finds oneself. Thus, the working self is a temporary structure. Once a particular self-conception has been created, it is unlikely to disappear, even if it is rarely elicited (or assumes executive control). Some self-conceptions have salience for defining oneself and are so extensively elaborated that they are consistently available for characterizing the self, what Higgins, King, and Mavin (1982) have called *chronically accessible*. Markus and Kunda called them *core self-conceptions* or *self-schemas*. The remaining self-conceptions are more tentative, vary in their accessibility, and may be more tied to the immediate social situation.

Redfearn

Redfearn (1985) is a Jungian but construes the self more broadly than other Jungians. In his book, *My self, my many selves*, Redfearn describes the self as a migratory self, migrating “hither and thither to various locations in the total personality, like the spotlight at a theater picking out first one actor then another, or, even more pertinently, like a pilgrim on his journey of life visiting one place, then another, in his universe” (p. xii). Redfearn accepts that each theorist may choose his own terms for multiple selves, but he preferred *sub-personalities*. Redfearn noted that sub-personalities can interact in many ways and, using a theater analogy, proposed that these ways correspond to the sum total of possible plots and scenarios, “infinite in number but which nevertheless tend to follow certain well-known and well-loved patterns” (p. xiv). Sub-personalities which are universal (or have a universal human behavior or attitude as their basis) are what Jung calls archetypes. Sub-personalities that result from trauma are typically called complexes.

Redfearn made the startling assertion that sub-personalities could be *things*, and he gave the example of a prison which could represent

a person's "rigid non-human behavior, a rigid defensive body, his tendency to imprison his human or instinctive attributes and not let them go free" (p. 89). It seems to be that a term such as *prison guard subself* might be a better term.

Following Jung, Redfearn proposed that sub-personalities occur in pairs, but he added that they can be in interacting groups as well. Redfearn also discussed the difference between experiencing and being aware of a sub-personality (*I-possession*) and acting it out behaviorally (*behavioral possession*). There is principle of reciprocity involved here, but occasionally we behave without conscious awareness of what we are doing, sometimes because the behavior is automatic, but also sometimes in a state of dissociation. Ideally, typically as a result of psychotherapy, unconscious sub-personalities can be replaced by conscious awareness and choice. Redfearn gave the example of a young boy who showed restless and aggressive behavior and, with his therapist, began to use the symbol of a lion, so that his lion-like behavior gave way to a lion symbol, letting him choose whether to behave like a lion or not.

Levin's Survey of Psychoanalytic Perspectives

Levin (1992) in his discussion of the concept of the *self* in philosophy and psychology notes that many new developments in psychoanalysis have concepts similar to that a multiple self. For example, Edward Glover (1956) wrote of *ego nuclei*, islands of ego experience or bits of self experience that coalesce as we develop, forming the psychoanalytic ego. Heinz Hartman, whose theory became known as *ego psychology*, saw the ego as having *inborn apparatuses* of primary autonomy, maturational potentialities. In his writings, Hartman (1958, 1964) defined a *self* (our bodily and mental existence), a *self-representation* (our mental representation of our body and mind), as well as the *ego* itself.

Edith Jacobson (1964) proposed that we have a *primal psycho-physiological self* but, as we mature, we develop *self-representations*. We have several self-representations, and these constitute the self as experienced. They may be loved or hated, and there is the possibility of conflict between the self-representations. Otto Kernberg (1975) proposed that we develop self-representations and object representations which he called *self objects*. As we mature, we develop a positive self-representation, a negative self-representation, a positive object representation, and a negative object representation (in these latter cases, for example, a good mother and a bad mother). Eventually, these four representations are integrated. Erik Erikson (1968) saw the mature

self as an integrated composite of our identifications with our parents, sibling, peers, teachers, real people, and fictional characters, that is a set of roles. D. W. Winnicott (1965) also saw the self as fragmented which ideally is integrated into a nuclear self, and he also discussed the play between the *real self* and the *false self*, a dichotomy that is pervasive in theories of the mind beginning with Andras Angyal (see Lester, 2010).

Heinz Kohut (1971) viewed the self as an organized and organizing center of experience. The infant starts in a fragmented state, with no coherence of experience, but develops into a bipolar self, consisting of a *grandiose self* and an *idealized parental imago*. The idealized parental imago is a result of identifying with idealized parents and internalizing them. Both of these selves form because of the infant's sense of helplessness. Later in life, the self is more cohesive, but regression leads to fragmentation.

Finally, Levin reviews the theory of Daniel Stern (1985) who proposed four subselves: the emergent self, the core self, the subjective self, and the verbal self. These are preconscious most of the time, but can emerge into consciousness. The *emergent self* comes into being in the first months of life. It consists of bodily sensation and inner states and is quite primitive, but Stern saw the emergent self as the basis for creativity later in life. The *core self* develops next stage and includes the awareness of agency (I can do things), cohesion (I have boundaries), affectivity (I have emotions), and history (I endure). The *subjective self* develops around the age of one and consists of inner experiences that are unique to the toddler. In the second year of life, the *verbal self* develops, the story one tells about oneself about who one is. All four selves endure and persist into later life, but it is difficult to see what their form and their functions might be later in life.

These conceptions of psychoanalytic theorists are of some interest, but their focus on the infant and the young child means that they are inferred and not experienced by the theorists themselves (or by other adults). Since they are inferred and not observable, they are hypothetical and not open to empirical (or experiential) examination. For example, many people have experienced their internal top dog-bottom dog debates of the kind that Fritz Perls described. It is doubtful whether they experience Stern's emergent and subjective selves.

Susan Harter and Developmental Aspects

Harter (1999) has studied the developmental aspects of the multiple self. She noted that, in young adolescents, the conflicts between the different

subselves do not cause them concern. As one young girl put it, when asked whether the opposite attributes of her different subselves bothered her, "That's a stupid question. I don't fight with myself" (p. 64). In middle adolescence, the conflicts between the subselves do cause concern. For example, they may talk of liking themselves in some contexts and disliking themselves in others, and these different judgments are greatly affected by the feedback from those with whom they are interacting. From early to middle adolescence, the number of opposing attributes and the number in conflict both increase, and the experience of intrapsychic conflict increases. As one 15-year-old said, "I hate the fact that I get so nervous! I wish I wasn't so inhibited. The real me is talkative. I just want to be natural, but I can't" (p. 71). They are also aware of conflicts within one context (or role) and between contexts (or roles).

Harter found in her research that girls (especially girls who endorse a feminine gender orientation) are more aware of these conflicts than are boys. Perhaps boys see their different subselves as more independent than do girls? Harter also hypothesized that ethnic minority adolescents may also have a greater need to create different subselves because they have to bridge multiple worlds of different ethnicities as well as roles. Adolescents who have very different subselves with their mother than with their father may experience more conflict because often the family is together as a single unit, as when on vacations and at the dinner table.

Harter also explored the *façade self* (Harter calls it the *false self*) from a developmental perspective. The development of a child's true self is facilitated by parents who love the child for who he or she is, whereas imposing external standards for loving the child facilitates development of a *façade self*. Abusive treatment by the parents also facilitates the development of a *façade self*. In extreme situations, the *façade self*, rather than being viewed by the child as a way to behave with certain others, comes to be experienced as false and unauthentic.

In adolescence, the need to create multiple selves leads to the existential question of "Who is the real me?" Furthermore, if adolescents have difficulty in receiving approval from their significant others, they may feel hopeless about pleasing others. Those adolescents who feel that their *façade selves* are inauthentic often use the word "phony" to describe their behavior in these subselves. Again, these issues seem to be more salient for girls. Gilligan, Rogers, and Tolman (1991) called this "loss of voice," while Simone de Beauvoir (1952) observed that young girls "bury their childhood, put away their independent and imperious selves, and submissively enter adult experience" (p. 358). As women

move into adulthood, cultural definitions of *femininity* force many women to suppress their real selves further.

What is important to note here is that, unlike many theorists who talk of multiple selves, Harter has developed a strong research program to test some of the hypotheses she proposes. Let me give one example here. Harter and Monsour (1992) studied boys and girls in 7th, 9th and 11th grade classes. Each student was presented with four roles—what I am like with my parents, my friends, in the classroom, and in romantic relationships. They were asked to give six adjectives for each role and whether they considered these attributes positive or negative. The students were then presented with their 24 attributes and asked to choose the most important, the less important and the least important. They were then asked if any of the attributes were the opposite of each other. For each pair of opposites, the students were asked whether the two attributes were fighting, clashing, disagreeing, at war or in conflict with each other. Lastly, the students were asked which emotions they felt about clashing and nonclashing attributes.

The first aspect that Harter and Monsour looked at was the degree of overlap in the attributes given for each of the four roles. This overlap decreased over the period of adolescence, indicating that the four roles were much more differentiated in the older adolescents. The number of opposite attributes increased after 7th grade, as did the number of conflicts, but the older students were less confused or mixed up by these conflicts. Lastly, the most important attributes ascribed to themselves by the older students were more often positive than those of the younger students.

Although Harter's research is interesting, from the point of view of a multiple self theory of the mind, it does lack a holistic perspective. The research studies attributes (or traits) rather than system principles.

Impostors⁷

It has been argued that we are all impostors in that we all play roles (Goffman, 1971). If we have a façade self (or several façade selves), then we are misleading our significant others, friends, and acquaintances. There are two major types of impostors (Gediman, 1985). The *true impostor* deliberately assumes multiple false identities in order to deceive others. Most of the writing on impostors comes from psychoanalysts, and they have focused primarily on criminals (who become impostors in order to cheat or swindle others) or those who are characterized by psychiatric disorders. One such example is Frank Abagnale, whose life was captured in the film *Catch Me If You Can* (2002) starring

Leonardo DiCaprio. Abagnale posed as a Pan American World Airways pilot, a Georgia doctor, and a Louisiana parish prosecutor. Another example occurs in the Bible when, as Isaac ages and becomes blind, he asks one son, Esau, to bring him a meal, but his other son, Jacob, impersonates Esau and receives Isaac's blessing that was meant for Esau.

Gediman suggested that true impostors are characterized by five qualities.

- (i) Outstanding verbal fluency, facility, and fluidity which enables them to fit into their impostor role with ease.
- (ii) An excellent ability for empathy, which enables them to attend to the expectations of others and behavior in a way that others expect them to behave. They can catch on quickly to what others are thinking and feeling, almost telepathically.
- (iii) Unmistakable artifice and inauthenticity which is masked by their ability to master esoterica. They pass themselves off as having an expertise that the average person (and listener) could not possess.
- (iv) A disturbance in their sense of identity, manifested in a shifting and fragmented identity which Gediman sees as pathological.
- (v) A heightened sense of reality when in their impostor ego states. Impostors often experience themselves as authentic when they behave as impostors. They feel more real when they have adopted a false self!

Kets de Vries (1990) reviewed psychoanalytic speculation about impostors and suggested that they come from families where shared deception, lying, cheating, and make-believe are common. Appearance is valued rather than substance, and relationships are superficial. They have grandiose self-images and develop a *screen identity* to cover up a troubled underlying identity. They have difficulty differentiating between reality and fantasy, and feel better when assuming the false identity.

The second type of impostor have *as-if personalities*, who take on multiple, shifting, superficial identifications. They take on the style and roles of others by imitation and mimicry. Gediman suggested that as-if personalities resemble the false selves described elsewhere in this book. Kets de Vries sees these individuals as having schizoid personality disorder. Although they can seem well-adjusted, they do not have the capacity to become intimately involved with others. They can behave only "as if" and not authentically.

Steiner (2011) suggested that there is a continuum ranging from the true impostor, through those who have as-if personalities, to the majority of us who present façade selves to others. He quotes Helene Deutsch who said:

The world is crowded with “as-if” personalities, and even more so with impostors and pretenders. Ever since I became interested in the impostor, he pursues me everywhere. I find him among my friends and acquaintances, as well as in myself. (Deutsch, 2011, p. 1022)

Steiner noted that psychoanalysts have hypothesized that the basis for the true impostor lies in the Oedipal conflict. The impostor is defending against the infant’s sense of smallness and helplessness. There is often a bloated ego-ideal, and the imposturing behavior is an attempt to achieve that ego-ideal.

One type of person who resembles the impostors is the individual who has Münchausen Syndrome in which the person presents to physicians with fabricated symptoms and a false medical history. The person then tries to obtain surgeries or other treatments for these non-existent illnesses.

Although most commentators see impostors as pathological, Kets de Vries (1990) noted that many successful entrepreneurs (and, I might add, politicians) have the elements of impostors. They assume identities that will persuade investors (and, for politicians, voters) that their ideas are great and merit support. The same might be true of actors and actresses. We see them on screen and being interviewed on the “red carpet” at award ceremonies and on talk shows, and we wonder what they are “really like” as people. In films, they are taking on alternate roles in order to act well (rather than deceiving us for illicit gain), and their careers might well encourage the development of impostor styles. In this regard, it is interesting to note that Daniel Day-Lewis is known to adopt the identity of the character who he is portraying in each film 24/7. He stays in the role continuously while the film is being made.

Final Comment

Although the ideas of a large number of scholars have been reviewed in this chapter, I am sure that I have missed many others. What is impressive, therefore, is how many psychologists who have written about the mind have accepted the idea that the mind is made up of many parts, what I have called subselves. Few of the psychologists mentioned in this chapter are cited in textbooks on theories of personality, which tend to include only the classic personality theorists. Thus, those textbooks give a distorted impression of theories of the mind, and the concept of a multiple self is clearly much more accepted by psychologists than those textbooks imply.

Notes

1. This section draws heavily on the discussion of James's ideas by Levin (1992).
2. Unfortunately for the purpose of the present book Yost et al. phrase their analysis in terms of "possible selves" as defined by Markus and Nurius (1986)—see page 177.
3. Campbell et al. (2003) use the term *unity* in an odd sense in which the features of the subselves are highly correlated with one another versus relatively independent of one another. This would seem to introduce an interesting, but different idea, that is, the degree to which the different subselves have similar contents.
4. See Lester (2010) for a full description of Angyal's ideas.
5. Kurzban is an evolutionary psychologist and believes that these modules have been chosen by natural selection.
6. In my early research on exploratory behavior in rats (Lester, 1968), I proposed an inverted U-shaped function such that rats explored their environment best when they had moderate levels of anxiety, neither too high nor too low.
7. This section is not on what some have called the *neurotic impostor*, that is, the person who feels fraudulent while actually being successful in their pursuits. These individuals think that they have fooled others and that they not as competent, intelligent or attractive as others think that they are (Kets de Vries, 1990; McElwee & Yurak, 2010).

Bilinguals and the Multiple Self

*Learn a new language and get a new soul.
(Czech proverb)*

Several researchers have raised the issue of whether people who are fluent in two languages (bilinguals) have different personalities when speaking the two languages, and bilinguals have noted this phenomenon themselves. Hong, Chiu, Morris, and Benet-Martinez. (2000) proposed a *cultural frame switching effect* that proposed that culture-relevant stimuli (which can include the language one is speaking) shift values and attributions. In contrast, the *cultural accommodation* effect focuses on the pressure on bilinguals to accommodate their behavior to the people with whom they are interacting, their norms, personality values and beliefs.¹

Those studying bilinguals have distinguished between *coordinate bilinguals* who acquire their two languages in different environments. For example, they may learn the second language after immigrating to the country where their second language is the norm. In contrast, *compound bilinguals* learn the two languages in the same cultural environment. For example, they may speak one language at home and the other in school, or their parents may introduce them to the two languages at home simultaneously. If bilinguals acquire their second language as a result of emigration, then the process of acculturation and possible culture conflict come into play.

Several research studies have provided support for the proposal that bilinguals have two personalities. In one of the better studies, Ramirez-Esparza, Gosling, Benet-Martinez, Potter, and Pennebaker (2006) first studied individuals living in Mexico (who responded to the Spanish version) or the United States (who responded to the English version) who completed an online version of the Big 5 inventory. The sample size was sufficiently large that all the differences were statistically significant,

and the results showed that the English-speaking Americans scored higher on extraversion, agreeableness, conscientiousness, and openness than the Spanish-speaking Mexicans and lower on neuroticism. The researchers next studied the responses of bilinguals.

In the first study, 25 bilinguals in Texas completed two paper-and-pencil versions of the Big 5 personality test one week apart in the two languages, counterbalanced for the order of presentation. In study 2, bilinguals in both Mexico and the United States were given the Big 5 inventory over the telephone, again one week apart in the two languages, counterbalanced for the order of presentation. In the third study, a larger sample in the United States were given the two versions of the Big 5 inventory in the same session, counterbalanced for the order or presentation. The results were consistent in all three studies, replicating the differences identified earlier. When given the test in English, bilinguals scored higher on extraversion, agreeableness and conscientiousness and lower on neuroticism (although this latter difference was not statistically significant). However, for openness, the results were reversed. Whereas monolinguals in English scored higher on openness than monolinguals in Spanish, bilinguals scored lower when given the test in English than when given the test in Spanish.

The changes in scores for the bilinguals were not large, and correlation between scores of the bilinguals on the two versions of the test was high (about 0.80), indicating that individuals retained their rank ordering on the two versions. Ramirez-Esparza et al. also acknowledged that their study did not explore when the subjects became bilingual and the extent of their cultural immersion in the two cultures. However, they noted that the three differences (in extraversion, conscientiousness and agreeableness) conform to the stereotype that Mexican culture is more collectivist and American culture more individualistic, especially if these three traits are relabeled as assertiveness, achievement and superficial friendliness.

Chen and Bond (2010) studied Chinese bilinguals living in Hong Kong. They were given the Big 5 inventory in both Chinese and English (in a counterbalanced order) and asked to describe themselves, the stereotypical native Chinese speaker and the stereotypical native English speaker. Their data analysis was not ideal, but native speakers of English were perceived as more extraverted and open to new experiences, and less neurotic and conscientious than native speakers of Chinese. In this study, the differences in self-descriptions did not differ significantly according to the language of the test.

Chen and Bond (2010) carried out a second, more interesting study. They had Chinese bilinguals in Hong Kong interviewed by four people and their personality rated from the interview. The interviewer was either Caucasian or Chinese, and spoke in either English or Cantonese. When talking with Caucasian interviewers, the bilinguals were rated as more extraverted, open, assertive and helpful than when talking to Chinese interviewers. When talking with Chinese interviewers in English, the bilinguals were rated as more extraverted, open, assertive, and helpful than when talking with Chinese interviewers in Cantonese.

Interestingly, both of these research teams focused on personality traits, and ignored values, self-concepts, and cognitions. Thus, both of these research teams defined “personality” as personality traits. In contrast, the multiple self theory of personality conceives of subselves as complex organization of a variety of psychological contents and, in this conception, values and cognitions are as central as personality traits. However, values, self-concept, and cognitive variables have been studied by other researchers (e.g., Bond & Yang, 1982).

A distinction should be made between bilinguals (who speak two languages) and bicultural individuals who are immersed in two cultures. It is really biculturals rather than bilinguals for whom a multiple self should be proposed and investigated. Bilinguals may not be bicultural. Furthermore, in multiple self theory, just as different subselves may have executive control in different situations (for example, the person as parent, spouse, employee, etc.), so the different personalities of biculturals may appear only when they are in different cultural settings. For example, a Chinese American may have one personality with executive power when in America, speaking English and interacting with fellow Americans, and a different personality when in China, speaking Mandarin and interacting with Chinese individuals.

In their study of biculturals, Benet-Martinez, Leu, Lee, and Morris (2002) found that Chinese American biculturals possess separate American and Chinese cultural schemas and that each schema can be activated by situational cues. In their article, the authors refer to cultural frames, multiple cultural meanings, double consciousness, and interpretive frames, never settling on one term. The present theory would simply use the concept of multiple selves made up of several subselves. Benet-Martinez et al. noted that these “frames” can be in opposition or integrated.

Furthermore, the psychological research has been, as is common these days, quite removed from real life. For example, Chinese Americans may be brought into a psychological laboratory, presented with questionnaires either in Chinese or in English, sometimes after being “primed” by seeing or reading American stimuli or Chinese stimuli. In real life, biculturals typically move between different roles and manifest their two subselves depending upon the role.² For example, Chinese American individuals may go home to their parents, speak in Chinese, and participate in Chinese cultural behaviors (Chinese food, Chinese videos, and Chinese roles). When they go to work, however, they speak in English and are now employees with American supervisors.

Indeed this transition has been documented in monolinguals. For example, African American professionals often have different roles and accompanying behaviors (and, in this case, dialects) when they are at work and when they are back home with their parents and family (see Chapter 10). The different subselves of biculturals, therefore, need to be examined in the different cultural settings and in the roles in which they engage, rather than in the sterile environment of an academic psychological laboratory.

Notes

1. In studies of Chinese bilinguals, it has been noted that presenting material in English language may sometimes result in the respondents responding in a more Chinese direction, a phenomenon labeled *ethnic affirmation* (Yang & Bond, 1980).
2. For a review of laboratory research on priming, see Oyserman and Lee (2008).

Shifting¹

In this chapter, I will present several examples who adopt very different roles in their lives, a phenomenon which has been called *shifting*.

Shifting in Black Professional Women

Jones and Shorter-Gooden (2003) have discussed the particular problems that black professional women face as a result of both sexism and racism in our society. To cope with this, black women engage in what Jones and Shorter-Gooden call *shifting*. They “change the way that they think of things or the expectations that they have for themselves, and they alter their outward appearance and modify their speech. They shift in one direction at work each morning, then in another at home each night” (p. 61).

Jones and Short-Gooden admit, of course, that all of us do this to some extent, whatever our sex or ethnicity. Our role (or subself) at work is often different from our role (or subself) at home, but the shifting is much greater for black professional women because of the ways in which blacks and women are perceived in the workplace. What is especially difficult for black professional women is that, if they do not shift back in the evening when they are home, they are accused of becoming too “white” by their African American friends and relatives. As one woman interviewed put it: “I have gotta go home and wash some of the White off me” (p. 77).² Black professional women may be expected to change their clothes, their speech patterns and their demeanor to fit in with a relaxed African American cultural style. Similarly, dreadlocks and African robes do not always facilitate their role in managerial meetings at work.

Shifting can secure survival in the two worlds, but it can also be self-destructive. On the positive side, it can allow the individual to explore different and genuine parts of herself, to connect with a wide variety of people, and to explore opportunities. On the other hand, it can lead them to lose touch with their inner, authentic experience as they create the façade that they need for work. As “she acquiesces to

the tyranny of their biases, needs, and expectation, she feels frustrated, lonely, and inadequate” (p. 64).

When they are at work, the women continually have to scan, survey, and scrutinize the environment, deciding how to respond. They have to suppress and block the feelings of sadness, anger, disappointment, anxiety, and shame. They seek spiritual and emotional support if they are able, and often retreat to the black community and abide by the “home” codes (which are often sexist!).

Hall (1972) wrote about role conflict in women in general. Rather than roles, Hall adopted the terminology of *identity* and *subidentities*, where a subidentity is an “aspect of the total identity engaged when a person is behaving in a given role” (p. 472). Subidentities typically share a common area, called the *core*. Individuals differ in the number of subidentities, the degree of integration among the subidentities (that is, the size of the core), and the congruence between each subidentity and the corresponding role. Men typically have fewer subidentities than do women, and their subidentities are less likely to produce conflict by operating simultaneously. In contrast women (especially married women) tend to have multiple roles, more inter-role conflict, and overload (that is, one or more roles operating simultaneously).

Hall’s study focused on the strategies people can use to deal with these problems. (i) Individuals can change the externally imposed expectations placed on them in their different roles. (ii) They can change their personal concept of the role demands received from others. (iii) They can endeavor to improve the quality of their role performance. Hall found that women gained more satisfaction from type (i) strategies and gained more dissatisfaction from type (iii) strategies.

Teaching Personae

Showalter (2003), in writing about teaching, noted that all teachers develop a persona, a façade self, which we adopt when we teach. This persona may be an exaggeration of our private self or an evasion of it. Showalter noted a gender difference here, with female teachers adopting more often a self-effacing or self-deprecating persona, while male teachers more often adopt authoritative or eccentric roles. For example, she noted that J. R. R. Tolkien, an Oxford University instructor and the author of *The Lord of the Rings*, usually wore a tweed jacket and smoked a pipe, the traditional image of an Oxbridge don, sometimes walked silently to the podium in the lecture hall and then burst into the opening lines of Beowulf, shouting them in the original Anglo-Saxon.

As teachers age, their personae change too. What fitted us when we were close in age to the students is no longer quite appropriate when they are the age of our children (and then our grandchildren). Our students no longer share our world view, and the examples we bring from life often took place decades before they were born. Even the step of obtaining tenure can have an impact on our persona since our anxiety about job security (and avoiding any negative feedback from the students) is less of a concern. Obtaining a full professorship can have a similar impact since, at that point, we have achieved all that we can at the institution.

Showalter felt that it was important to fit the persona to the content of one's lecture and scholarship. Some teachers, however, never give their persona any critical appraisal and may have a classroom presence that is less impressive and less coherent than their writing. Showalter described one Harvard University professor (Reuben Brower) who spoke in a high-pitched, monotonous voice, answered questions before the student had finished asking them (thereby often misunderstanding the question), and often asked for a few more minutes when the class period was over despite the fact that students were closing their notebooks and leaving. In contrast, as a literary critic, he preferred short, tight forms such as lyric poetry. He liked closure in his writing but resisted this in his teaching.

Showalter argued that "anti-establishment Marxists" should not be authoritarian and rigid; "feminist" scholars should learn how to handle the classroom equipment, and "hippies" should not be sticklers about deadlines. Showalter, therefore, argues for consistency within personae, that the teaching persona should match the scholarly persona and also be consistent with one's intellectual views.

Students note the teacher's persona and try to "psych out" the teacher based on it. The teaching style, along with sartorial choices, is an important piece of information to supplement the course syllabus and help the students gauge what they need to do to get their preferred grade in the course.

Parini (2005) waxed more lyrically about teaching personae. Parini views each Fall as an opportunity to try on a new persona:

those brittle masks we mold to our skin, that eventually become indistinguishable from what we call the self, that many-faceted figurations we present to the world. (p. 3)

Parini noted that transitions are good opportunities to switch masks—when switching from one school to another, going off to college, becoming a professor and, thereafter, each new academic year.

Parini views the classroom as a form of theater in which the professors play various roles (both as actor and as dramatist), roles that are often exaggerated. Parini listed wise man, fool, tempter, comforter, coach, and confessor (p. 6). "Authenticity" is a fiction. What is interesting here is that Parini acted in plays in high school, quite successfully, and he sees his acting skills and theater experience as laying the foundation for his teaching self. It would be interesting to study the subselves of actors, both in terms of whether they find the concept appropriate, the number of subselves they can list, and the way in which they describe these subselves.

Lang (2007) has made a similar point. Noting that we all have multiple personae, he urged professors to craft several teaching personae. Sometimes he felt that being a fiery orator was the best for a class, while at others times a relaxed "sit on the edge of the desk" type made sense. At the beginning of his career, he chose his teaching personae haphazardly and, if he had had some conscious thought about who he wanted to be in the classroom, this would have reduced his anxiety level. The ideal teaching personae should fit the discipline and your thoughts about the discipline, your learning objectives for your students, and your classroom practices.

At the beginning of his professorial career, Parini found it hard to find a teaching self, and he noted that, without a clear teaching self, he felt disconnected from his classes and inadequate as a teacher. He noted that, at times, he drew on models (teachers he had in school and university) and modeled his style on them. Even as he draws near to retirement, Parini is "still working to create a face, or faces, that will prove useful, true, and distinct. My magic closet is now full of masks; some fit well, others don't" (p. 69).

One thing that is of interest in both Showalter's and Parini's discourses on teaching selves is that both of them gave the concept conscious thought; Parini especially as his own career progressed. Parini described a colleague who practiced his lectures at home in front of a mirror. Although, clearly, some professors develop a teaching self in this way, for others, like myself, it develops without conscious thought or planning. As I grew comfortable in the classroom, I "discovered" that I preferred lecturing to leading seminars. I lectured to diverse audiences—initially female students, then coed classes, police officers, groups of employees and, of course, the audiences at various conferences—and again "discovered" that I had several teaching personae which fitted me well. Parini describes those like me as "lucky." He advises other teachers to work on their teaching persona consciously.

The Nazi Doctors

During the Second World War, the Germans set up concentration camps and extermination camps in order to eliminate those whom they judged to be unfit, such as the retarded and the mentally ill, Jews, Gypsies, and other ethnic groups. Many physicians participated in these camps, helping in the selection of those who were to be exterminated immediately from those who could be sent to work, supervising the use of the gas, declaring the prisoners dead, and carrying out research projects on the prisoners.

Lifton (1986) argued that, in order to do this work, those physicians had to have a healing vision that they used to excuse their death-work. The healing vision was mostly involved with healing and purifying the Nordic race. The killing of those who were not Nordic or who were not good Nordic specimens was balanced by their experiments, which gave them the ability to declare to themselves that they were scientists, even though the experiments typically killed the subjects of the research.

In order to explain the behavior of these physicians, Lifton proposed the concept of *doubling*, which he defined as the “formation of a part self, which ultimately becomes an entire and considerably autonomous self. Although the two selves are interacting parts of a holistic self, a dialectic exists between them” (Lifton, 1988, pp. 28–29). It is this doubling that enables ordinary people to commit evil. There is no amnesia between these two subelves, and so this is not multiple personality. Doubling is one way of adapting to a situation in which the individual is going to behave in an evil manner. For the German physicians, once they decided to work in the concentration and extermination camps, they had to use the process of doubling in order to adapt to the environment and to the work.

The prisoners at camps such as Auschwitz also used the process of doubling. One survivor told Lifton, “I was a different person in Auschwitz. I really was. I was a completely different person” (Lifton, 1988, p. 29), and some survivors had difficulty coming to terms with their “Auschwitz subself” once they had been rescued and returned to a non-Auschwitz life, much in the same way that the soldiers studied by Laufer (below) had difficulty re-adapting to civilian life.

The Case of Eduard Wirths

Lifton (1986) presented the case of Eduard Wirths, who was appointed the chief physician at Auschwitz and who was a dedicated physician and described by inmates as conscientious, decent, polite, and honest

and yet who also medicalized the selection process so that it was the physicians who met the trains of incoming prisoners and decided who would be killed immediately and who would be assigned for work. When Wirth surrendered in September 1945, the British officer shook his hand and commented to Wirths that now he had shaken the hand of the man who was responsible for four million deaths. Wirths hung himself a few days later.

Wirths was born in 1909 near Würzburg in southern Germany, the oldest of three boys. His father was a stonecutter. Under his father's influence, Wirths became meticulous, obedient, and conscientious. He went into medicine and specialized in gynecology, but became a family physician. Nazi ideology appealed to him, and he joined the SA in 1933 and the SS the following year. He served in Norway in 1939 and on the Russian front until he was declared medically unfit in April 1942. He was sent to Auschwitz in September 1942 as the chief doctor because of his previous work for the state medical agencies, and because the previous chief at Auschwitz had been unable to eliminate the typhus epidemics there.

As a good doctor, Wirths eliminated the epidemics in Auschwitz using disinfection procedures and by enlisting the inmates who were doctors to identify, isolate and treat inmates with typhus. He improved conditions in the medical block and extended the work of the Polish and Jewish prisoner doctors. He protected his prisoner medical staff from abuse at the hands of the guards and stopped the practice of injecting prisoners with lethal phenol injections (by arguing that the prisoners' fear of the injections and, therefore, the medical staff, hindered his efforts to prevent epidemics). He used his authority to claim several prisoners for his medical staff, and in 1944 he planned and supervised the construction of a new SS military hospital. Wirths, almost alone among the Auschwitz staff, kept to wartime food rations and often took stands against the brutality and random abuse of prisoners. Several inmates, after their liberation, had favorable memories of Wirths. This was Wirths' medical self at Auschwitz.

Soon after his arrival at Auschwitz, Wirths fought for medical control over the selections as the trains brought in prisoners. He won, and then he insisted in taking his turn doing selections rather than delegating them to subordinates. He could be "generous"—on one occasion, he was persuaded by his prisoner staff to "save" two thousand Jews from immediate death in the gas chambers, but a few days later, at a different subcamp, he selected two thousand others for the gas chambers. Wirths

was a loyal and dedicated Nazi and was committed to the Nazi ideology concerning the superiority of the German race. This was Wirths' murderous Nazi self.

To counter his killing self, Wirths, also did research while at Auschwitz, as did other German doctors. He was interested in pre-cancerous growths of the cervix, and he sent surgically removed cervixes to his brother's laboratory for further examination. Since the techniques used were new and the prisoners in poor medical health, there were usually complications and, if the inmates did not die during the procedures, they were sent to the gas chambers.

Lifton noted that this division into two selves was functional for surviving in Auschwitz for people like Wirths but, once outside the confines of Auschwitz, after Germany's defeat, Wirths could no longer live with his doubling. Some of the other doctors, like Joseph Mengele, hid and then fled Germany. Many, like Wirths, killed themselves.

Dealing with Traumatic Situations

Occasionally people find themselves in traumatic situations, and in this section we will consider two such situations and explore how the subself theory of the mind (in other scholars' hands and under a different label) has been used to explain the response of those traumatized.

Soldiers

Laufer (1988) explored the impact on young men who have led ordinary lives when they are sent off to fight in wars. Engaging in war requires a radical break in development, which Laufer conceptualized as creating a subself (which he calls a self-system) to cope with the stress of war, and then trying to revert back to the former self after returning from the war. Laufer suggested that soldiers cope with this horrendous situation by constructing two "totally encapsulated self-systems that can function with reference to each other in antagonistic social matrices" (p. 38). In the terms of the present theory, the individual creates two subselves with minimal communication between them, a process similar to dissociation. The self is, therefore, discontinuous, and Laufer calls this state a serial self.

Although this process may result from any severe stressful situation, such as incest, rape, or assault, warfare is especially stressful since Laufer points out that it is a process rather than an event. The trauma is repetitive and often continuous for long periods of time (weeks, months, and years). The self must seek a structure that offers hope for

survival while accepting death as a possibility and, for those in combat, Laufer labels this a “killer self.” The content of this self clearly diverges from the self that existed in the past, back home. Soldiers may dehumanize the enemy, and some report eventually beginning to enjoy killing.

Returning home, soldiers may experience confusion and disorientation as they try to replace the war subself with the subself that they had before leaving for combat and which has had no chance to develop or mature during the war experience. One soldier reported to Laufer:

I am trying to forget . . . It's just like three years of a big void—a black spot in my life. I just cannot remember, or don't care to, what happened. It is like I was dead for three years there.

Laufer suggested, however, that the dissociation is not complete (as it is in the case of multiple personality). The two subelves do communicate with each other. Laufer saw the war subself as frozen in time, “a truncated self that survives in a timeless dimension of biographical time, able neither to evolve, integrate, not disintegrate” (p. 49). It is fixated on that time spent fighting, and its content is forever concerned with survival and death. Whenever the individual, back in America, experiences moments of vulnerability, the war subself attempts to take over the mind, thereby creating “intrapsychic discontinuities and dualities that are inherently conflicted” (p. 49).

The former subself, which Laufer called the adaptive self, endeavors to integrate the person's identity across time, but has great difficulty doing this for the war subself. The individuals who fought in wars, therefore, remain structurally unstable because of the existence of these two antagonistic subelves. One Vietnam veteran said that, “I was two of myself, one human and the other inhuman. I delighted in destruction, and yet was a healer.” Because of this conflict, these individuals prefer to spend time with those who also fought, who understand them and whom they understand, while others try to communicate through memoirs and fiction. This communication is necessary to master the trauma, but it is not always sufficient.

Terrorists

Speckhard and Akhmedova (2005) have spent a great deal of effort talking to terrorists (and would-be terrorists), their families and their friends, particularly terrorists in Chechnya (Russia) and Palestine. They have found that the terrorists have an overwhelming sense of personal trauma. Sometimes they have personal experience of

imprisonment, beatings, and torture. Sometimes they were witnesses to trauma in their loved ones, family members, friends, and strangers. Symptoms of post-traumatic stress are common, and many show symptoms of dissociation. They become psychologically deadened, and they often refer to themselves as already dead.

They presented the case of Mustafa, an eighteen-year-old Palestinian, who said that he was beaten during his imprisonment by the Israelis and watched his cellmate get beaten to death. He told the researchers that he was ready to become a suicide bomber. A 15-year-old Chechnyan boy spoke of the time Russian soldiers brought two Chechnyan prisoners into the town square with grenades strapped to their legs and blew them up in front of him and the other townspeople. The others stood stunned, but he and his friend tried to collect the pieces of the bodies so that their families could identify and bury them.

Others told Speckhard and Akhmedova that they used anger to keep themselves “psychologically together in the face of these overwhelming fear states” (p. 133) that they experienced as they passed through check-points and suffered daily humiliations. Becoming a terrorist, even a suicide bomber, helped them find a meaning in their situation. The terrorist cells and groups provided a sense of justice that was lacking in their lives. Becoming a suicidal terrorist also satisfied their wish to be reunited with their loved ones who have already been killed.

Some of those who become terrorists, however, are living in Western countries—Europe and North America. Growing up in a Muslim culture, people do not need to develop internal constraints over their behavior since the external cultural restraints are so strong. However, in the West, the temptations are present everywhere, and the weak internal constraints lead the men to engage in behaviors such as drinking alcohol and sexual promiscuity. In order to disavow their *bad self*, Speckhard and Akhmedova hypothesized that they blame the Western society for corrupting them. They then want to punish that society that is responsible for their corruption. Speckhard and Akhmedova called this process *splitting* in which they split off and disavow their behavior. In destroying the West, they are destroying their corrupted selves. If they are also victims of child abuse, then this process of splitting already began in childhood because splitting is a common defense for those who are abused. Joining the struggle against the Russians or the Israelis is a route to “redeeming themselves, taking on a positive self-identity as a hero to a larger community—versus being a despised, alienated and

marginalized outsider—and a route to the normal sense of adventure and manhood that many young men seek” (p. 148).

Notes

1. This chapter is adapted from Lester (2010).
2. If I maintain my “professorial” demeanor outside of my college, I never get admonished for it. Quite the opposite!

Psychotherapists and the Multiple Self

Dimaggio and Stiles (2007) edited a special issue of the *Journal of Clinical Psychology* in which several psychotherapists described their systems of psychotherapy, all of which used, in some form, the notion of a multiple self, although not necessarily using that term.

Dimaggio and Stiles's Introduction

Dimaggio and Stiles argued that many psychotherapists view the self as a *multifaceted entity*, even though they may not acknowledge this. "Each person comprises multiple facets or voices, each possessing its own characteristics, expressing different emotions, and taking distinct perspective on events and social interactions" (p. 119). They gave an example of a man at work versus at home, and in each of these situations in different moods, such as angry with colleagues who present obstacles, triumphant in success, and sad in failure, "internal multiplicity" is present.

Internal multiplicity . . . is expressed in such cognitive-behavioral concepts as automatic or intrusive thoughts and self-talk or self-statements. Self-criticism and self-blaming, for example, are forms of self-to-self relationships. . . . Multiplicity is also assumed in such psychodynamic concepts as internal objects and states of mind and in the humanistic focus on contradictory aspects of the self and unrealized potentials. (p. 120)

Multiplicity is also present in therapists who talk of internal voices and multiple I positions, and Dimaggio and Stiles noted these other examples: *characters* (Bruner, 1990), *roles* (Horowitz, 1987), *imagoes* (McAdams, 1996), *positions* or *I-positions* (Hermans, 2004), *voices* (Stiles, 1999), and *objects* or *self-objects* (Kohut, 1971).

A healthy state is to have several different relationship schemas available and to apply them flexibly to different situations. Unhealthy states are characterized by the opposite of this, as well as domination by a single pattern, leading to the perception of others in a stereotyped and rigid way, especially in clients who have personality disorders. Others will be perceived as having negative roles such as persecutor, ill-intentioned, indifferent, depriving, refusing, or blaming. Clients with paranoid personality disorder switch between intense suffering and anger, alternately seeing their selves as weak and ineffectual versus humiliated by malicious others. Clients with narcissistic personality disorder alternate between seeking admiration from others versus feeling mistreated by others, idealizing versus devaluing them.

Dimaggio and Stiles noted that it is important for therapists to recognize multiplicity in their clients. Reflection needs to address one voice at a time. To reflect more than one voice will confuse the client. The transference and counter-transference will differ as each voice takes over the client. One goal of therapy is to help the client voice the different facets and access those facets that are suppressed or closed off. Recognition of the multiple parts of the self reduces the client's confusion and feeling of incoherence (Who am I?) by giving the client a theory and terminology to construe the self. The therapist must also help the different parts communicate with one another and help the client engage in self-reflection, which can be re-phrased as creating an observing self. Dimaggio and Stiles noted also that it is useful if therapists are in touch with their own multiplicity because then they can adopt different subselves as the client adopts different subselves.

As in other theorists discussed in this book, Dimaggio and Stiles use many terms themselves to refer to subselves—voices, multifaceted entity, and relationship schemas to name a few. It would be better if just one term were used by authors, and, of course, I would prefer *subself*.

The special issue then asked five therapeutic teams to present their particular system of psychotherapy and illustrate it with a client they have treated.

Cognitive Analytic Therapy

Ryle and Fawkes (2007) presented an approach to psychotherapy which includes the concept of multiplicity. The question is, multiplicity of what? Multiplicity is based on the different roles that the child develops as he or she interacts with others. Ryle and Fawkes called these relationship patterns *reciprocal role procedures* (RRPs), roles that include perceptions,

knowledge, affect, and action. (Ryle and Fawkes also refer to RRP as *self-processes*.) The child develops a repertoire of these RRP, which can be called upon in different contexts and with different people. Individuals can play either part in the role (for example, controlling or compliant), and so these RRP exist in (at least) pairs.

However, these RRP can be *negative* or pathological, and there are several types of pathology. Ryle and Fawkes gave examples of threatening-to-frightened and rejecting-to-deprived. RRP can be repeated, which seems to imply that RRP that become fixated and employed in any situation or with any other individual are pathological, resulting in *diminished multiplicity*. RRP should be chosen to fit with the context and the other person and not restricted to just a few. RRP can also become dissociated, resulting in *pathological multiplicity*. Psychotherapy involves, in part, identifying and describing the patient's RRP repertoire and, subsequently, blocking some and revising others, with the goal of integrating these acknowledged RRP into a unity—the self.

Emotion-Focused Psychotherapy

Smith and Greenberg (2007) proposed that the basic units of the self were *emotion schemes*. These originate in felt bodily experience and blend body sensations, affect, needs, perspectives, and beliefs. At any moment, several emotion schemes are active simultaneously. They give an example of a client talking in therapy of his relationship with his father while also cognizant of having had a good breakfast, concern over his wife's worried expression, and the work piling up on his desk at the office. These "self-organizations interact dynamically with each other, each one contributing its unique voice to an inner dialogue" (p. 176).

Often the inner dialogue becomes fractious or breaks down. This can occur if one emotion scheme is based on maladaptive emotions, and the emotion scheme becomes chronic, unhelpful, and inflexible, and over which the client feels he has little control. The goal of emotion-focused therapy is to transform the maladaptive emotions into more adaptive emotions, helping the client access relevant voices, giving these voices the opportunity to speak, to engage in respectful dialogue with one another, and to explore issues from diverse perspectives. In their case presentation, they describe the client as having three main voices—a sensitive voice, a stronger voice, and an internalized father—indicating a diverse set of ways for describing the emotion schemes.

Metacognitive Interpersonal Therapy

Nicolo, Carcione, Semerai, and Dimaggio (2007) noted that we have many roles, as when we are with our child or with a romantic partner, and, in each of these roles, we display different *self-facets*. For example, when with a partner, we may be witty, seductive, full of fun, or physically pleasing. Adaptation is facilitated by having multiple self-aspects. Clients with personality disorders are not, by definition, flexible. The people and problems they encounter vary, but their behavioral style remains the same. Metacognitive interpersonal therapy can deal with this “restricted self-multiplicity, lack of access of self parts to reflective thinking, and lack of contact among different parts of the self” (p. 142). Clients with poor metacognition are unable to perceive self-parts.

Assimilation Analysis

Osatuke et al. (2007) proposed that “experiences leave traces that become linked into internal *voices* . . . [which] represent significant events, people, or objects, around which related experiences are organized (p. 154). The voices form a community and can communicate with one another in a process called *meaning bridges*. The voices that are assimilated become available as resources that can be called upon if needed, and they become a *dominant community* that can suppress other voices.”

There are also problematic voices that express experiences that are incongruent with the dominant voices. Since these result in psychological pain, the problematic voices are opposed, avoided, or warded off and remain unassimilated. One goal of psychotherapy is to strengthen the bridges between voices, and a second goal is to acknowledge and assimilate the problematic voices. The sequence is as follows:

Problems may proceed (1) from being warded off, (2) to being known but avoided, (3) to merging painfully into awareness, (4) to being stated as a problem to be worked on, (5) to being understood, reflecting a meaning bridge between voices. This mutual understanding then proceeds (6) to being worked through and applied, (7) to solving the problem, (8) to being mastered and integrated into the personality, so the formerly problematic voice becomes an available resource. (p. 155)

Osatuke et al. construed depression as a state in which the voices that dominate the internal community are passive and submissive toward other people. Assertive voices exist, but they are opposed or avoided.

These voices become problems rather than resources. Suppressing these assertive voices diminishes the person's sense of worth and his faith that the world is just and benevolent. In their analysis of a case, they described the client's voices as *No Alternative* (the dominant voice in the community), *Mistreatment*, and *It's the Injustice*, labeling by the theme involved in the voice.

The Dialogical Self

Lysaker and Hermans (2007) construed the self as dialogical, "the result of ongoing conversations both within the individual and between individuals and others" (p. 130).

The self is thus seen as composed of multiple aspects or self-positions, which exist independently and cannot be reduced to a whole. These self-positions may oppose, help, or ignore one another and are structurally bound to particular contexts and persons (e.g., self as failed son to parent, successful worker, or colleague). (p. 130)

Thus, the subselves in this view are very similar to roles.

The self-positions have a hierarchy which periodically shifts, permitting a new self-position to become dominant or the organizer of the self-positions. If the hierarchy fails to shift, the sense of self may be experienced as collapsed, at the extreme, into a monological self in which all internal (and external) conversation is organized by a singular, rigid self-position, excluding other possible self-positions. In this case, some of remaining self-positions may be associated with others (as in roles), but others may not (such as the self as a god, which would be linked to a hallucinatory inner voice).

As in the other psychotherapies discussed in this special issue of the journal, psychotherapy guided by dialogical self-theory begins with a conversation with an other (the therapist) and eventually empowers suppressed self-positions to enter the conversation, leading to a richer self.

Discussion

Each of the contributors to the special issue of that journal adopts a multiple-self concept for the minds. Although stressing different aspects of the subselves (e.g., emotions, cognitions, or interpersonal behavior), they all adhere to the multiple-self model of the mind and use it in their psychotherapy. It is interesting to observe how many different terms the contributors use, perhaps in an effort to distinguish their system of psychotherapy from the others and present it as different (and perhaps

better). It would be useful in the future if psychotherapists who find the multiple self model useful could use a single set of terms (I prefer those used in my theory, of course), and explore, collaboratively, whether and in what ways, each of their theoretical bases for their psychotherapy are identical and in what ways they differ.

Fixed Role Therapy

There are, of course, many other psychotherapists who use the notion of multiple selves to guide their work. For example, George Kelly (1955) proposed a theory of personality and accompanying this theory was a form of therapy called fixed role therapy. In fixed role therapy, the therapist creates a role for the client to perform in his or her daily life. In his initial description of fixed role therapy, Kelly failed to give clear guidelines for creating this new role for the client, and he also asserted that the goal was *not* to suggest to the client that this new role should be one that he or she adopts permanently. However, it has always seemed to me that it would be inevitable that the client would assume that this new role was one that he or she *should* adopt as part of daily life.

Bonarius (1970) pointed out that as the client performs this new role, people will act differently toward the client, and the client will see his friends and relatives differently. The client may well assume that, if you can play this one role, then he might be able to play other roles in life. "You suddenly realize: 'If I *act* in a different way I can *be* different. I can be different from what I think I am. I can change'" (p. 213).

Bonarius gave some guidelines for constructing the new role. "Most important is the requirement that the main perspectives, the regnant constructs, implied by the role must be completely different from the regnant constructs of the patient" (p. 216). Again, Bonarius claimed that the purpose is not to have the patient exchange his own personality for that of the new role, but rather, by this tactic, to actively encourage the client to develop a new construct system, that is, in my terminology, to develop a new subself.

Viney (1981) noted that clients enter therapy because they are unable to develop their personal construct system, and the fixed role therapist's task is to free the client from the current system. The goal is to impose new constructs on older experiences to help the client eliminate the old restricting constructs by designing and implementing new experiences for the client in the real world, and not simply the therapist's office. Viney presents the case of Susan, an undergraduate working also as a secretary, whose presenting problems were anxiety that arose unexpectedly

and shame (over still living at home, her physical appearance, and her sexual inexperience). Susan's constructs were poorly defined (despite her intellectual competence). The role that Viney developed for Susan was Mary. Mary is open and frank with people she meets, enjoys giving to them and having companionship with them, and sees herself as part of the world with them. Mary is down-to-earth, calm and relaxed, patient, and not critical of others. Mary is searching and inquisitive about the world and can be forceful. After much resistance for several sessions, Susan tried out the role at the checkout of a supermarket and was surprised at how warm and friendly the checker became. Two weeks later, she tried the role at a party and with colleagues at work. Susan did not become Mary, but she learned that if she thought and felt about herself differently, then others reacted to her differently.

However, Viney did not explore the old and new subselves of the client. From my perspective, it would of interest to know whether the "old" Susan still appeared at times (i.e., assumed executive control), and what the "new" Susan was like. Viney says that the new Susan was not supposed to be the role of Mary, but it would of interest to know to what extent the new Susan resembled Mary.

Ego-State Therapy

Watkins and Watkins (1997) introduced *ego-state therapy*. Ego-state therapy is similar to Eric Berne's (1961) Transactional Analysis, and it has the same roots in the ideas of Paul Federn (1952) and Edoardo Weiss (1960) as did Transactional Analysis. Indeed, the term *ego-state* is used by both, although with a hyphen by Watkins and Watkins. Watkins and Watkins define an ego state as "an organized system of behavior and experience whose elements are bound together by some common principle" (Watkins, 1993, p. 233). When an ego state is invested with ego energy it becomes the *self* in the here and now, the *executive*, and the other ego states are viewed as he, she or it, if the person is aware of them.

Watkins and Watkins deviate from Transactional Analysis in interesting ways. First, they reject the simple division of ego states into Parent, Adult, and Child proposed by Berne. They describe ego-states, instead, as large (such as an ego state that encompasses an occupation—a professor, for example) or small (such as the feelings and behaviors you had in school at the age of six). They may be current modes of behavior or modes that you had in the past, as a child or adolescent. They may be time bound (an ego state from the age of 10) or a current

pattern (for example, toward any authority figure). Watkins and Watkins also proposed the existence of covert ego states which the person may not be fully aware of cognitively. As a result, Watkins and Watkins use hypnosis in order to elicit and communicate with these covert ego-states, a concept similar to Hilgard's (1986) *hidden observers* in his writings on hypnosis.

Ego states develop in three main ways. First, they develop through the normal differentiation that children experience as they mature, as they develop patterns of behavior appropriate for parents, teachers, and playmates. Second, they develop by means of introjection of significant others as models. Third, they develop as a result of trauma via dissociation, and Watkins and Watkins viewed the imaginary playmates of young children as ego-states.

These concepts are applied in ego-state therapy:

Ego-state therapy is the utilization of family and group-therapy techniques for the resolution of conflicts between the different ego states that constitute a "family of self" within a single individual. (Watkins, 1993, p. 236)

Ego-state therapists utilize hypnosis to identify and communicate with the client's ego states, taking care not to suggest ego states that do not really exist (so-called *artifacts*).

Internalized Other Interviewing

Internalized other interviewing (IOI) is attributed to Karl Tomm (Tomm, Hoyt, & Madigan, 1998). The self is viewed as a community of others that stem from our interactions with other people that have become internalized. In therapy, it is useful to interview these internalized others in the actual presence of the people on whom they are based in order to revise the internalized others, especially when the internalized others are based on erroneous beliefs or are not usually activated in typical therapeutic conversation.

Hurley (2006) presented excerpts of IOI with a child's internalized mother, while in the presence of the mother. The child had been exposed to violence between his parents, and Hurley conversed with several of the child's internalized others, but Hurley viewed the internalized others as much less substantial than subselves:

the bits and pieces of experience that float like ghosts around the self but are unavailable as self-sustaining stories. (pp. 50–51)

But these ghosts can become “internalized as part of the self and form the basis of an internal dialogue that shapes attitudes, emotions, cognitions, and behavioral responses” (p. 53).

Moules (2010–2011) has used IOI with clients after the death of someone on whom an internalized other is based as a way of saying goodbye while staying connected. She interviews the deceased other person by talking to the internalized other in the client: “I’m wondering if you would permit me to do something. I would like to interview Andrew in you. Would this be something you would allow me to do?” (pp. 190–191).

Kathleen Adams and Self States

Adams (2011), a group psychotherapist, discussed a particular type of client in her groups who had what Adams called an *abject self*. Adams defined self states as a “form of self-organization which recur over time, involve a core affect or collection of related affects, a sense of identity” (p. 335), a construct which seems very similar to the subselves of the present theory. However, Adams saw self-states as characteristics of mild dissociation and, furthermore, focused on just two self-states—a normal, healthy self and an abject self—which is, of course, rather limiting.

Adams described a client with these two states in the following way. Sarah arrived later for a group therapy session, hovered outside the group, and was anxious. A group member told her, “For God’s sake, sit down.” Sarah flinched and whined piteously that she had not wanted to interrupt. This was Sarah’s abject self. Once in the group, Sarah recovered her aplomb and inserted herself into the fray, smiling, with a rapier wit and wicked repartee. For the clients whose self-states she described, Adams felt that their abject self stemmed from abusive childhoods, conditions of chaotic attachment, or emotional neglect.

The Multiple Selves of Counselors

Anna Riha (2011) took a different approach and discussed the multiple selves that counselors and psychotherapists develop. She titled her doctoral thesis *Being a professional chameleon: Working with children as a counselling psychologist*. After reviewing some theorists who have proposed a multiple self theory, Riha noted that having a multiple self is very different from identity confusion (Erikson, 1965) and does not necessarily involve role strain (Biddle, 1986). Riha interviewed eleven counseling psychologists in England and presented a

qualitative analysis of their responses. Riha first noted that their role depended on the working situation in which they found themselves, whether in private practice, working in the schools with teachers, or in clinics with psychiatrists, clinical psychologists, or nurses. Those who worked in more than one situation had to adopt different roles in each situation. (There seems to be conflict in England between counseling psychologists and clinical psychologists.) As one participant said, "I think as a profession we are quite good at being able to fit into a number of different niches" (p. 119). Second, in working with children, Riha's participants frequently used words such as *adaptive*, *flexible*, *creative*, *diverse*, and *versatile*, and Riha felt that the notion of multiple selves fitted her participants quite well.

Comment

It is clear from this brief survey that many psychotherapists use a concept similar to that of a multiple self in order to describe their clients and to work with their clients. It is clearly a concept that clients find easy to accept and use in their therapeutic progress.

The Multiple Self in Fairy Tales

A psychoanalyst, Caroline Scielo (1983), has provided an interesting analysis of a Slavic fairy tale that uses a multiple self basis. *Vasilisa the Beautiful* is tale number 104 of a collection of Slavic tales from Alexander Nikolayevich Afanasyev (1826–1871). At the beginning of the story, Vasilisa's dying mother bequeaths Vasilisa a blessing and a magic doll. Vasilisa is told that, whenever she needs advice, she can ask the magic doll. Vasilisa's father has remarried a widow with two daughters who are cruel to Vasilisa. She is given lots of household chores to do, but the doll helps her.

One day, the father leaves for a business trip, and the stepmother moves the family near a forest, extinguishes all the candles, and sends Vasilisa to Baba-Yaga for a light. Vasilisa takes the magic doll with her, and the doll calms her fears as she walks through the forest. Vasilisa meets three horsemen, one in white riding a white horse, one in red riding a red horse, and one in black riding a black horse. Scielo interprets these three men on horses as representing three stages of human development: white is birth and innocence, red is female sexual maturity, and black is death.

Vasilisa arrives at the hut of Baba-Yaga and tells her that she has come for light, a mission which can be seen literally (her stepmother needs light) and metaphorically (Vasilisa seeks wisdom). Scielo notes that light also denotes birth and rebirth, so that Vasilisa needs to be reborn as a woman and return from the forest (which represents her unconscious). Baba-Yaga insists that Vasilisa must work for her first. The doll helps Vasilisa perform the tasks, and Baba-Yaga is satisfied with her work. Vasilisa asks Baba-Yaga about the three horsemen and is told that they represent the bright day, the sun, and night, all servants of Baba-Yaga. Vasilisa tells Baba-Yaga about the blessing her mother gave her, and Baba-Yaga sends Vasilisa off with a pole, to which a skull

with burning eyes is attached—the light. With the aid of the light, Vasilisa finds her way out of the forest and back home. When she gets home, which is in darkness, the light from the skull burns the stepmother and her two daughters to ashes. Vasilisa buries the skull and leaves for town.

In town, Vasilisa finds an old childless woman who shelters her. Vasilisa takes up making linen which is good enough to be shown to the Tsar, who seeks out the seamstress and marries her. Vasilisa's father returns and goes to live with her. Vasilisa also takes in the old woman who sheltered her and forever carries the magic doll in her pocket.

SciELO saw various themes in this story: a wicked stepmother substituting for cruel parents, the acting-out of a child's wish that her mother die (twice—in the real mother's dying and the stepmother being killed), the fantasy of abandonment in the father's leaving, sibling rivalry (with her stepsisters), and the Oedipal complex (in having her father live with her).

More importantly for our present task, SciELO sees the story as a search for integration of a fragmented self. The dying mother, the doll, Baba-Yaga, and the old woman are all aspects of Vasilisa's feminine self. Each has positive and negative aspects. For example, Vasilisa's mother dies (abandons her) but gives her precious gifts (the doll and a blessing). The doll itself is part of the immature Vasilisa and is less use to her once she matures. Baba-Yaga represents the unconscious, and, in the story, Baba-Yaga knows the details of Vasilisa's life, not surprising if she does represent part of Vasilisa's mind. Baba-Yaga also represents ancestral wisdom (a more Jungian theme), connected to nature and with the symbols of Mother Earth as her servants. Baba-Yaga aids the integration of Vasilisa in having her perform domestic chores, but praising her for doing them well. She gives Vasilisa the skull with light inside it, representing the wisdom from within Vasilisa's own mind. The story ends with the rejected girl becoming the Tsar's wife and beginning a family of her own. She re-creates her family by taking care of her father and the old woman, her substitute mother.

SciELO noted that Baba-Yaga, the Russian witch, is indispensable in this transition. Frightening though she is, confronting her and coping well are key to Vasilisa's maturation. Phrased in terms of the multiple self, confronting one's own unconscious, with its scary (Freudian) aspects and its positive (Jungian) aspects, is the key to integration of the self and leading a healthy, mature life.

This analysis by Scielo of one fairy tale raises the possibility that every fairy tale is a way of presenting the multiple selves that we all have, presenting them not only to the child but also to the parents who read the stories to their children. The similarity to the perspective on dreams proposed by Fritz Perls in his Gestalt therapy (in which every person in the dream represents one aspect of oneself) is obvious. Most commentators on fairy tales focus on why children find the stories so fascinating, but I prefer to ask the question of why parents choose to tell their children such stories. The child has little or no choice in the selection of stories. It is the parents who choose them initially.

Economists' Views of the Multiple Self

Several economists have proposed versions of the multiple self. For example, Lynne (2006a) was interested in the way in which individuals struggle between self-interest and other-interest—acting to benefit oneself versus acting to benefit others in the society (altruism). Thus, rather than there being one utility curve, there are two, and so maximizing utility becomes more complex. Lynne labeled his approach *metaeconomics*, and he saw the concern of metaeconomics as conflict resolution of these opposing forces. This dichotomy has long been of interest in psychology, beginning with Angyal's (1965) trends toward autonomy and homonomy (establishing a sense of self versus establishing meaningful relationships with others), and Luyten and Blatt (2013) have reviewed many theorists who have made this distinction.

Lynne was intrigued by the proposal of MacLean (1990) of the triune brain, the division of the brain to three parts: (i) the protoreptilian formation located at the base of the forebrain and responsible for survival (eating, seeking shelter, etc.), which is the source of self-interest; (ii) the paleomammalian formation, which consists primarily of the limbic system and is the source of the desire to connect with others (and can lead to empathy and self-sacrifice); and (iii) the neomammalian formation, which consists of the neocortex and thalamus and which provides the capability for reason, calculation, language, and control of the first two parts of the triune brain.¹ Lynne (2006b) identified the two forces of self-interest and other-interest with two competing subselves,² and he noted the parallel here with the two trends proposed by Andras Angyal (1965) in his holistic theory of personality, namely the trends toward autonomy and homonomy.³ Lynne viewed the two competing forces (self-interest and other-interest) as forming two subselves, and the dynamic in which these two subselves achieve a “peace of mind” is similar to Herbert Simon's (1997) process of *satisficing*. Lynne noted

that classical economics is simply the default case, where the other-interest force is zero.

Cory (2000, 2006) has also used MacLean's concept of the triune brain to address the underlying conflict in people between self-preservation programming (evolved from our ancestral vertebrate legacy) and affectional programming (from our mammalian legacy). Cory labeled this conflict as egoism versus empathy or power versus love.

Bénabou and Pycia

Bénabou and Pycia (2002) analyzed the conflict between temptation and self-control by construing them as two subselves (which they label as *the divided self*), for which they saw parallels in the ego and the id and the prefrontal cortex and the limbic system. This same approach had been adopted many years earlier by Thaler and Shefrin (1981), who proposed that individuals could be viewed as Planners and Doers. Thaler and Shefrin used the example of Christmas Clubs as an example. In Christmas Clubs, people pay money regularly into a bank account that pays no interest, but which is locked. The depositors are not allowed to draw any money out until after December 1. The club members could easily use a regular bank account that pays interest, but then they might be tempted to draw money out for other purposes. Christmas Clubs protect people against a future lack of willpower (Stigler, 1966). Thaler and Shefrin quoted McIntosh (1969), who proposed that the "psyche contains more than one energy system, and that these energy systems have some degree of independence from each other." Of course, modern psychology does not talk of "energy," and Thaler and Shefrin switched to talking of two *sets of preferences* and a *two-self economic man*.

Moldoveanu and Stevenson

Moldoveanu and Stevenson (2001) explored the implications of two models of the self: the self as a unified system and the self as a fragmented entity. The multiple self is portrayed by Moldoveanu and Stevenson as an "ever-changing, possibly internally conflicting entity" (p. 295) and as possibly "split-self,"—or "schizoid," approaches, which "recognize the internally incoherent nature of selfhood" (p. 318). This version of a multiple self (internally incoherent) poses problems for the economic conception of rational humans making decisions based upon the information that they have.

Lester (2003b) responded to Moldoveanu and Stevenson's argument that a multiple self would inevitably make irrational economic decisions

by reviewing some of the proposals for a multiple self discussed by Lester (2010) and in the present book. Some of these models of the mind as made up of subelves do imply that decision making might be irrational. For example, if the Child ego-state, as defined by Eric Berne in Transactional Analysis, were in control of the mind, then decisions would be made by a subelf which resembles the mind of a small child. Such a model could run counter to idea of "economic man" acting on purely rational economic motives and disciplined self-interest. But not all models of the mind as a group of subelves necessarily result in the possibility of irrational decisions.

Lester suggested the usefulness of viewing the various subelves in the mind as a small group, in which case many of the principles of and much of the research on the functioning of small groups become applicable to the functioning of the mind (see, for example, Kozlowski and Ilgen [2006]). Group decision making can sometimes be more rational and effective than decision making by individuals. For example, juries in the criminal justice system are predicated on the assumption that a number of, often naïve, individuals can reach a mature and rational decision. Lester noted that small groups with a hierarchical structure are often more productive, but their members are less satisfied. On the other hand, some structure is often useful. The goal is perhaps to have a dominant subelf, but not one which is overly dominating.

Research on group dynamics indicates that increasing the size of the group eventually increases the chances that a dominant member will emerge and force conformity from the other group members. Thus, there is a limit to the size of a group for effective functioning. In writing on subelves, Allport (1961), Rowan (1990), and Shapiro and Elliott (1976) have suggested that from 4 to 10 subelves is ideal. How many subelves do people report? Rowan's (1990) sample reported a mean of 6.5, while Lester's (1992) sample reported a mean of 3.5.

Lester noted that research on group dynamics indicates that egalitarian small groups typically produce more and better solutions to problems than do individuals, but that they take longer to reach decisions and are more likely to make decisions which are risky. Perhaps these same principles might apply to people with many subelves.

In summary, the concept of "economic man," which is at the basis of mainstream economics, implies a self-interested, rational, and temporally stable individual. A person who is made up of multiple subelves may, at first glance, run counter to this concept. But small groups often make better decisions than individuals acting alone, and a mind that

is a multiplicity of selves who function much like a small group may make better decisions than a mind which is a unified, single self. The result may not be conflict and incoherence. If this is the case, then people with multiple selves may make more rational and more adaptive decisions in economic affairs than people with a single unified self in some situations. Thus, a multiple self may fit the concept of economic man better than a unified self. There are situations, for example, when a company is best led by a dominant and forceful individual, and other situations where a board of directors acting as a group is better. The task is to ascertain which decisions are best made by a single, unified self and which by a “pantheon of selves,” and which pantheons are the most effective.⁴

Discussion

Not every economist who talks about multiple selves does so in the way in which the concept is used in my multiple self theory of the mind. For example, Jamison and Wegener (2010) addressed the possibility that two decisions made by an individual may not be made by the same self, but they were *not* discussing a situation in which multiple selves operate simultaneously or sequentially despite the title of their article. They were simply contemplating the fact that a person changes over time, and so the self at some future time is not identical to the self at the present time because the experiences in between the two time periods change the self. However, the notion that the mind is made up of two or three multiple selves is present in the theories of many economists.

Notes

1. The tripartite (or triune) division of the brain proposed by MacLean (1990) corresponds to the three subdivisions corresponding to three consecutive evolutionary eras: the reptilian, the limbic, and the neocortical. Some theorists, such as Claude Steiner (www.emotional-literacy.com/triune.htm), have suggested that this quasi-physiological division of the brain may correspond to Eric Berne's classification of ego states—Child, Parent, and Adult,—respectively.
2. Lynne and others cited in this chapter propose mathematical economic models to explore their ideas further.
3. See Lester (1995) for a description of Angyal's theory.
4. Bazin and Ballet (2006), commenting on the debate between Moldoveanu and Stevenson (2001) and Lester (2003b), noted that classical economic theory constructs a view of humans with two specific and fundamental assumptions: (i) the self is a unit, and (ii) people seek to optimize. They opt for a multiple self model, and in their article they propose a mathematical model for a multiple self.

What is Not a Multiple Self

There are many scholars and articles that seem to be relevant to multiple self theory but which fall short. King and Hicks (2007) wrote about *lost possible selves*, but they mean by this lost goals. For example, I wanted to be a physicist and rival Einstein in achievements, but that lost goal is not a *complex organization* of thoughts, desires, emotions, and behavior. It is not (and was not) a subself. King and Raspin (2004) give examples of possible selves (lost and found) from the narratives of divorced women. First a lost possible self:

I imagined a deliriously happy “empty nest” syndrome. Neither of us likes to travel, but sports are a big priority. I figured we would exercise, go to see the Rangers/Mavericks/Cowboys, etc., together. I envisioned weddings with lots of family pictures. There would be grandchildren to baby-sit. Life would be calm, easy, and sweet. (p. 616)

Clearly, this not a subself according to the definition of my multiple self theory. It is a daydream she once had for the future. What about a possible future self?

In my current or real life, I set goals and experience HARD work as I seek to attain them. I feel fortunate in a backhanded way to have experienced misfortune as a young woman. I feel it taught me humility, to be nonjudgmental, compassionate, and gave me the ability to regroup. Life is good but not lavish. It's hard work, and we have to give each other a hand once in awhile. I have changed my goals from material to spiritual. Forgiveness has been key. I have imagined college degrees, a cozy home, educated, healthy, well-adjusted children, an interesting job, a good marriage. (pp. 616–617)

Clearly, this also is not a subself, but rather goals for the future.

Many scholars have written about the personal self and the social self, but these terms are often used to refer to “different self-construals” (Brewer & Gardner, 1996, p. 83). The *personal self* refers to “those

aspects of the self-concept that differentiate the self from others" (p. 83), while the *social self* refers to "those aspects of the self-concept that reflect assimilation to others or significant social groups" (p. 83). This dichotomy is similar to that made by Triandis (1989) and others between the private self ("I am introverted"), the public self ("People think I am introverted"), and the collective self ("My coworkers think I travel too much"), but Triandis makes it clear that these refer to cognitions, as do other writers (e.g., Trafimow, Triandis, & Goto, 1991). There is no organization of a set of mental contents implied.

Triandis did make the point that in more complex cultures, individualistic cultures, and loose cultures (the extent to which they are heterogeneous, centrally located [and not isolated]), the more likely it is that people will focus on the private self and the less likely that they will focus on the collective self. This notion has implications for the relative importance of the real self and the social self in a multiple self theory of the mind.

Smith (1958) measured the self, ideal self, and social self (how you think you are viewed by others), but none of these represents subelves. Your ideal self is a goal but not a subself. Your view of how others view you is a thought, but not an organized subself.

It became popular in the 1960s to talk of the right brain–left brain dichotomy. The left and right hemispheres of the brain appear to have different functions. In popular writing, the left brain is described as rational, dull, and masculine, while the right brain is described as creative, impressionistic, and feminine.¹ These views persist today, and writers often speak as if these two hemispheres involve two different selves. McGilchrist (2009) described the "personalities" of the two hemispheres and labeled them as the Master (the right hemisphere) and the Emissary (the left hemisphere). He proposed that the two hemispheres have been at war for thousands of years, and that the Emissary has wrested control from the Master. The subelves as conceived in Lester's (2010) theory are usually conscious to the person. In his research (and that of John Rowan), people are asked to name and describe their different subelves. The left and the right brain dichotomy does *not* describe the subjective experience of people. People do not identify particular subelves with any particular brain structure.

On the other hand, the *skandhas* of Buddhist theory may be subelves. The skandhas are five *aggregates*: form, sensation, perception, mental formations, and consciousness. In the Abhidhamma, consciousness is a

series of rapidly changing, interconnected, discrete acts of cognizance, which resembles to some extent the construct of a subself.

Many other writers appear to be talking of the *structure* or the *architecture* of the personality or the mind, but close examination indicates that they are not. For example, Cervone (2005) entitles his article "Personality Architecture," but his examples include the five-factor model (McCrae & Costa, 1999). The five-factor model simply proposes five basic dimensions (or traits) of personality. Individuals may have profiles on these five factors, much as they can on the MMPI, but there is no organization or structure.

A review of studies of the "structure" of the self-concept by Campbell, Assanand, and Di Paula (2003) illustrates this lack of structure. They describe a variety of measures devised by others to measure the complexity of the self-concept, but none of these measures assesses the organization or the structure of the mind.

There are many more related concepts that are not multiple selves. For example, Higgins (1987) has defined the *actual self* (your representation of the attributes that you possess), the *ideal self* (your representation of the attributes that you would like ideally to possess), and the *ought self* (your representation of the attributes that someone, yourself or another, believes you ought to possess). These are simply traits and not subsystems of organized psychological contents. Allen, Wolfolk, Gara, and Apter (1996), in a paper entitled *Possible selves in major depression* (which sounds relevant to a multiple self theory of the mind), had people describe the following: (i) me as I actually am, (ii) me as I would ideally like to be, (iii) me as I would never hope to be, (iv) me as I ought to be, and (v) me as I see myself in the future. Again, these are not multiple selves.

Haidt (2006) has a chapter in his book *The Happiness Hypothesis* entitled "The Divided Self," but a close examination reveals that he is not talking about a multiple self. He says that "the mind is divided into parts that sometimes conflict" (p. 4) and that "in some ways we are each more like a committee whose members have been thrown together to do a job (p. 5). But then Haidt proposes that our minds are divided in four ways. The first way is the mind-body split, which Haidt calls the gut brain versus the mind brain. The second way is the left brain–right brain split, which Haidt characterizes as language processing versus processing patterns in space. The third way is new versus old, which is the relative roles of the limbic system versus the cortex. The fourth and final way is controlled versus automatic, which

refers to mental processes that happen automatically without the need for conscious attention or control (such as driving your car) versus those that require conscious thought and attention (such as solving a Sudoku problem). Interesting though these dichotomies are, they are not multiple selves.

Turner (1999) has coined two terms that might seem relevant to a multiple self theory of the mind, but which are not. *Social identity theory* proposes that categorizing people into distinct groups affects their behavior (especially with respect to intergroup discrimination and competition). The effects of group membership depend upon the status of the group (high or low) and the “nature” of the differences (secure or insecure). *Self-categorization theory* makes a distinction between social identity (self-definition in terms of social category membership) and personal identity (self-definition in terms of personal attributes). Social identity involves categories such as men versus women or blacks versus whites, whereas personal identity involves labels such as libertarian (based on one’s personal attitudes) or opportunist (based on one’s tactics). Labels could imply multiple selves, but the concepts as defined by Turner are merely labels and do not involve holistic system principles that govern individuals when given a particular label by themselves or by others.

Social Identities

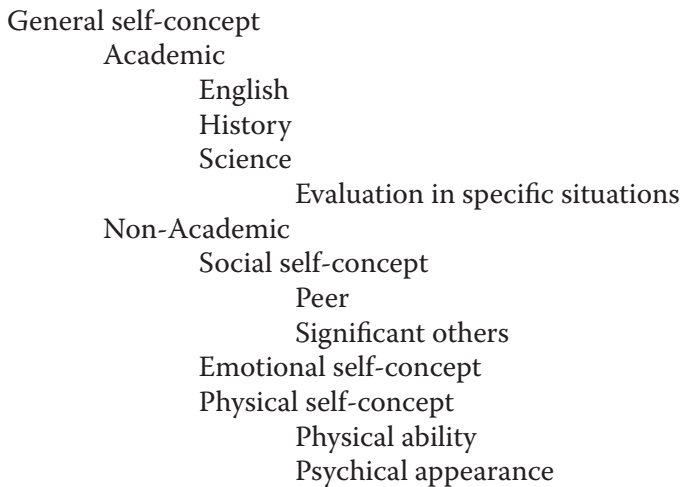
Brewer (1991) and Deaux (1993), among others, have discussed the concept of identity and, in particular, *social identity*. Brewer entitled her paper “The social self: On being the same and different at the same time,” a title which sounds similar to the ideas discussed in the present book on multiple selves. Deaux noted that identity can be split into three components: (i) human identity, (ii) social identity, and (iii) personal identity, although she herself saw these categories as misleading since the different kinds of identity are inter-related, because human and social identities “are infused with personal meaning” (Deaux, 1993, p. 5). For example, a person might be English (human identity), a professor (social identity), and scholar (personal identity), as I am.

Although Deaux gives examples of how two Hispanic students might describe themselves differently as Hispanics and as students, identities have no organization or system principle in the way that roles have an organization. Identities are merely labels. I am English, but that does not involve any organization of thoughts, desires, emotions, and behaviors. It is merely a label that I chose.

However, Deaux does identify four issues that she thinks must be asked about identities, and these can also be asked about multiple selves: (i) what is their structure and what is the significance of the different patterns, (ii) what functions do they serve, (iii) what are the contexts in which they come to the fore, and (iv) how do they change over time.

Shavelson on Self Concept

Shavelson, Hubner, and Stanton (1976) presented a hierarchical model of self-concept:



These elements of the self-concept are not organized, holistic subsystems or ego states. Despite this, Shavelson et al. mentions seven features of self-concepts that could equally well apply to multiple selves: (i) how are they organized or structured; (ii) whether they are multifaceted, reflecting the categories adopted by the particular person and/or shared by groups; (iii) whether they are hierarchical in arrangement; (iv) whether they are stable; (v) how they developed; (vi) how each one is evaluated by the individual; and (vii) how they are differentiated from one another.

Schemas and Scripts

Cognitive psychologists in recent years have proposed various versions of cognitive schemas (or schemata) and scripts. Although the term *script* sounds reminiscent of Andras Angyal's system principle, the term as used by Demorest (1995) is merely a schema—"a complex sets of elements involving motives, emotions, and actions of the self and others" (p. 573). For Tomkins (1987), scripts are "sets of ordering

rules for the interpretation, evaluation, prediction, production or control of scenes” (p. 153). Tomkins describes a commitment script, for example, as the courage and endurance to invest and bind the person to long-term activity. For a multiple self, we need the addition of an organizing principle for the script. Whereas Demorest implies that each of us has only one script rather than many (at least, she gives no examples of individuals with multiple scripts), Tomkins permits many scripts. For good sets of references for schemas and scripts as construed by a variety of psychologists, see Baldwin (1992) and Demorest (1995).

Future Subselves

Several scholars have introduced the concept of *possible selves* (Markus & Nurius, 1986; Hooker & Kaus, 1992; Dunkel & Kerpelman, 2006). Although this concept appears to be similar to the present focus on subselves, it is not. Possible selves refers to goals and fears for the future. Hooker and Kaus (1992) instruct their subjects to think about “the kinds of experiences that are in store for us and the kinds of people we might possibly become . . . what we hope we will be like” (p. 395), and they give an example of “one of my own [possible selves] is to win the lottery and become a millionaire” (p. 305). Dunkel and Kerpelman (2006) edited a book which provides many examples of the research that the concept of possible selves has generated, and the examples given throughout the book appear to be aspirations and goals rather than complex organized subselves: “I just want to be well-enough to bake cookies for my grandchildren” (Frazier & Hooker, 2006, p. 41); “I hope to become a middle-aged jock” (Anthis, 2006, p. 123); and “I will have a lot of clothes” (Kerpelman, 2006, p. 185). It seems that simplifying the concept from a complex subself to a simple aspiration has made it easier for psychologists to conduct research on the concept. For example, Kerpelman (2006) devised a 99-item list of “possible selves” which is merely a list of possible aspirations, and this type of scale facilitates simplistic psychological research.

Despite this difference, this raises the possibilities that people might indeed seek to create new subselves as defined in the present book. For example, with regard to roles (a form of subself), an individual might plan to have a child and become a parent, thereby creating a new role. When depressed people enter therapy of some kind to change their lives, their behavior can be construed as seeking to create a new, happy subself for the future. In this last example, the reality is that the

depressed subself will not disappear or be destroyed, but rather that it will take over the mind for less and less time in the future, in the way that Angyal proposed that the biopositive system principle organizes the mind for longer periods of time as patients progress through therapy, while the bionegative system principle organizes the mind less often.

Cognitive Models

Cognitive psychologists have proposed many models of the mind which are quite limited and do not rise to the full concept of a multiple self. For example, Kuiper and Derry (1981) proposed a model of the self as a cognitive prototype, and the self could, therefore, comprise several prototypes. Kuiper and Derry, however, do not propose a mind made up of multiple prototypes, and they give a very poor definition of what they mean by a prototype. Similarly, though Martindale (1980) does propose that personality is composed of a set of subselves, his presentation gets lost in a discussion of “cortical analyzers” and “action systems.” He also sees subself units as vertically connected to a set of motive or dispositional units, emotional systems, and semantic memory, and so it becomes clear that his subselves are merely cognitive schemas and not subselves in the way that subselves are construed in the present multiple self theory of the mind.

Greenwald (1982) does talk of subsystems, but these turn out to be only four: a self system, a verbal system, a nonverbal (body) system, and a social system, and these appear to refer to different sources of information for the mind to use. He proposed that each subsystem has knowledge unavailable to the other subsystems because they use different coding systems and lack the ability to translate the codes. In a later essay, Greenwald and Pratkanis (1984) described four facets of the self: a diffuse self, a public self, a private self, and a collective self. The *diffuse self* is a pre-self that does not distinguish between oneself and others and thus, one would assume, be found in very young children. The *public self* is described as sensitive to the evaluations of others and seeking to win approval, and so resembles the façade self (the pseudo self, the false self, the persona, or mask). The *private self* is “an inner audience” and permits self-evaluation, perhaps akin to the real self in other theories. The *collective self* is an internalization of the goals of reference group.

A somewhat related set of constructs are the *individual self*, the *relational self*, and the *collective self* (Sedikides & Brewer, 2001). The individual self contains those aspects of the self-concept that differentiate the individual from others, and it relies on interpersonal comparisons.

The relational self involves close personal bonds with specific people such as family members and friends. The collective self involves identification with a broader group such as a profession (e.g., professor), nationality (e.g., English), or sexual orientation (e.g., gay).

Foels and Tomcho (2009) studied whether there were sex differences in these selves. Women seem to choose relational selves more often, whereas men choose collective selves more often. Foels and Tomcho also proposed a distinction between *dyadic representations* (that is, thinking of relationships with particular others in the group) and *categorical representations* (that is, thinking of the group as a whole). This gives four possibilities:

Dyadic representation + relational group	e.g., sister
Dyadic representation + collective group	e.g., classmate
Categorical representation + relational group	e.g., family
Categorical representation + collective group	e.g., college

In their research, Foels and Tomcho asked college students to list “the most important communities, relationship, roles and connections that make up who you are” (p. 401). They found inconsistent evidence for a sex difference in preferences for relational versus collective groups, but women did prefer dyadic representations whereas men preferred categorical representations.

James Baldwin

Baldwin (1987) also focused on the split between the self and what he called *alters*. Alters are the other significant people in the child’s life whom the child imitates, transferring their behaviors to himself/herself and trying to behave as if they were him/her. Baldwin also called the real self and the façade self the *habitual self* and the *accommodating self*. Since there are many others to imitate (including family members and peers), many alters develop in the child and adolescent. As a result, the child behaves differently depending upon whom the child is interacting with and the mood and behavior of those with whom he/she is interacting. Baldwin’s use of the concept of imitation makes it clear that alters are not true multiple selves.

Gallwey’s Thinker and Doer

In his discussion of how to play better at tennis (and other activities in life), Gallwey (1974) proposed two selves, the conscious teller and the unconscious automatic doer. Tennis players perform better if

they suppress the teller, which is often a commanding and judgmental self, and let the unconscious body take over and simply play. Gallwey quotes from Daisetz T. Suzuki, a Zen master, who wrote in the introduction to Eugen Herrigel's book *Zen in the Art of Archery*:

As soon as we reflect, deliberate, and conceptualize, the original unconsciousness is lost and a thought interferes. . . . The arrow is off the string but does not fly straight to the target, nor does the target stand where it is. Calculation, which is miscalculation, sets in.

Although this is nice idea, the *thinker* and the *doer* are not two separate subelves in the sense used in the multiple self theory of the mind. The thinker is a subself, but the doer is an automatic process that occurs once the body has learned a set of actions.

There have been many dual-process models proposed by cognitive psychologists,² most of which can be categorized as low-effort processing versus high-effort processing. For example, Chaiken (1980) distinguished between heuristic (using learned associations for salient cues) versus systematic (effortful search for information and evaluating arguments), whereas Epstein (1991) distinguished between experiential (learned from past experience) and rational (using conscious verbal thoughts to make judgments). Interesting though these models are, they are not multiple self models.

Ornstein's Multimind

Ornstein's (1986) book, entitled *Multimind*, seems as if it will add to our understanding of the multiple self, but it does not. Ornstein does begin his book with statements that appear to refer to a multiple self, statements such as "We are not a single person. We are many" (p. 9) and "small minds" (p. 23). Further elaboration of what Ornstein means, however, brings references to talents, modules, and policies in the mind (p. 9). Separate talents do not constitute a multiple self. Later description of what he means by the term *small minds* includes fixed reactions, talents, and flexible thinking (p. 25), and Ornstein later introduces a neurological basis by locating these small minds in the standard region of the brain, after which he talks of "minds for alertness, for emotions, for danger" (p. 34), and he defines modules as connected neurons (p. 44). He also speaks of "the concentration in the brain of centers of talents. These talents are one of the primary biological components of the 'small minds'" (p. 47), although elsewhere he views *small minds* as larger units made up of single ability

talents that are situation specific, such as not wanting to visit a restaurant where you were once poisoned (p. 73).

Ornstein describes these talents as including the following:

Activating
Informing
Feeling
Healing
Moving
Locating and identifying
Calculating
Talking
Knowing
Governing

They can range from small talents such as memory for smells to larger ones like the ability to determine the meaning of a poem (p. 54). A final quotation from Ornstein's book will illustrate how different his concept is from the multiple self described in the present book.

The multimind model leads to a different vision of the mind. In a sense, it assumes that the mind is a kind of bastard hybrid system; a collage comprising many fixed and innate routines, all of which serve the mental operating policies that stretch over millions of years, millions of organisms, and millions of situations. (p. 81)

Comment

What is noteworthy about the models reviewed here is that they lack structure and process. They define a subself in a narrow way, reflecting the theoretical orientation of the writer (cognitive, psychodynamic, etc.), and they do not discuss subselves as complex organization, how the subselves interact, or how they are arranged (hierarchically versus members of an egalitarian group)

Notes

1. Even if this were true, it might apply only to right-handed people, whose language is controlled primarily by the left hemisphere of the brain.
2. For a good review of these models, see Smith and DeCoster (2000).

Empirical Studies of the Multiple Self

Several researchers have studied concepts similar to that of the multiple self, and their work is reviewed in this chapter. As is the case for many other topics in psychology, this research is usually dependent on the development of a scale to measure the concept.

Rosenberg's Stable Self

One of the first researchers to attempt to measure whether people have a coherent single self or a fragmented self was Rosenberg (1979). He phrased the concept as the "stability of the self" which he contrasted with "shifting and unstable self pictures" (p. 151). He devised a five-item scale, scores on which were associated with self-esteem; those having a more stable self also had high self-esteem. A typical item was "Some days I have a very good opinion of myself; other days I have a very poor opinion of myself." Some researchers have considered the scale to be a Guttman scale (Simmons & Rosenberg, 1975).

Franzoi and Reddish (1980) factor-analyzed responses of students to these items and identified a single factor. There were no sex differences in the scores. On the other hand, in a large sample of school children age 8 and older, Simmons and Rosenberg (1975) found that girls had a more unstable self-image than boys at all ages, and that white adolescents had a more unstable self-image than black adolescents. Having a stable self was associated with being more satisfied with one's looks and thinking that one was good-looking. Having a stable self-image was also associated with having a positive attitude toward one's own sex and rarely acting like the opposite sex.

In school children, Rosenberg (1979) found that, if children were in a school in which their ethnicity or religion was more common, the self-concept tended to be more stable (for black children, Catholic children, and Protestant children, but not for Jewish children). In his studies of

children, Rosenberg also found that the self-concept became more unstable during early adolescence (ages 12–14), more so in girls than in boys.

Marsh (1993) gave Rosenberg's scale to high school students and found that scores on the scale were not associated with how stable the self-esteem scores of the students were over time. Kernis, Grannemann, and Barclay (1989) found that scores on the stability of self were associated with self-esteem in college students (with having a more stable self associated with higher self-esteem), but not with trait anger, self-reported anger, or hostility scores on the Buss and Durkee scale (Buss and Durkee, 1957). Tevendale, DuBois, Lopez, and Prindiville (1997) found that eighth and ninth graders with a more stable self were less depressed but did not differ in aggression.

Verkuyten (1995) gave a modified version of Rosenberg's scale to native Dutch adolescents and to adolescents aged 12–17 in the Netherlands from Morocco, Surinam, and Turkey. He found that the four groups did not differ in the stability of self scores, but boys had a more stable self-concept than did girls. (Current age and age at emigration were not associated with stability of self scores.) Alsaker and Olweus (1986) found that having a stable self was associated with higher self-esteem in Norwegian sixth- and seventh-grade children. Stability of self scores were associated with self-esteem in all four groups and with identification with their ethnic group ("My ethnic group is an important part of who I am and what I am") for three of the four groups, but not with in-group evaluation (e.g., lazy and friendly).

The results of this research indicate that having a stable self (which implies not having a multiple self) is associated with better psychological health.

Altrocchi's Plural Self

Altrocchi (1999) devised a Self-Pluralism Scale (the long version has thirty items and the short version ten items) which he thought measured the structure (and not the content) of the self-concept. High self-pluralism indicates a perception that one's feelings and behaviors are relatively different in different situations and at different times.

Zeyrek and Lester (2006) gave Altrocchi's ten-item Plural Self Scale to American and Turkish undergraduates. A factor analysis of their responses identified two orthogonal (independent) factors. Factor I had high loadings from five items reflecting the subjective perception of a single versus a multiple self. Factor II had high loadings from three items, reflecting how other people perceived the respondent. The fact that these

two factors are independent indicates that subjective perceptions of a plural self are not necessarily congruent with the perceptions of others.¹

In a study of college students, Altrocchi and McReynolds (1997) found that scores on the plural self scale were positively associated with scores on Rosenberg's stability of self scale, Campbell's self-concept clarity scale, and Donahue, Robins, Roberts, and John's self-concept differentiation scale (see below). In a study of dieters, they found that self-pluralism scores were not related to sex, body mass index, or obesity. Older subjects had lower self-pluralism scores, and those with greater weight variability (although not overall weight) had higher self-pluralism scores. In another study, they found that self-pluralism was not associated with how subjects' spouses rated them. Altrocchi and McReynolds (1997, 1999) found that self-pluralism was associated with measures of college maladjustment, dissociation experiences, neuroticism, low self-esteem, and low ego-strength. Patients with dissociative identity disorder scored very high on the scale.

In a comprehensive review, McReynolds, Altrocchi, and House (2000) summarized their research, reporting positive associations between self-pluralism scores and measures of self-concept instability, self-concept differentiation, private (but not public) self-consciousness, cross-situational variability, self-monitoring, neuroticism, trait anxiety, and college maladjustment and negative associations with self-concept clarity self-esteem, agreeableness, and conscientiousness, and social desirability.² On the whole, then, self-pluralism seems to be associated with parallel measures (such as self-concept differentiation) and with maladjustment.

In a long-term study of people over a period of eight years, McReynolds et al. (2000) found that self-pluralism scores were correlated with the extent of long-term real-life changes. The greater the extent of changes in life, the greater was the self-pluralism score, but it is, of course, impossible to determine the direction of causality in this association. In that study also, self-pluralism scores were associated positively with maladjustment, including perceived stress and depression, and negatively with self-esteem and general well-being. Finally, McReynolds et al. predicted that self-pluralism scores should be lower in older adults, and this was confirmed in a cross-sectional study.³

In their study of Turkish and American undergraduate students, Zeyrek and Lester (2006) found that having a unified self was positively associated with having a Taoist orientation toward life as measured by the Ego-Grasping Scale of Knoblauch and Falconer (1986), for the combined sample and for each national group separately, and for both males

and females. The association was stronger for the first factor identified by Zeyrek and Lester for the Plural Self Scale (the subjective perception of the self) than for the second factor (how others perceived you). Park, Zeyrek, and Lester (2007) found that a unified self was associated with having a Taoist orientation in Korean high school and university students, but McCollaum, Zeyrek, and Lester (2006) did not find any association in a small sample of Asian students studying in Thailand.

Lester (2003a) carried out a similar study on a sample of American undergraduates. He found that having a unified self was associated with a Taoist Orientation score. Lester gave the students the REP Grid Test of George Kelly (1955) and scored the grid for how many independent factors could be extracted, and he also asked the students to identify their subselves. The score on the Plural Self Scale was not associated with either of these measures (nor with the percentage of variance accounted for by the first factor on the REP Grid). Thus, scores on these self-report scales may not be valid measures of having a multiple self.

Lester (2004b) administered the Plural Self Scale along with the FAVT, a scale devised by Doucette-Gates, Firestone, and Firestone (1999) to measure the extent to which people hear inner voices which utter violent thoughts (which presumably come from subselves of the total personality). The FAVT has several subscales: social mistrust, thoughts of being disregarded, negative critical thoughts of the self and others, and thoughts and expressions of overt aggression. Scores on the Plural Self Scale were positively associated with all four subscale scores, indicating that the higher the plural self score, the more the respondents heard violent inner voices.

Lester (2007) found that scores on the plural self scale were positively associated with scores on a test of self-monitoring, that is, a measure of being "highly responsive to social and interpersonal cues of situationally appropriate performance" (Gangestad & Snyder, 2000, p.530), and lower scorers on a test on tolerance of ambiguity. This was a rare study in that it identified positive aspects of having a multiple self.

Dunn and Castro (2012) argued that postmodern society encourages a plural self. The use of modern technology requires a multiple self. Interactive video games entice the players into simulacra, or hyper-realities. The Internet exposes people to contradictory information and knowledge. Online interactions promote cyber-selves which people can use to enact a multiplicity of selves. In addition to this, Dunn and Castro argued that materialism attaches symbolic meanings to the objects of consumption, and, if objects are used to construct one's self-concept

and identity, materialism can easily result in multiple selves. Dunn and Castro viewed television and media exposure as associated with materialism, and so predicted that exposure to modern technology would be associated with materialism.

In their study of about 200 respondents, they found that scores on the ten-item self-pluralism scale were associated with scores on a measure of materialism and on exposure to general technology, television, video games, and the Internet. In a path analysis, they found that general exposure to technology increased self-pluralism directly and also indirectly through the mediation of materialism. Overall, age, technology use, and materialistic values accounted for 29 percent of the variance in self-pluralism.

Carter's Multiplicity

Recently, Carter (2008; see Chapter 6) presented a multiple self theory of the mind along with a self-report inventory which was intended to measure whether individuals have the traits associated with a multiple self. Lester and Carter (2013) gave Carter's Multiplicity Scale and Altrocchi's (1999) Plural Self Scale to undergraduates, along with a measure of tolerance for ambiguity and the Big 5 inventory, which measures five personality traits (openness, conscientiousness, extraversion, agreeableness, and neuroticism). Scores on Carter's and Altrocchi's scales were positively associated, but only weakly (Pearson's $r = 0.23$). Multiplicity was associated with neuroticism on the Big 5 inventory but not with scores on the tolerance of ambiguity scale.

Social Desirability

A great deal of research is conducted by giving self-report questionnaires to samples of individuals. These questionnaires cover a variety of personality traits, attitudes, and behaviors, and the concern arose that individuals might lie on these questionnaires, giving the socially desirable answer. In the 1960s, Marlowe and Crowne devised a Social Desirability Scale (SDS), which was designed to test whether respondents were giving socially desirable responses to questionnaires (Crowne & Marlowe, 1960). The questionnaire was quickly adopted by researchers, and many studies employed the scale.

In the years since its introduction, there has been a debate about what the SDS actually measures. Some think that it measures a confounding variable that must be measured and controlled for in research (Nederhof, 1985), while others think that it is an important variable in its own right

(Millham & Kellogg, 1980). For example, the SDS may measure a personality trait (rather than a tendency to lie), and scores on the SDS are associated with traits such as defensiveness, self-esteem, and the need for approval. SDS scores may even indicate psychological health and coping strength (Connell & Meyer, 1991). Helmes and Holden (2003) administered a variety of social desirability scales to students and found that the scales seemed to be measuring different traits. They suggested that the distinction might be between self-deception and impression management.

Social desirability may be focused on a desire to present a public persona that conceals faults and exaggerates positive traits, but it may also be motivated by self-deception, that is, denying one's own negative attributes and viewing oneself in a positive light in order to feel good about oneself (Helmes & Holden, 2003). Self-deception itself may be an adaptive trait, enabling people to face the future with a positive attitude and relate interpersonally in a more rewarding manner.

As an illustration of the positive benefits of self-deception, Miotto and Preti (2008) studied 950 school-aged adolescents aged 15–19 in Italy. The thirty-three-item SDS has two subscales (Ramanaiah, Schill, & Leung, 1977). The denial subscale has fifteen items keyed false (e.g., I am sometimes irritated by people who ask me for some favors). The positive attribution subscale has eighteen items keyed true that attribute positive, but unlikely, traits to oneself (e.g., No matter who I'm talking to, I am always a good listener). Miotto and Preti found that those obtaining higher scores on the denial subscale had lower scores on a measure of psychiatric symptoms (the Symptom Checklist 90R), including less depression, anxiety, hostility, psychoticism, hopelessness, and suicidal ideation. The associations for the positive attribution subscale were positive but much weaker, indicating that *denial and self-deception* are critical here. As we saw in Chapter 13, self-deception is an interesting concept in a multiple self theory of the mind since it forces us to ask who is deceiving whom, implying the existence of at least two subselves (the deceiver and the deceived).

Self-deception can be described as motivated unawareness of conflicting knowledge. Sackeim and Gur (1978) defined self-deception more precisely in the following way:

1. The individual holds two contradictory beliefs.
2. The two contradictory beliefs are held simultaneously.
3. The individual is not aware of holding one of the beliefs.
4. The act that determines which belief is and is not subject to awareness is a motivated act.

If consciousness is viewed as unitary, then self-deception produces a paradox since the deceiver and the deceived are the same person. A common response of such a self-deceived person is something like, "I knew all along that. . . ." However, if consciousness is not viewed as unitary, then there is no paradox. Sackeim and Gur argued that self-deception is an active process (rather than passive); that is, people are motivated to deny that they hold a particular belief. They also argue that "motivated" (i.e., the act leads to different outcomes) is not the same as "intentional," which implies that it is planned, considered, or expected.

Sackeim and Gur argued also that one example of self-deception is when individuals are confronted with aspects of themselves that they find difficult to accept. They constructed two measures to assess this type of self-deception. One was a twenty-item self-report questionnaire to measure self-deception (SDQ), using items that, if one answered *yes*, one was admitting to universally true but psychologically threatening experiences such as, Have you ever enjoyed your bowel movements? They also constructed a twenty-item self-report questionnaire to measure the tendency to deceive others (ODQ). It should be noted that the SDQ does not, on the surface, appear to conform precisely to the four-component definition of self-deception given above.

In one of their studies, Sackeim and Gur (1979) found that students who obtained higher scores on the SDQ obtained lower scores on measures of depression, neuroticism, and psychiatric symptoms; that is, higher SDQ scorers appeared to be psychologically healthier. Sackeim and Gur concluded that self-deception makes self-report measures of psychological distress invalid, but it may be that self-deception improves psychological health. Interestingly, scores on the ODQ were much less strongly associated with measures of psychological distress, but scores on the SDQ, ODQ, and the Lie Scale of the Eysenck Personality Inventory (Eysenck & Eysenck, 1963) were all modestly but positively associated.

Other research supports these early findings. For example, Gudjonsson and Sigurdsson (2004) found that SDQ and ODQ scores predicted lower scores on Eysenck and Eysenck's measures of psychoticism and neuroticism in Icelandic prisoners. It has been suggested also that self-deception may improve motivation and performance by deflecting attention away from anxiety-inducing stimuli, thereby reducing stress. Starek and Keating (1991) confirmed this by showing that NCAA collegiate swimmers who made the team going to the national championship obtained higher SDQ scores than those who did not qualify to go.

Campbell's Self-Concept Clarity

Self-concept clarity has been defined as “the extent to which the contents of an individual’s self-concept (e.g., perceived personal attributes) are clearly and confidently defined, internally consistent, and temporally stable” (Campbell et al., 1996, p. 141). It is the component of *internally consistent* that has similarities to the concept of a multiple self. People with a multiple self may not feel internally consistent. For example, a typical item in the self-concept clarity scale is, “I seldom experience conflict between the different aspects of my personality.”

Campbell et al. (1996) devised a twelve-item scale to measure self-concept clarity. They found that self-concept clarity was positively associated with self-esteem, extraversion, and self-consciousness (and rumination) and negatively associated with neuroticism. Self-concept clarity was not associated with openness.

Butzer and Kuiper (2006) explored correlates of self-concept clarity in undergraduate students and found that self-concept clarity was negatively associated with depression, anxiety, intolerance of uncertainty, and comparing oneself with those superior to oneself. Thus, low self-concept clarity (which resembles to some extent a multiple self) was associated with measures of mild psychological disturbance.

Linville's Self Complexity

Linville (1985, 1987) proposed that the self is cognitively represented in terms of multiple self-aspects (assumption 1), and she gave social roles as a possible basis for this. Self-aspects vary in the affect (emotion) associated with them (assumption 2), and people differ in the degree of complexity of their self-representation (assumption 3). This complex cognitive representation of the self moderates the adverse physical and mental effects of stressful events. Linville defines self-complexity as follows:

greater self-complexity entails cognitively organizing self-knowledge in terms of a greater number of self-aspects and maintaining greater distinction among self-aspects. (1987, p. 663)

For example, independent self-aspects can be illustrated by the situation in which the “ups and downs of feelings about professional life are relatively uncorrelated with the ups and downs of feelings about personal life (Linville, 1985, p. 98). McConnell, Strain, Brown, and Rydell (2009) gave an example of a person with several self-aspects,

including academic, athlete, and pet owner, who was very different in each aspect (driven as an academic but relaxed as a pet owner).

Linville gave the example of a woman going through a divorce who sees herself only as a wife or as a lawyer, two self-aspects that are related because her husband is also a lawyer with whom she had worked. In this case, the stress of a divorce will impact not only her view of herself as wife, but also her view of herself as lawyer. In contrast, for a woman with more self-aspects (wife, lawyer, tennis player, and one of a group of female friends) and whose husband is a banker, the impact of her divorce may affect her self-aspect of wife, but not those of the other self-aspects. The self-aspects may be viewed by individuals in terms of social roles (e.g., lawyer, friend), kinds of relationships (competitor, nurturer), activities (hiking, playing tennis), goals (career success, finishing writing a novel), or superordinate traits (hard-writing, creative).

What is interesting is how Linville measured people's self-aspects. She gave the individual thirty-three randomly ordered index cards, ten blank cards and two recording sheets, each with fourteen columns. The thirty-three cards contained personality traits or characteristics. The individuals had to group them so that each group described an aspect of their life. They could form as many groups as they liked; they did not have to use all thirty-three traits; and each trait could be used more than once. (If the trait was used more than once, the blank cards were used to write the trait for a second [or more] time.) The recording sheet was to record the groupings.

Linville gave two examples. Both formed six groups, and both spontaneously labeled their groups. One chose relationship with men, relationship with women, relationship with family, studies, physically, and at parties. The other chose dorm life, home life, school, social life, work (dining hall worker), and activities. This second respondent described herself as reflective, reserved, unorganized, lost, and insecure in her school self-aspect and industrious, rebellious, playful, outgoing, assertive, and relaxed in her work self-aspect.

Linville hypothesized that greater self-complexity moderated swings in mood and self-appraisal because greater self-complexity is defined by greater independence between the multiple self-aspects. Great self-complexity acts as a buffer against stressful life events. In her study, Linville found that students high in self-complexity were less prone to depression, perceived stress, physical symptoms, and illnesses following high levels of stressful events. Thus, greater self-complexity (which would accompany a multiple self) was a healthy state.

McConnell et al. (2009) argued that people in low self-complexity would react more to feedback because a larger proportion of the self-concept is made up of only one or two aspects. Thus, positive experiences would result in greater well-being for people low in self-complexity, but such individuals would find it harder to cope with negative experiences. In their first study, McConnell et al. found that people lower in self-complexity did report higher well-being on a number of self-report scales (including depression and self-esteem). The difference was negligible if the students had low social support, but the difference was large if the students had strong social support.

In a second study, McConnell et al. administered a scale to measure negative life experiences (including life-threatening illness and sexual abuse). Those students with more negative life experiences had greater self-complexity (as well as poorer well-being). For those with low scores for negative life experiences, the students with low self-complexity reported higher well-being but, for those with high scores for negative life experiences, there were minimal differences in well-being. For these students with the most negative life experiences, lower self-complexity was associated with poorer well-being. The study was correlational in nature, but McConnell et al. hypothesized that people may cope with negative life experiences by developing greater self-complexity.

Woolfolk, Novalany, Gara, Allen, and Polino (1995) found that the adjectives provided for the measurement of self-complexity had an impact on the results of the research. They provided positive versus negative adjectives and measured positive self-complexity and negative self-complexity separately. They found that only negative self-complexity was a stable trait and unaffected by the different rating stimuli and tasks. Higher negative self-complexity was associated with increases in depression over time and a predicted poorer outcome for clinically depressed patients. Woolfolk, Gara, Allen, and Beaver (2004; see also Gara, Woolfolk, & Allen, 2002) measured self-complexity and complexity of others. Depressed college undergraduates had more complex negative selves, positive selves, and positive others. A combined measure of complexity (self and others) was positively associated with depression.

Rafaeli-Mor and Steinberg (2002) have provided a review and meta-analysis of the research on self-complexity. Of the twenty-four studies that assessed the stress-buffering role of self-complexity, seven supported the hypothesis (a beneficial effect from self-complexity), four found a deleterious effect of self-complexity, and the remainder of the studies found no impact from self-complexity. It is difficult to compare

the constructs of self-complexity and multiple selves because of the very different techniques of measurement. The other self-concept measures reviewed in this chapter use self-report inventories, making it easier to look at the content of the items (face validity) and the inter-correlation of the scores from the different scales (convergent validity) to see to what extent they tap the construct of the multiple self.

Antonovsky's Sense of Coherence

Antonovsky (1987) proposed a construct which he called the *sense of coherence*. He defined this as “a global orientation that expresses the extent to which one has a pervasive, enduring though dynamic feeling of confidence that: (1) stimuli deriving from one’s internal and external environments in the course of living are structured, predictable and explicable (i.e., comprehensibility); (2) the resources are available to one to meet the demands posed by these stimuli (i.e., manageability); and (3) these demands are challenges worthy of investment and engagement (i.e., meaningfulness)” (p. 19).

The twenty-nine-item scale that he devised to measure this construct has items such as “Does it happen that you have feelings inside you would rather not feel?” and “How often do you have feelings that you’re not sure you can keep under control?” Although these items do not tap precisely a multiple self, the name of the scale sounds as if the construct could be related to the other constructs discussed in the present book.

In a study of Chinese American college students, Ying, Lee, and Tsai (2007) found that the presence of depressive symptoms in the students was predicted by both college challenges (positively) and the sense of coherence scale scores (negatively). The sense of coherence was positively associated with the strength of attachment of the students to their parents and to their peers. In a study of elderly people who had attempted suicide and who had then been admitted to hospital, Mellqvist, Wiktorsson, Joas, Ostling, Skoog, and Waern (2011) found that those patients with a diagnosis of major depression had a significantly high sense of coherence score. The patients with less contact with their children and grandchildren had a lower sense of coherence scores.

Multiple Social Selves

Wolfe, Lennox, and Cutler (1986) drew a distinction between seeking acceptance, approval, and popularity (which they called *getting along*) and seeking power, control, and status (which they called *getting ahead*). They noted that their dichotomy was similar to others that have been

proposed, such as Arkin's (1981) distinction between protective and acquisitive styles of self-presentation.

In order to explore their idea, Lennox and Wolfe (1984) devised a *Concern for Appropriateness Scale* with two subscales. The subscale of *Cross-Situational Variability of Behavior* had items such as "I tend to show different sides of myself to different people," while the *Attention to Social Comparison Information* subscale (also called the *Protective Social Comparison Scale* to indicate its defensive aspects) had items such as "I pay attention to the reactions of others to my behavior in order to avoid being out of place." The first of these subscales seems to measure a construct similar to that of multiple selves. Scores on these scales were positively associated with measures of neuroticism and social anxiety, and self-esteem.

To assess the getting ahead style, Wolfe et al. (1986) proposed that a revision of the Self-Monitoring Scale (Snyder, 1979) would be useful. Their revision had two subscales: (i) *Ability to Modify Self-Presentation* (e.g., I have the ability to control the way I come across to people depending on the impression I wish to give them), and (ii) *Sensitivity to the Expressive Behavior of Others* (e.g., I am sensitive to even the slightest changes in the facial expression of the person I'm conversing with). In their study, Wolfe et al. found that the measures of the two styles were independent of each other and were associated with self-esteem, social anxiety, and shyness.

Sheldon and Colleagues

Sheldon, Ryan, Rawsthorne, and Hardi (1997) noted that trait theories of personality tend to assume that personality remains stable over time, situations, and social roles. They cited McCrae and Costa (1994) as believing that traits may be "our very selves" (McCrae & Costa, 1994, p. 175), that is, that there exists a stable *true self*. In contrast, other theorists argue that "roles and situations are assumed to differentially afford support for authentic self-expression and self-organized behaviors, and some roles may foster false self-presentations, or departures from how one might ideally choose to be (Sheldon et al., 1997, p. 1380). Sheldon et al. seem to be arguing that personality may differ across roles, but that some roles permit the expression of a true self more than other roles permit. Their notion of *authenticity* implies that a true self does exist.

Sheldon's research, however, provides support for a multiple self theory of personality. He hypothesized that one's personality differs across roles and that people will describe themselves differently in their

different roles. Students were asked to complete a Big 5 personality inventory in each of five roles: student, employee/worker, child (son or daughter), friend, and romantic partner. Note that the students were not *in* these roles when they filled out the Big-5 inventory. Rather they had to recall how they behaved in these roles. It would be better, as a test of a multiple self theory of personality, to have observers rate the behavior of the subjects when they were actually in each of the five roles, but, of course, this would be much more time-consuming.

Sheldon et al. found that the students did describe themselves differently in the five roles. What is surprising to me is that there was overall agreement in how they did so. As a group, they were the most extraverted as friends (and least as students), most neurotic as students (and least as friends), most agreeable as employees (and least as children), most conscientious as employees (and least as friends), and most open to experience as romantic partners (and least as students). However, the type of statistical analysis was designed to look for generalities among the students in the study and not to identify different patterns between the students.

Was there evidence for a true self? The students were asked five questions concerning authenticity for each of the five roles. As a group, they felt more authentic in a particular role the more extraverted, conscientious, agreeable, open to experience, and non-neurotic they were in the role. Since cross-national studies suggest that Americans are among the most extraverted and non-neurotic people (Lynn, 1971), it would be interesting to find if the same profile predicted authenticity in other nations.

Interestingly, by comparing the ratings of personality by each student for the five roles, Sheldon obtained a measure of self-consistency—how similar were the five self-descriptions? On the whole, the students were more satisfied in the roles in which their personality traits were consistent with their general self-trait characteristics. Furthermore, in a second study, Sheldon found that, the greater the self-concept differentiation between the five roles, the greater was the conflict between the roles that the students reported.

Donahue and Self-Concept Differentiation

Donahue et al. (1993) noted that social roles become *role identities* only when the roles are internalized into our self-concept. Once this has occurred, individuals need to be aware of the different roles, to know the rules and expectations associated with each role, and to

alter their behavior accordingly. People with highly differentiated self-conceptions have specialized identities which are flexible and adapt to the situation. People with an undifferentiated self, in contrast, will be rigid and inflexible.⁴

Donahue measured self-concept differentiation as did Sheldon et al. (1997). Students rated themselves on an adjective checklist (designed to measure the Big 5 personality traits) in the different roles they had (student, friend, romantic partner, son/daughter, and worker). From this, Donahue and colleagues obtained a measure of self-concept differentiation, and they found that self-concept differentiation was positively associated with depression and neuroticism and negatively with self-esteem, supporting the fragmentation model. Donahue et al. then replicated this basic result using adult women in their fifties, in this case finding that middle-aged adults with greater self-concept differentiation had higher levels of neuroticism and anxiety when in their 20s. Donahue et al. pointed out that their research did not show cause and effect. It could be that self-concept differentiation results in maladjustment or that maladjustment results in greater self-concept differentiation. The data from their longitudinal study did find that the self-concept differentiation was associated with reporting greater family tension during childhood, and so this supported the hypothesis that childhood stressors resulted in a divided self.

Proulx and Chandler

Proulx and Chandler (2009) studied the existence of a multiple self in adolescents. They first had the adolescents read a comic version of *The Strange Case of Dr. Jekyll and Mr. Hyde*. The adolescents were asked whether Jekyll and Hyde should be considered one and the same person. Proulx and Chandler then asked the adolescents to give examples (both by themselves and by others) of honorable and dishonorable behavior. Having identified these behaviors in themselves and others, the adolescents were asked whether they could consider such an agent as the same person despite the good and bad behaviors and how the agent could be considered the same person. The responses of the adolescents were coded into four categories: (i) no self-unity, (ii) multiplicitous self, (iii) hierarchical self (with more than one desire, but one speaks louder than the others), and (iv) a singular self. Proulx and Chandler found that those with a multiplicitous self were older (15.4 years) on average than those with a hierarchical self (14.7 years) and those with a singular self (14.5 years).

They then studied a group of undergraduate students (with an age range of 18 to 25) and found no impact of age on their self-concept, but 56 percent described themselves as having a multiplicitous self compared to 43 percent of the adolescents. In a final study of adolescents, Proulx and Chandler found that those with a multiplicitous self more often had an external locus of control for their bad behaviors while those with a singular self more often had an internal locus of control. The two groups did not differ in attribution for good behaviors.

Hennig (1995) classified undergraduate students using Chandler's typology as well as Linville's Self-Multiplicity Sorting Task for each self-aspect and Campbell's Self-Concept Confusion Scale (which Campbell calls a measure of self-clarity). Scores on Chandler's typology were positively (but modestly [$r = 0.22$]) associated with Self-Multiplicity scores. Self-Concept Confusion was positively associated with perceived stress and negatively associated with self-esteem and an internal locus of control, indicating that confusion is associated with worse psychological well-being. Linville's self multiplicity scores were associated with psychological well-being, but scores on Chandler's measure of self identity were not associated with psychological well-being. Hennig's report is a master's thesis and poorly analyzed. Factor-analyses, first of the self concept scores and second of the psychological well-being scores, followed by a correlation between these two sets of factor scores, would have revealed a more meaningful pattern and one that was more understandable (rather than a report of only selected correlation coefficients).

Jack Block

Block (1961) was interested in *role variability*, the extent to which people differ in personality and behavior in their different roles. He had undergraduate students rank twenty adjectives to describe themselves in eight different roles (such as their same-sex parent and a close friend of the same sex) and measured the consistency in these rankings over the roles. He found that a high inconsistency score (which implies multiplicity of selves, or *role diffusion* in Block's terminology) was positively associated with a measure of psychoneuroticism.⁵

Describing Multiple Selves

For exploring his theory of personality and for use with clients in psychotherapy, Kelly (1955) needed a way of determining which constructs each of us has. He realized that most of us are not used to

thinking introspectively about these psychological processes, so he devised a test called the Role Construct Repertory Test, or REP Test, to help us identify our constructs. The original REP Test used a grid with twenty-two columns and twenty-two rows. At the top of the grid we place our own name and the names of twenty-one people we have encountered in our lives, ranging from family to supervisors, lovers to friends. Then we take three of these people at a time (determined by circles on the grid) and decide “what do two of them have in common, and how do these two differ from the third?” The words we choose become the two poles of the construct. We then place a checkmark under everyone who has, say, the property represented by the first pole of the construct. We then move to the second row, and so on, until we have done this twenty-two times.

The completion of Kelly’s REP Grid is not an easy task—it requires a relatively sophisticated person.

Lester (1998) used a modified version of the REP Test to study two roles of college students—as students and as member of their family. For their role as students, they were asked to place the names of professors at the heads of each column; for their roles as family members, they were asked to place the names of family members at the heads of each column. Thus, each REP Grid required them to sort different types of people. Since the full 22-by-22 REP Grid was too long (and not every student might know twenty-two professors and or have twenty-two family members to place on their REP Grids), they were given two 8-by-8 REP Grids.

Both grids were analyzed for their cognitive complexity by subjecting the responses to a factor analysis. The grids for professors and for family members did not differ significantly in the number of factors identified (2.65 versus 2.83, respectively), but the first and major factor for the professors accounted for more of the variation in the grid than the first factor for family members (49.3% versus 41.7%), suggesting that the grids for professors were less complex than those for family members.

Second, each student was asked to list the eight constructs identified for professors and the eight constructs identified for family members and then rate on a scale from 1 to 7 for how appropriate each construct was for describing each of their professors and each of their family members. This enabled a test of the hypothesis that the constructs identified for professors would be viewed as more appropriate for describing professors than for describing family members, and vice

versa for the constructs identified for describing family members. As expected, the constructs identified for professors were rated as more appropriate for professors than for family members.

Thus, both hypotheses were supported. The REP Grid responses for professors were less complex on one measure of complexity, and the constructs identified on the two grids were described as more appropriate for the people for whom they were identified than for the other group. Putting this in a less technical manner, the theories of interpersonal behavior (construction systems in Kelly's terms) we have developed for family members are more complex than those we have developed for professors, and the theories of interpersonal behavior are better suited for the subselves in which they operate than for other subselves.

Other methods may be possible for having individuals describe their subselves. For example, Platman, Plutchik, Fieve, and Lawlor (1969) had manic-depressive patients describe their emotions while in a manic state, a depressed state, and a normal state using the Profile of Mood States (McNair, Lorr, and Droppleman 1971). They found that the patients described themselves very differently in the manic and in the depressed states. For example, when in the manic state, the patients reported high levels of acceptance, surprise, and joy, and when in the depressed state high levels of sadness, disgust, and anger.

Interestingly, when in a normal state, they viewed their manic emotional state very differently from the way in which they viewed the manic state when manic. In contrast, their description of the depressed state was similar during and after the depressed state. Staff members also rated the emotions shown by the patients in the two states, and their ratings agreed with those of the patients' recall of their emotional states. This suggested that patients, when manic, have an incorrect perception of their emotional state, but not when depressed.

Butt, Burr, and Bell (1997) asked eleven people to choose eight or nine others with whom they had relationships. They were presented with the names of two at a time and asked to consider similarities and difference in how they experienced themselves in the relationships. The result was a list of constructs for each person. They then completed a more formal Grid in which the eight or nine people were the column anchors.

Butt and his colleagues found that their subjects articulated the varied ways in which they experienced themselves and behaved in the

different relationships. They felt themselves to be quite different people in the different relationships. For example, “Ken” felt that he could be his real self in only two of his relationships—those with his father and with “Clare.” Yet he also acknowledged that he construed himself to be very different in the two relationships—deferential, patient, and protected with his father, and impatient, dominating, and protective with Clare. Thus, Ken was “himself” in both relationships, but very different in each. Butt and his colleagues noticed that their subjects felt themselves to be their real selves when they did not have to be self-conscious and on guard, and when they could be spontaneous and at ease.

All of the subjects recognized that they produced different selves in different social situations. These different selves were not arranged in any hierarchical manner, but rather were grouped somewhat anarchistically, with each self having a similar status. Butt and his colleagues concluded that “the postmodern subject recognizes its own diversity” (p. 26).

Although Woolfolk (Woolfolk et al., 1999; Gara et al., 2002) does not propose a multiple self theory of the mind as construed in the present book, he has used a methodology which suggests a way of describing multiple selves. Gara et al. (2002) had undergraduates consider several *self-aspects*, including

1. Me, the person I usually am
2. Me as a friend
3. Me when I am at my best
4. Me when I am with my father
5. Me when I am with my mother
6. Me when I am at social gatherings
7. Me when I am with my significant other/lover
8. Me, the person I was ten years ago
9. Me as a worker or employee
10. Me, the person I expect to be in ten years
11. Me as a student
12. Me at my worst

These, with the exception of numbers 8 and 10, could represent multiple selves. Gara et al. had the students rate these twelve self-aspects and, in addition, twelve other people they knew, on seventy personality traits. They then measured the complexity of the ratings using a statistical program which is not intuitively understandable. Combining the ratings of selves and others, Gara found that there seemed to be a general

measure of social cognitive complexity and that social cognitive complexity was positively associated with depression scores. The more complex students were more depressed.

Gara et al. did not look at self-complexity by itself, and they included two items that do not tap multiple selves. But their methodology suggests a way to have individuals describe their multiple selves *if* their multiple selves are construed by the individuals as social roles. (There are, of course, many other ways in which individuals can construe their multiple selves.)

Roberts and Donahue (1994) also endeavored to have people describe their multiple selves. They gave women four roles to consider (worker, partner, friend, and daughter). The women rated themselves in each role on sixteen traits (which clustered into positive affect such as *taking pleasure*, competence such as *assertive*, and dependability such as *flexible*). Roberts and Donahue found that, although there was overlap in how the women described themselves in the four roles, the women did describe themselves differently in their four roles.

The problem with Roberts and Donahue's technique is that Roberts and Donahue chose the roles and the sixteen traits. Their technique did not, for example, permit the women to describe multiple selves based on mood (such as the *depressed me* and the *happy me*) or to choose their own traits that are central to them.

Discussion

This chapter has identified a number of self-report psychological inventories that seem to measure constructs similar to a multiple self. However, no research has yet appeared comparing and contrasting the different inventories. To what extent are the items in each of the inventories similar, and how many different clusters of items can be identified? That research would help identify the dimensions of multiplicity.

Scores on the majority of the inventories seem to indicate that multiplicity is associated with worse psychological health, but there were exceptions to this. Further research is needed to clarify this association. Furthermore, it is not clear what the cause-and-effect direction is in this possible association. Does a multiple self cause worse psychological health, or does the experience of psychological problems facilitate the development of a multiple self?

Finally, there has been some progress made in devising ways of describing the multiple selves that an individual has, but much more work is needed on this important task.

Notes

1. Lester (2004a) identified three independent factors in a study of 182 American undergraduates, and Lester (2003a) also identified three independent factors in a study of 61 undergraduates.
2. Self-pluralism scores were not related to verbal intelligence or sensation-seeking scores.
3. McReynolds et al. replicated all of these results obtained with the thirty-item scale when using the ten-item scale instead.
4. However, some theorists see the differentiated self as *fragmented*, lacking a core self, and therefore less psychologically healthy.
5. Block expected a U-shaped relationship, with maladjustment being higher at both extremes of consistency-inconsistency (role diffusion and role rigidity).

Conclusions and Final Thoughts

*“And your father, how do you remember him?” I ask.
“He was the nicest man in the world,” she says. “He was very good to us.”
She remembers them eating dinner together, playing in the garden, and
reading the story of Hansel and Gretel.
Brigitte is convinced that her father was a sensitive man.
(Harding, 2013, p. 17)*

This is an elderly, eighty-year-old woman remembering her father, Rudolf Höss, who was the Kommandant of Auschwitz from 1940 to 1944, where over three million people were murdered. Brigitte said of her father, “There must have been two sides to him. The one that I knew and then another.” The argument made in the present book is that a multiple self theory of the mind is critically necessary in order to understand our behavior.

Psychotherapists versus Experimental Psychologists

In Chapter 1, I quoted Roy Baumeister (1998), who asserted that that “The multiplicity of selfhood is a metaphor. The unity of selfhood is a defining fact” (p. 682). Albert Bandura (1999) has taken a similar position, asserting that “Actions are regulated by a person not by a cluster of selves doing the choosing and guiding. . . . Diversity of action arises not from a collection of agentive selves but from the different options considered by the one and the same agentive self” (p. 194). McAdams (1997) quotes Kakutuni (1995) as saying that the idea of multiple selves is amusing in fiction but that it is a false option in life. Whenever I read statements like these, I think how simple-minded the person saying this must be, but Corollary 1a (see Chapter 1) does allow for some individuals to have only one subself.

Bandura also proposed a slippery slope argument, saying that, if we split the self into several multiple selves, then these subselves can be

split into sub-selves, *ad infinitum*. Bandura asks where we would we stop. This is nonsense. In chemistry, molecules are made up of the elements listed in the Periodic Table. Elements are made up of protons, neutrons, and electrons, and these are made up of subatomic particles. But the list does not continue *ad infinitum*. Some theorists with proposals similar to the multiple self theory proposed in the present book do go one or two steps further. For example, Eric Berne, with three subselves (which he called ego states—Child, Adult, and Parent), does go to the sub-self level by, for example, considering the rudimentary Child, Adult, and Parent contained in the Child ego state. However, Berne and other Transactional Analysts do not fall down a slippery slope and go further, especially in the case studies that they present.

It is possible to have a sense of continuity over time (*diachronic unity*), while at the same time accepting that one is a person who has multiple selves coexisting simultaneously, although only one of these multiple selves has executive power at any point in time (*synchronic unity*). A simple but analogous example here is the family unit, a unit which is continuous over time but which has multiple members in it.

There seems to be a difference between psychotherapists, who frequently have proposed a multiple self structure for the mind and employed it in their therapeutic work, and experimental psychologists (typically these days with a cognitive orientation), who are unable to go beyond such concepts as the *complexity of the self* or *self-aspects*. Psychotherapists who see clients typically find that a multiple self approach describes their clients quite accurately. Even Henry Murray (1981), in his analysis of a Harvard student, identified a manifest personality (which was easy-going, passive, and lazy) and a covert personality (which had grand aspirations for power and the admiration of others). In rejecting the relevance of subjective experience, as psychologists such as Baumeister and Bandura do, psychologists fail to create an accurate account of human behavior and experience. I am reminded of a diary I possess from a psychologist who was a behaviorist in his teaching and research, denying any relevance for subjective experience, but who, as a patient in psychotherapy, analyzed his own conflicts using a psychoanalytic perspective.

Greenwald (1982) described this dichotomy as between those who deal with the self as an empirical object (which tends to lead them into cognitive experiments in the psychological laboratory) and the self as a vehicle of conscious experience. Greenwald proposed that, when psychologists conduct their research, their executive self is that

of scientist and, as a result, ignores (and, I might add, even suppresses) their subjective experience.

We have seen in Chapter 11 how psychotherapists have used the concept of a multiple self in some form with their clients. Gregg (1995) has been interested in listening to the narratives that people give for their lives in the course of life history interviews. He noted that the narrators often provide contradictory self-representations, and they shift between these self-representations, often from moment to moment, as they relate their life histories.

Initially in an interview, the narrator will provide what Gregg called a *press release*, a self-representation that has been devised for public self-presentation. Once this self-representation has been provided, the narrator typically provides fragments and discursive arguments that diverge from this initial public self-representation. Gregg gave several examples from his studies on American and Moroccan individuals.

Rachida was a devout Muslim school teacher in a rural village in Morocco who had to fight for every advance in her career. In her initial narrative about herself, she presented herself as a feminist and saw women as equal to men. She gave examples of arguing with the men in her family who opposed her studies and ambitions. Yet, later, Rachida commented that it was right for men to have authority over women and that, if men were not in charge, there would be chaos and conflict. Gregg identified two separate and different *discourses* on her identity: an autonomous woman, a role she had learned from her grandfather who had supported her studies; and a modest, proper, and traditional woman, a role she had learned from her mother and grandmother. In the present theory, these are two subselves.

In another example, Skip, an American auto-assembly-line worker, presented three *self-representations* in the course of narrating his life history. The core self-representation was a champion of the little guy, an enemy of bigotry and oppression of all kinds with fantasies of becoming a dictator himself. However, he frequently described himself as a victim, feeling violated and screwed by his vicious foreman. He was also at times a beatnik rebel who performed at a local folk music club in the style of Bob Dylan. Gregg labeled Skip's three subselves as tyrant, victim, and rebel.

In a third example, Gregg describes one individual, Faith, who "plays [each of her identities] to enchanting and hilarious effect [but at] other times . . . they seem to take on lives of their own" (p. 631). Thus, subselves can be engaged in (assume executive control, to use my

terminology) with conscious will and by decisions we make, but they also become autonomous, developing the power to act on their own, beyond our control, thereby disrupting our behavior (performances) and creating conflict and confusion within.

In an interesting analogy, whereas some theorists view multiple selves as constituting an orchestra with one self acting as a conductor, integrating all of the separate subselves, Gregg used the analogy of a rancher trying to control his herd of branded cows. The cows are always wandering off by themselves, and the rancher has to continually gather them back into the herd. The presence of the brand symbolizes that the cows are all his and belong together.

Experimental psychologists have a need (determined by custom in their profession) to use laboratory experiments in which they manipulate the independent variable and in which they have to use easily measurable variables, but this limits their ability study a multiple self. As we have seen, the questionnaires to measure a plural self (by Altrocchi and Carter, for example) are limited in their reliability, and especially in their construct and validity (particularly criterion validity), which impairs their use in experiments. All too often, psychological research on behavior carried out in the laboratory is far removed the real-life behavior of people in their experiential world.

Rosenberg (1997), talking of *ego targets* rather than subselves, listed several possibilities for his subjects: occupational and personal roles (e.g., psychologist), particular relationships (e.g., with Nancy), activities and habits (e.g., skier), group membership (e.g., union member), religion or ethnicity (e.g., Mexican American), and historical (e.g., me when I was a child). Presenting such a list gave Rosenberg “control” over his experiment, but, no matter how long one makes such a list, it is narrow. For example, Rosenberg’s list missed top dog/bottom dog and the happy me and the depressed me. It is much better, as many psychotherapists do, to let the person name their own subselves.

Rowan (2010) has reviewed the work of many psychotherapists who use the concept of multiple selves in their work with clients, and Rowan criticized these psychotherapists, many of whom have been discussed above in the present book, for *reification*, that is, acting as if these multiple selves really exist. Rowan now prefers the concept of I-positions which come and go with the situation, unlike his earlier work (Rowan, 1990), in which he talked of subpersonalities which were more stable entities and similar to the multiple selves of the present theory. Although Rowan does not believe that subselves really exist,

the questions that he asks clients about their I-positions seem to imply reification (Rowan, 2010, p. 85). What do you look like, how old are you, what is your general approach to the world, what is your main motive for being there, what are the situations that bring you out, and when did you first meet (the name of the client)? Clients would surely think that they are being asked about a subself that is real to them! In this later work, Rowan has adopted the theory of Hubert Hermans (2002), who has proposed a system of psychotherapy based on the *dialogical self* (see Chapter 11 above), but many of the clinical examples he gives in his new book can be reinterpreted in terms of multiple selves.

Interestingly, novelists have often explored the multiple self. McAdams (1997) describes a novel by Austin Wright (1994), *After Gregory*, in which Peter Gregory tries to kill himself when his sexual affair with a high school student is about to be exposed and when he believes that he might have killed a neighbor. He changes his mind after he jumps into a freezing river and swims to safety, after which he adopts several different subselves during the novel. There are also many situations in real life that researchers could explore, such as those who give evidence against criminals and go into witness protection programs, assuming a new identity. Actors adopt different roles during their careers, and it would of interest to explore whether this facilitates the development of multiple selves.

Many writers on the concept of self confuse *consistency* with *unity*. For example, Swann, Rentfrow, and Gunn (2002) argued that people need a sense of coherence and that this comes from stable self-views. "By stabilizing behavior, stable self-views make people more predictable to others" (p. 269), they write after discussing Lecky (1949) and Festinger (1957), who argued that people need to have self-consistent thoughts. However, it is easy to be predictable and consistent without being a unified single self. Roles are specific to the people with whom we are interacting. To take another example, just because individuals have three ego states (as proposed by the theory of Transactional Analysis) does not mean that their behavior is unpredictable. It means that their behavior (along with their desires, emotions, and thoughts) will be appropriate to the particular organization of their minds at the time and to the situations in which they find themselves.

Precursors of a Multiple Self Theory

A multiple self theory of the mind has a long history. Although many scholars cite James (1890), Cooley (1902), and Mead (1934) as precursors to the concept of a multiple self, the true precursor

is Morton Prince (1928). Prince devoted much of his research to the syndrome of multiple personality, and he generalized from that research to normal behavior. In his article “The Problem of Personality: How Many Selves Have We?” Prince noted that traditional theories of personality are inadequate and incomplete because they fail to take into account “normal everyday alterations of character” (p. 245). Prince used the term *personality* to refer to the sum total of our minds, and he proposed that people have many organized dispositions that compose the whole personality. Prince called these organized dispositions *selves*, *secondary units*, *characters*, *phases*, and *variants*, what I have called subselves in this book. These different selves appear when there are changes in fatigue, illness, intoxication, mood, and situation. They can change from morning to evening, in adversity versus prosperity, happiness versus sorrow, sickness versus health, and in our different social relationships.

Prince asked the question, What is the real self?

Is either side the real self? Or is one more real than the other? Would the individual himself know which he or she is? Certainly no one is more real than the other. (p. 253)

And he mentions how one young man described his mind:

No wonder he seemed to himself, as he said, to be looking through the colored slides of a magic lantern and saw the world as it was colored—by the multiplicity of his different selves. (pp. 257–258)

Prince proposed that we should view the mind as a complex of units, unitary systems of experiences and instinctive dispositions. Using these words, Prince clearly anticipates a theory such as Angyal’s in which the subselves are complex subsystems, each with its own organizing system principle:

One might say that the mind is a composite of a lot of little minds, each concerned, however, with its own business and its own interest and aim. (p. 264)

Usually, these selves enter consciousness in an orderly manner when called upon or when appropriate according to the circumstances of the moment or the situation. Selves may have executive power in the mind for hours, days, or even months. Conflict does, however, occasionally

occur. One self may become an autocratic dictator and suppress and repress the other selves.

Some [selves] emerge into consciousness, some remain submerged in the subconscious storehouse of the mind to be called upon when wanted as systematized memories; while many, still remaining subconscious, become stimulated into active processes and act upon and modify the processes of conscious thought and behavior. But all, the conscious and the subconscious, are one mind. Let us never forget that. (p. 265)

In addition to some selves being suppressed and repressed, others fall into innocuous desuetude (p. 270) or lie fallow. These many selves are integrated into larger systems and constellations of system to form the personality.

For Prince, therefore, conflict in the mind is not simply one desire conflicting with another desire, but one organized subself conflicting with another organized subself. Finally, Prince answered the question that he raised of how many selves we have: we have as many selves as we have moods, or contrasting traits, or sides to our personalities (p. 268).

Is a Multiple Self Healthy?

Many of the studies described in the present book have suggested that people with a multiple self (or whose self-concept is more complex) are possibly more psychologically disturbed than those with a unified self (or less self-complexity). McAdams (1997), for example, suggests that multiplicity is not very desirable, and, in addition, it may not be that prevalent. In my research, asking people to list their multiple selves rarely produced a solitary self.

Gergen (1972), before he became postmodern, argued that a multiple self was associated with better health and greater happiness. He noted that some people are confused by their multiple selves, resulting in identity diffusion (a concept proposed by Erik Erickson) and the lack of a firm sense of self. However, once people are introduced to the theory of multiple selves, then this confusion typically disappears. They now have concepts to describe and account for their states of mind. Gergen argued that the notions that our sense of self is fixed and stable and that a unified sense of self is a good state to be in, are wrong. Gergen proposed that those who have a single and fixed self are experiencing severe emotional distress and, I might add, are denying and suppressing (and perhaps repressing) important thoughts, feelings, and desires.

Gergen's research found that the self that people presented to others was affected by the other person, the situation, and the motives of the individual. Gergen found that the behavior of the other person affected the self that the individuals presented, but, in his research, the majority of the individuals were unaware that their presentation of self had changed. For example, if placed in a dyad, and they believed that the other person had described herself very positively (bragging) or very negatively (whining), the individuals changed their self-presentation, describing themselves more positively when with the braggart and more negatively when with the whiner. Yet 60 percent of the individuals claimed that their partner had no effect on their own self-presentation. In another study, the task presented to the individuals affected the presentation of the self, for example, whether they were told to solve a task with their partner or to get along with their partner as well as possible.

All of Gergen's studies involved social interaction with others, but the multiple self theory proposed in this book also applies when there is no one else present. For example, an individual may wake up depressed on some mornings and happy on others. The subself will differ in these two situations. However, Gergen's conclusions are important. Unless people accept that they have multiple selves, they will experience anxiety over their inconsistencies. Gergen gives examples such as the commune dweller who has materialistic desires or the heterosexual who has homosexual tendencies. Accepting that we have multiple selves can lessen, and even remove completely, the anxiety.

Indeed, individuals with rigid single selves may have less than fulfilling lives—for example, police officers who can never let their guard down or professors who cannot drop their professorial role even with their spouses. A fellow graduate student I knew married one of the undergraduates in his discussion groups when he was a teaching assistant. Years later, in public, he was still “correcting” her opinions about the world and other individuals! People, also, as Gergen notes, become intolerant of inconsistencies in others, which can be especially troublesome in our intimate relationships.

Many people who believe in a religious faith seem to be happier than those who do not so believe. However, religious faiths do not reflect the truth. How could they? There are a smorgasbord of religions to choose from, and many sects within each major religion. Indeed, the differences between the sects are so great that groups go to war and kill one another over these differences. Given this variety of religions and sects, it is impossible for all to be correct, and indeed, it may be that

none are correct. They may all be fairy-stories that calm the anxieties and fears of their adherents. The fact that those who believe devoutly in a religion may be better adjusted than nonbelievers does not make the religion true or a worthwhile choice.

Those who believe in a unified self or who appear to have a unified self may be psychologically better adjusted, but that does not necessarily make a unified self preferable. As existentialists point out, an authentic existence means confronting the finality and certainty of death and the meaningless of life. Authenticity may be preferable over psychological well-being for some individuals.

Integration and Structure

How might multiple selves integrate with one another? This is an old problem which arose when psychologists in the 1950s talked about integration. Lester (1995) noted that some theorists talked about peaceful coexistence (Angyal, 1965) while others imagined a fully integrated self (Jung, 1971). In the same way, multiple selves might modify one another so that they no longer come into conflict. Alternatively, the multiple selves might merge or fuse into one single self. Thoits and Virshup (1997) thought that fused selves might be more resistant to change. This suggests that those individuals who have a single self earlier in life might also be resistant, and even unable, to change, an undesirable position to have in our now rapidly changing society.

An important question concerns the structure of a mind that has multiple selves and where we can find possible ideas for the structure. Lester (2010) used principles obtained from the study of social groups. Finding analogies from theory and research on intergroup behavior (cooperation and conflict) might also be a useful source of hypotheses for the multiple self (Tajfel & Turner, 1986). Another possible source is concepts proposed by those who study families. Cox and Paley (1997) argued that families are best viewed as systems, "organized whole[s], with interdependent components and hierarchical structure" (p. 246). A family is a complex integrated whole, and this is identical to what a mind that has multiple selves must be. Just as family members are embedded in the large family system, multiple selves are embedded in the mind.

Families have a hierarchical structure, formally arranged by generation and informally by the distribution of power. Multiple self minds may not necessarily have a hierarchical structure, although this is one possibility. Cox and Paley noted that each family member has

boundaries, and family members learn rules for relating to one another within and across these boundaries, rules which should be clear but flexible. The same principle can easily be applied to a collection of multiple selves which, in a healthy mind, should have clear firm boundaries (without symptoms of intrusion in Angyal's and Jung's theories of personality and without contamination in Berne's theory of personality).

Cox and Paley noted that no living system can survive without pattern and structure, and so multiple selves should preferably be governed by regularities, rules, and structures that organize the mind. Families function poorly when these patterns "involve self-defeating cycles, stereotyped solutions, rigidly applied rules, and intolerance for change" (p. 250), and again this applies to the multiple self mind. Just as problems in one family member reflect the functioning of the family system (Minuchin, 1974), so dysfunction of one multiple self may reflect the functioning of the multiple self mind as a whole.

Final Comment

There are many other issues involved, many of which have been discussed in earlier chapters. For example:

- Is the organization of subselves tight (as in a family) or loose (as in a crowd)?
- Can material (content) move between subselves?
- Are multiple selves either conscious or unconscious or can each subself have conscious and unconscious contents?
- Can subselves intrude into one another?
- Are subselves organized hierarchically and transversely?

Much more thought is needed on these and other issues, and it is hoped that the postulates and corollaries of the present theory and the examples provided in the present book will stimulate others to reflect on these issues.

References

- Adams, K. (2011). The abject self. *International Journal of Group Psychotherapy*, 61, 333–364.
- Alexander, N. C., & Knight, G. W. (1971). Situated identities and social psychological experimentation. *Sociometry*, 34, 65–82.
- Allen, L. A., Wolfolk, R. L., Gara, M. A., & Apter, J. T. (1996). Possible selves in major depression. *Journal of Nervous & Mental Disease*, 184, 739–745.
- Allison, R., & Schwartz, T. (1980). *Minds in many pieces*. New York, NY: Rawson-Wade.
- Allport, G. W. (1961). *Pattern and growth in personality*. New York, NY: Holt, Rinehart & Winston.
- Alsaker, F., & Olweus, D. (1986). Assessment of global negative self-evaluations and perceived stability of self in Norwegian preadolescents and adolescents. *Journal of Early Adolescence*, 6, 269–278.
- Altman, M. (Ed.) (2006). *Handbook of contemporary behavioral economics*. Armonk, NY: M. E. Sharpe.
- Altrocchi, J. (1999). Individual differences in pluralism in self-structure. In J. Rowan & M. Cooper (Eds.), *The plural self* (pp. 168–182). London, UK: Sage.
- Altrocchi, J., & McReynolds, P. (1997). The self-pluralism scale. In S. T. St Jeor (Ed.), *Obesity assessment* (pp. 420–424). New York, NY: Chapman & Hall.
- Angyal, A. (1941) *Foundations for a science of personality*. New York, NY: Commonwealth Fund.
- Angyal, A. (1965). *Neurosis and treatment*. New York, NY: Wiley.
- Anthis, K. (2006). Possible selves in the lives of adult women. In C. Dunkel & J. Kerpelman (Eds.), *Possible selves* (pp. 123–140). Hauppauge, NY: Nova Science.
- Antonovsky, A. (1987). *Unraveling the mystery of health*. San Francisco, CA: Jossey-Bass.
- Arkin, R. M. (1981). Self-presentation styles. In J. T. Tedeschi (Ed.), *Impression management theory and social psychological research* (pp. 311–333). New York, NY: Academic.
- Assagiolo, R. (1971). *Psychosynthesis*. New York, NY: Viking.
- Bakan, D. (1966). *The duality of human existence*. Oxford, UK: Rand McNally.
- Baldwin, J. M. (1897). *Social and ethical interpretations in mental development*. New York, NY: Macmillan.

- Baldwin, M. W. (1992). Relational schemas and the processing of social information. *Psychological Bulletin*, 112, 461–484.
- Balint, M. (1968). *The basic fault*. London, UK: Tavistock.
- Bandura, A. (1999). Social cognitive theory of personality. In D. Cervone & Y. Shoda (Eds.), *The social coherence of personality* (pp. 185–241). New York, NY: Guilford.
- Baumeister, R. (1990). Suicide as escape from self. *Psychological Review*, 97, 90–113.
- Baumeister, R. F. (1998). The self. In D. T. Gilbert, S. T. Fiske, & G. Lindzey (Eds.), *The handbook of social psychology* (Vol. 1, pp. 680–740). Boston, MA: McGraw-Hill.
- Bazin, D., & Ballet, J. (2006). A basic model for multiple self. *Journal of Socio-Economics*, 35, 1050–1060.
- Bearhs, J. O. (1983). Co-consciousness. *American Journal of Clinical Hypnosis*, 26, 100–113.
- Beahr, J. O. (1982). *Unity and multiplicity*. New York, NY: Brunner/Mazel.
- Beck, A. T. (1976). *Cognitive therapy and emotional disorders*. New York, NY: International Universities Press.
- Bénabou, R., & Pycia, M. (2002). Dynamic inconsistency and self-control. *Economics Letters*, 77, 419–424.
- Benet-Martinez, V., Leu, J., Lee, F., & Morris, M. W. (2002). Negotiating biculturalism. *Journal of Cross-Cultural Psychology*, 33, 492–516.
- Berne, E. (1961). *Transactional Analysis in psychotherapy*. New York, NY: Grove Press.
- Biddle, B. J. (1986). Recent developments in role therapy. *Annual Review of Sociology*, 12, 67–92.
- Bloch, M. (2011). The blob. *Anthropology of this Century*, 2011, issue 1. aotcpress.com/articles/blob
- Block, J. (1961). Ego identity, role variability, and adjustment. *Journal of Consulting Psychology*, 25, 392–397.
- Bloom, P. (2008, November). First personal plural. *The Atlantic*, 90–98. www.theatlantic.com/doc/200811/multiple-personalities
- Bogart, V. (1994). Transcending the dichotomy of either “subpersonalities” or “an integrated unitary self.” *Journal of Humanistic Psychology*, 34, 82–89.
- Bolen, J. S. (1985). *Goddesses in everywoman*. New York, NY: Harper Colophon.
- Bolen, J. S. (1989). *Gods in everyman*. New York, NY: Harper & Row.
- Bonarius, J. C. J. (1970). Fixed role therapy. *British Journal of Medical Psychology*, 43, 213–219.
- Bond, M. H., & Yang, K. S. (1982). Ethnic affirmation versus cross-cultural accommodation. *Journal of Cross-Cultural Psychology*, 13, 169–185.
- Boulding, K. E. (1968). *The organizational revolution*. Chicago, IL: Quadrangle.
- Bourguignon, E. (1976). *Possession*. San Francisco, CA: Chandler & Sharp.
- Brewer, M. B. (1991). The social self. *Personality & Social Psychology Bulletin*, 17, 475–482.

References

- Brewer, M. B., & Gardner, W. (1996). Who is this "we"? *Journal of Personality & Social Psychology*, 71, 83–93.
- Bromberg, P. M. (1993). Shadow and substance. *Psychoanalytic Psychology*, 10, 147–168.
- Brown, M. H. (2000). Subpersonalities and psychosynthesis. *Virginia Counselors Journal*, 26(June), 1–10. <http://two-not2.org/psychosynthesis/articles/mbrown4.htm>
- Browning, D. S. (1980). *Pluralism and personality*. Lewisburg, PA: Bucknell University.
- Bruner, J. S. (1986). *Actual minds, possible worlds*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press.
- Bruner, J. S. (1990). *Acts of meaning*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press.
- Burke, P. J., & Tully, J. C. (1977). The measurement of role identity. *Social Forces*, 55, 881–897.
- Buss, A. H., & Durkee, A. (1957). An inventory for assessing different kinds of hostility. *Journal of Consulting Psychology*, 21, 343–348.
- Butt, T., Burr, V., & Bell, R. (1997). Fragmentation and the sense of self. *Constructivism in the Human Sciences*, 2(1), 12–29.
- Butzer, B., & Kuiper, N. A. (2006). Relationships between the frequency of social comparisons and self-concept clarity, intolerance of uncertainty, anxiety, and depression. *Personality & Individual Differences*, 41, 167–176.
- Campbell, J. D., Assanand, S., & Di Paula, A. (2003). The structure of self-concept and its relation to psychological adjustment. *Journal of Personality*, 71, 115–140.
- Campbell, J. D., Trapnell, P. D., Heine, S. J., Katz, I. M., Lavallee, L. F., & Lehman, D. R. (1996). Self-concept clarity. *Journal of Personality & Social Psychology*, 70, 141–156.
- Carter, R. (2008). *Multiplicity*. New York, NY: Little Brown.
- Cattell, R. B. (1948). Concepts and methods in the measurement of group syntality. *Psychological Review*, 55, 48–63.
- Cervone, D. (2005). Personality architecture. *Annual Review of Psychology*, 56, 423–452.
- Chaiken, S. (1980). Heuristic versus systematic information processing and the use of source versus message cues in persuasion. *Journal of Personality & Social Psychology*, 39, 752–766.
- Chen, S. X., & Bond, M. H. (2010). Two languages, two personalities? *Personality & Social Psychology Bulletin*, 36, 1514–1528.
- Connell, D. K., & Meyer, R. G. (1991). The reasons for living inventory and a college population. *Journal of Clinical Psychology*, 47, 485–489.
- Cooley, C. H. (1902). *Human nature and the social order*. New York, NY: Scribner's.
- Cory, G. A. (2000). From MacLean's triune brain concept to the conflict systems neurobehavioral model. *Zygon*, 35, 385–414.

- Cory, G. A. (2006). A behavioral model of the dual motive approach to behavioral economics and social exchange. *Journal of Socio-Economics*, 35, 592–612.
- Coser, L. (1974). *Greedy institutions*. New York, NY: Free Press.
- Cox, M. J., & Paley, B. (1997). Families as systems. *Annual Review of Psychology*, 48, 243–267.
- Crowne, D., & Marlowe, D. (1960). A new scale of social desirability independent of psychopathology. *Journal of Consulting Psychology*, 24, 1397–1403.
- Davidson, D. (1985). Deception and division. In J. Elster (Ed.), *The multiple self* (pp. 79–92). New York, NY: Cambridge University Press.
- de Beauvoir, S. (1952). *The second sex*. New York, NY: Knopf.
- de Sousa, R. (1976). Rational homunculi. In A. O. Rorty (Ed.), *The identities of person*. (pp. 217–238). Berkeley, CA: University of California.
- Deaux, K. (1991). Social identities. In R. C. Curtis (Ed.), *The relational self* (pp. 77–93). New York, NY: Guilford.
- Deaux, K. (1993). Reconstructing social identity. *Personality & Social Psychology Bulletin*, 19, 4–12.
- Demorest, A. P. (1995). The personal script as a unit of analysis for the study of personality. *Journal of Personality*, 63, 569–592.
- Dennett, D. C. (1978). *Brainstorms*. Brighton, UK: Harvester.
- Denzin, N. K. (1987). A phenomenology of the emotionally divided self. In K. Yardley & T. Honess (Eds.), *Self and identity* (pp. 287–296). Chichester, UK: Wiley.
- Deutsch, H. (2011). The impostor. *Psychoanalytic Quarterly*, 80, 1005–1024.
- Dimaggio, G., & Stiles, W. B. (2007). Psychotherapy in light of internal multiplicity. *Journal of Clinical Psychology*, 63, 119–127.
- Doi, T. (1986). *The anatomy of self*. New York, NY: Kodansha International.
- Doi, T. L. (1973). Omote and ura: concepts derived from the Japanese 2-fold structure of consciousness. *Journal of Nervous & Mental Disease*, 157, 258–261.
- Donahue, E. M., Robins, R. W., Roberts, B. W., & John, O. P. (1993). The divided self. *Journal of Personality & Social Psychology*, 64, 834–846.
- Doucette-Gates, A., Firestone, R. W., & Firestone, L. A. (1999). Assessing violent thoughts. *Psychologica Belgica*, 39, 113–134.
- Dunkel, C., & Kerpelman, J. (Eds.). (2006). *Possible selves*. Hauppauge, NY: Nova Science.
- Dunn, T., & Castro, A. (2012). Postmodern society and the individual. *Social Science Journal*, 49, 352–358.
- Eagleman, D. M. (2011). *Incognito*. New York, NY: Pantheon.
- Ellison, R. (1989). *Invisible man*. New York, NY: Vintage.
- Elster, J. (1985). Introduction. In J. Elster (Ed.), *The multiple self* (pp. 1–34). New York, NY: Cambridge University Press.
- Epstein, S. (1973). The self-concept revisited. *American Psychologist*, 28, 404–416.

References

- Epstein, S. (1991). Cognitive-experiential self-theory. In R. Curtis (Ed.), *The self with others* (pp. 111–137). New York, NY: Guilford.
- Erikson, E. (1959). Identity and the life cycle. *Psychological Issues*, 1(1), 1–171.
- Erikson, E. (1965). *Childhood and society*. London, UK: Triad Paladin.
- Erikson, E. (1968). *Identity, youth, and crisis*. New York, NY: Norton.
- Evreinov, N. N. (1923). *The theatre in life*. London, UK: Harrap.
- Ewing, K. P. (1990). The illusion of wholeness. *Ethos*, 18(34), 251–278.
- Eysenck, H. J., & Eysenck, S. B. G. (1963). *Eysenck Personality Inventory*. London, UK: University of London Press.
- Fairbairn, W. R. D. (1952). *Psychoanalytic studies of the personality*. London, UK: Tavistock.
- Fairbairn, W. R. D. (1954). *An object-relations theory of the personality*. New York, NY: Basic Books.
- Federn, P. (1952). *Ego psychology and the psychoses*. New York, NY: Basic Books.
- Festinger, L. (1957). *A theory of cognitive dissonance*. Palo Alto, CA: Stanford University Press.
- Firestone, R. W. (1986). The “inner voice” and suicide. *Psychotherapy*, 23, 439–447.
- Firestone, R. W. (1997). *Combating destructive thought processes*. Thousand Oaks, CA: Sage.
- Fiske, D. W., & Maddi, S. R. (1961). *Functions of varied experience*. Homewood, IL: Dorsey.
- Flanagan, O. (1996). *Self-expressions*. New York, NY: Oxford University Press.
- Flournoy, T. (1900). *From India to the planet Mars*. New York, NY: Harper.
- Foels, R., & Tomcho, T. J. (2009). Gender differences in interdependent self-construals. *Self & Identity*, 8, 396–417.
- Franzoi, S. L., & Reddish, B. J. (1980). Factor analysis of the stability of self scale. *Psychological Reports*, 47, 1160–1162.
- Frazier, L. D., & Hooker, K. (2006). Possible selves in adult development. In C. Dunkel & J. Kerpelman, (Eds.), *Possible selves* (pp. 41–59). Hauppauge, NY: Nova Science.
- Freud, S. (1933). *New introductory lectures on psychoanalysis*. New York, NY: Norton.
- Frick, W. B. (1993). Subpersonalities. *Journal of Humanistic Psychology*, 33, 122–128.
- Gallwey, W. T. (1974). *The inner game of tennis*. New York, NY: Random House.
- Gangestad, S. W., & Snyder, M. (2000). Self-monitoring. *Psychological Bulletin*, 126, 530–555.
- Gara, M. A., Woolfolk, R. L., & Allen, L. A. (2002). Social cognitive complexity and depression. *Journal of Nervous & Mental Disease*, 190, 670–676.
- Gazzaniga, M. (1985). *The social brain*. New York, NY: Basic Books.
- Gecas, V. (1972). Parental behavior and contextual variations in adolescent self-esteem. *Sociometry*, 35, 332–345.

- Gediman, H. K. (1985). Imposture, inauthenticity, and feeling fraudulent. *Journal of the American Psychoanalytic Association*, 33, 911–935.
- Geertz, C. (1984). From the native's point of view. In R. A. Shweder & R. A. LeVine (Eds.), *Culture theory* (pp. 123–126). Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.
- George, D. (2001). *Preference pollution: How markets create the desires we dislike*. Ann Arbor, MI: University of Michigan Press.
- Gergen, K. J. (1971). *The concept of self*. New York, NY: Holt.
- Gergen, K. J. (1972). Multiple identity. *Psychology Today*, 5(12), 31–35, 64–66.
- Gergen, K. J. (1991). *The saturated self*. New York, NY: Basic Books.
- Gilligan, C., Rogers, A. G., & Tolman, D. L. (1991). *Women, girls, and psychotherapy*. New York, NY: Haworth.
- Glickauf-Hughes, C., Wells, M., & Chance, S. (1999). Techniques for strengthening clients' observing ego. *Psychotherapy*, 33, 431–440.
- Glover, E. (1956). *On the early development of the mind*. New York, NY: International Universities Press.
- Goethe, J. W. (1819/1996). *Roman elegies and other poems and epigrams*. (Translated by Michael Hamburger) Vancouver, Canada: Anvil.
- Goffman, E. (1959). *The presentation of the self in everyday life*. Garden City, NY: Doubleday.
- Goffman, E. (1961). *Encounters*. Indianapolis, IN: Bobbs-Merrill.
- Goffman, E. (1971). *Relations in public*. New York, NY: Harper & Row.
- Goffman, E. (1974). *Frame analysis*. New York, NY: Harper & Row.
- Goode, W. J. (1960). A theory of role strain. *American Sociological Review*, 25, 483–496.
- Goulding, M. M., & Goulding, R. L. (1979). *Changing lives through rededication therapy*. New York, NY: Brunner/Mazel.
- Greenwald, A. G. (1982). Is anyone in charge? In J. Suls (Ed.), *Psychological perspectives on the self* (Vol. 1, pp. 151–181). Hillsdale, NJ: Lawrence Erlbaum.
- Greenwald, A. G., & Pratkanis, A. R. (1984). The self. In R. S. Wyer & T. K. Srull (Eds.), *Handbook of social cognition* (Vol. 3, pp. 129–178). Hillsdale, NJ: Lawrence Erlbaum.
- Gregg, G. S. (1995). Multiple identities and the integration of personality. *Journal of Personality*, 63, 617–641.
- Grossman, L. (2010, December 27). 2010 person of the year: Mark Zuckerberg. *Time*, 44–75.
- Gudjonsson, G. H., & Sigurdsson, J. F. (2004). The relationship of suggestibility and compliance with self-deception and other-deception. *Psychology, Crime & Law*, 10, 447–453.
- Guntrip, H. (1971). *Psychoanalytic theory, therapy and the self*. New York, NY: Basic Books.
- Gur, R. C., & Sackeim, H. A. (1979). Self-deception. *Journal of Personality & Social Psychology*, 37, 147–169.
- Haidt, J. (2006). *The happiness hypothesis*. New York, NY: Basic Books.

- Hall, D. T. (1972). A model of coping with role conflict. *Administrative Science Quarterly*, 4, 471–486.
- Harding, T. (2013, September 8). The Kommandant's daughter. *Washington Post Magazine*, 12–17.
- Harre, R. (1998). *The singular self*. Thousand Oaks, CA: Sage.
- Hart, D. (1998). The adolescent self-concept in social context. In D. K. Lapsley & E. C. Power (Eds.), *Self, ego, and identity* (pp. 71–90). New York, NY: Springer-Verlag.
- Harter, S. (1999). *The construction of the self*. New York, NY: Guilford.
- Harter, S., & Monsour, A. (1992). Developmental analysis of conflict caused by opposing attributes in the adolescent self-portrait. *Developmental Psychology*, 28, 251–260.
- Hartman, H. (1958). *Ego psychology and the problem of adaption*. New York, NY: International Universities Press.
- Hartman, H. (1964). *Essays in ego psychology*. New York, NY: International Universities Press.
- Heenan, D. (2002). *Double lives*. Boston, MA: Nicholas Brealey.
- Helmes, E., & Holden, R. R. (2003). The construct of social desirability. *Personality & Individual Differences*, 34, 1015–1023.
- Hennig, K. H. (1995). Postmodern selves and the problem of self-identity. MA thesis, University of British Columbia.
- Hermans, H. J. M. (2002). The dialogic self. In Y. Kashima, M. Foddy, & M. J. Platow (Eds.), *Self and identity* (pp. 71–99). Mahwah, NJ: Lawrence Erlbaum.
- Herrigel, E. (1953). *Zen in the art of archery*. New York, NY: Pantheon.
- Higgins, E. T. (1987). Self-discrepancy. *Psychological Review*, 94, 319–340.
- Higgins, E. T., King, G. A., & Mavin, G. H. (1982). Individual construct accessibility and subjective impressions and recall. *Journal of Personality & Social Psychology*, 43, 35–47.
- Higgins, E. T., Klein, R., & Strauman, T. (1985). Self-concept discrepancy theory. *Social Cognition*, 3, 51–76.
- Hilgard, E. R. (1986). *Divided consciousness*. New York, NY: Wiley.
- Hofstadter, D. R., & Dennett, D. C. (1981). *The mind's I*. New York, NY: Basic Books.
- Hong, Y. Y., Ip, G., Chiu, C. Y., Morris, M. W., & Benet-Martinez, V. (2000). Multicultural minds. *American Psychologist*, 55, 709–720.
- Hooker, K., & Kaus, C. (1992). Possible selves and health behaviors in later life. *Journal of Aging & Health*, 4, 390–411.
- Horowitz, H. J. (1987). *States of mind*. New York, NY: Plenum.
- Horowitz, M. (1988). Formulation of states of mind in psychotherapy. *American Journal of Psychotherapy*, 42, 514–520.
- Hurley, D. (2006). Internalized other interviewing of children exposed to violence. *Journal of Systemic Therapies*, 25(2), 50–63.
- Jacobson, E. (1964). *The self and the object world*. New York, NY: International Universities Press.

- James, W. (1890). *The principles of psychology*. New York, NY: H. Holt.
- James, W. (1902). *The varieties of religious experience*. London, UK: Longmans, Green.
- Jamison, J., & Wegener, J. (2010). Multiple selves in intertemporal choice. *Journal of Economic Psychology*, 31, 832–839.
- Janov, A. (1970). *The primal scream*. New York, NY: Putnam.
- Jones, E. E., Rhodewalt, F., Berglas, S., & Skelton, J. A. (1981). Effects of strategic self-presentation on subsequent self-esteem. *Journal of Personality & Social Psychology*, 41, 407–421.
- Jones, S., & Shorter-Gooden, K. (2003). *Shifting*. New York, NY: HarperCollins.
- Joyce, J. (1946). *Ulysses*. New York, NY: Random House.
- Jung, C. G. (1971). *The portable Jung*. New York, NY: Viking.
- Jung, C. G. (1977). *Psychology and the occult*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press.
- Kakutani, M. (1995, March 20). An era when fluidity has replaced maturity. *The New York Times*, pp. B1, B4.
- Katzko, M. W. (2003). Unity versus multiplicity. *Journal of Personality*, 71, 83–114.
- Kelly, G. A. (1955). *The psychology of personal constructs*. New York, NY: Norton.
- Kenrick, D. T. (2011) *Sex, murder, and the meaning of life*. New York, NY: Basic Books.
- Kernberg, O. (1975). *Borderline conditions and pathological narcissism*. New York, NY: Jason Aronson.
- Kernis, M. H., Grannemann, B. D., & Barclay, L. C. (1989). Stability and level of self-esteem as predictors of anger arousal and hostility. *Journal of Personality & Social Psychology*, 56, 1013–1022.
- Kerpelman, J. L. (2006). Using Q methodology to study possible selves. In C. Dunkel & J. Kerpelman (Eds.), *Possible selves* (pp. 163–186). Hauppauge, NY: Nova Science.
- Kets de Vries, M. F. R. (1990). The impostor syndrome. *Human Relations*, 43, 667–685.
- Kihlstrom, J. F., & Cantor, N. (1984). Mental representations of the self. In L. Berkowitz (Ed.), *Advances in experimental social psychology* (Vol. 17, pp. 1–47). New York, NY: Academic.
- King, L. A., & Hicks, J. A. (2007). What ever happened to “what might have been”? *American Psychologist*, 62, 625–636.
- King, L. A., & Raspin, C. (2004). Lost and found possible selves, subjective well-being, and ego development in divorced women. *Journal of Personality*, 72, 603–632.
- Kitayama, S., & Markus, H. R. (1999). Yin and yang of the Japanese self. In D. Cervone & Y. Shoda (Eds.), *The coherence of personality* (pp. 242–302). New York, NY: Guilford.
- Klein, M. (1948). *Contributions to psychoanalysis*. London, UK: Hogarth.

- Klimo, J. (1987). *Channeling*. Los Angeles, CA: Tarcher.
- Knoblauch, D. L., & Falconer, J. A. (1986). The relationship of a measured Taoist orientation to Western personality dimensions. *Journal of Transpersonal Psychology*, 18, 73–83.
- Kohut, H. (1971). *The analysis of the self*. New York, NY: International Universities Press.
- Kozlowski, S. W. J., & Ilgen, D. R. (2006). Enhancing the effectiveness of work groups and teams. *Psychological Science in the Public Interest*, 7, 77–124.
- Kuiper, N. A., & Derry, P. A. (1981). The self as a cognitive prototype. In N. Cantor & J. F. Kihlstrom (Eds.), *Personality, cognition, and social interaction* (pp. 215–232). Hillsdale, NJ: Erlbaum.
- Kurzban, R. (2010). *Why everyone (else) is a hypocrite*. Princeton NJ: Princeton University Press.
- Laing, R. D. (1969). *The divided self*. New York, NY: Pantheon.
- Laing, R. D. (1982). *The voice of experience*. Harmondsworth, UK: Penguin.
- Lake, F. (1980). *Studies in constricted confusion*. Oxford, UK: Clinical Theology Association.
- Lang, J. M. (2007, February 9). Crafting a teaching persona. *Chronicle of Higher Education*, C2–C3.
- Laufer, R. S. (1988). The serial self. In J. P. Wilson, Z. Harel, & B. Kahana (Eds.), *Human adaption to extreme stress* (pp. 33–51). New York, NY: Plenum.
- Lecky, P. (1949). *Self-consistency*. Garden City, NY: Doubleday.
- Lennox, R. D., & Wolfe, R. N. (1984). Revision of the Self-Monitoring Scale. *Journal of Personality & Social Psychology*, 46, 1349–1364.
- Lester, D. (1968). The effect of fear and anxiety on exploration and curiosity: Toward a theory of exploration. *Journal of General Psychology*, 79, 105–120.
- Lester, D. (1985). Applications of the principles of group behavior to systems theories of personality. *Psychology*, 22(2), 1–3.
- Lester, D. (1987a). Systems theories of personality: Implications from Boulding's writings. *Psychology*, 24(3), 44–46.
- Lester, D. (1987b). The concept of integration in systems theories of personality. *Psychology*, 24(4), 66–67.
- Lester, D. (1992). The disunity of the self. *Personality & Individual Differences*, 13, 947–948.
- Lester, D. (1995). *Theories of personality: A systems approach*. Washington, DC: Taylor & Francis.
- Lester, D. (1997). Multiple selves and self-monitoring. *Perceptual & Motor Skills*, 84, 938.
- Lester, D. (1998). Phenomenological description of subselves using George Kelly's Repertory Grid. *Perceptual & Motor Skills*, 86, 537–538.
- Lester, D. (2003a). The plural self. *Perceptual & Motor Skills*, 96, 370.
- Lester, D. (2003b). Comment on "The self as a problem": Alternatives conceptions of the multiple self. *Journal of Socio-Economics*, 32, 499–502.
- Lester, D. (2004a). The fragmented self. *Perceptual & Motor Skills*, 98, 1326.

- Lester, D. (2004b). The inner voice and the plural self. *Psychological Reports*, 94, 1455.
- Lester, D. (2004c). Subself theory and reincarnation/possession. *Perceptual & Motor Skills*, 99, 1336–1338.
- Lester, D. (2005). *Is there life after death? An examination of the empirical evidence*. Jefferson, NC: McFarland.
- Lester, D. (2007). On the nature of the plural self. *Perceptual & Motor Skills*, 105, 27–28.
- Lester, D. (2010). *A multiple self theory of personality*. Hauppauge, NY: Nova Science.
- Lester, D. (2012). A multiple self theory of the mind. *Comprehensive Psychology*, 1(5), 1–11.
- Lester, D. (2013). An essay on loss of self versus escape from self in suicide. *Suicidology Online*, 4, 16–20.
- Lester, D., & Carter, R. (2013). Multiplicity and its correlates. *Comprehensive Psychology*, 2, Article 7, 1–3.
- Lester, D., & George, D. (2000). Metapreferences, preferences and suicide. *Crisis*, 21, 57–58.
- Levin, J. D. (1992). *Theories of the self*. Washington, DC: Hemisphere.
- Levitsky, A., & Perls, F. (1970). The rules and games of Gestalt therapy. In J. Fagan & I. L. Shepherd (Eds.), *Gestalt therapy now* (pp. 140–149). Palo Alto, CA: Science & Behavior Books.
- Lewin, I. (1936). *Topological psychology*. New York, NY: McGraw-Hill.
- Lifton, R. J. (1970). *History and human survival*. New York, NY: Random House.
- Lifton, R. J. (1986). *The Nazi doctors*. New York, NY: Basic Books.
- Lifton, R. J. (1993). *The protean self*. New York, NY: Basic Books.
- Linville, P. W. (1985). Self-complexity and affective extremity. *Social Cognition*, 3, 94–120.
- Linville, P. W. (1987). Self-complexity as a cognitive buffer against stress-related illness and depression. *Journal of Personality & Social Psychology*, 52, 663–676.
- Loevinger, J. (1971). *Ego development*. San Francisco, CA: Jossey-Bass.
- Luyten, P., & Blatt, S. J. (2013). Interpersonal relatedness and self-definition in normal and disrupted personality development. *American Psychologist*, 68, 172–183.
- Lycan, W. G. (1981). Form, function and feel. *Journal of Philosophy*, 78, 24–50.
- Lynn, R. (1971). *Personality and national character*. New York, NY: Pergamon.
- Lynne, G. D. (1999). Divided self models of the socioeconomic person. *Journal of Socio-Economics*, 28, 267–288.
- Lynne, G. D. (2006a). Toward a dual motive metaeconomic theory. *Journal of Socio-Economics*, 35, 634–651.
- Lynne, G. D. (2006b). On the economics of subselves. In M. Altman (Ed.), *Handbook of contemporary behavioral economics* (pp.99–121). Armonk, NY: M. E. Sharpe.

References

- Lysaker, P. H., & Hermans, H. J. M. (2007). The dialogical self in psychotherapy for persons with schizophrenia. *Journal of Clinical Psychology*, 63, 129–139.
- MacLean, P. D. (1990). *The triune brain in evolution*. New York, NY: Plenum.
- Mahrer, A. R. (1978). *Experiencing*. New York, NY: Brunner/Mazel.
- Mair, J. M. M. (1977). The community of self. In D. Bannister (Ed.), *New perspectives in personal construct theory* (pp. 125–149). New York, NY: Academic.
- Margolis, H. (1982). *Selfishness, altruism and rationality*. New York, NY: Cambridge University Press.
- Marks, S. (1977). Multiple roles and role strain. *American Sociological Review*, 42, 921–936.
- Markus, H. (1983). Self-knowledge. *Journal of Personality*, 51, 543–565.
- Markus, H., & Kunda, Z. (1986). Stability and malleability of the self-concept. *Journal of Personality & Social Psychology*, 51, 858–866.
- Markus, H., & Nurius, P. (1986). Possible selves. *American Psychologist*, 41, 954–969.
- Markus, H., & Sentis, K. (1982). The self in social information processing. In J. Suls (Ed.), *Psychological perspectives on the self* (Vol. 1, pp. 41–70). Hillsdale, NJ: Lawrence Erlbaum.
- Markus, H., & Wurf, E. (1987). The dynamic self-concept. *Annual Review of Psychology*, 38, 299–337.
- Marriott, J. (1984). Hypnotic regression and past lives therapy. *Australian Journal of Clinical Hypnotherapy & Hypnosis*, 5(2), 65–72.
- Marsh, H. W. (1993). Self-esteem stability and responses to the stability of self scale. *Journal of Research in Personality*, 27, 253–269.
- Martindale, C. (1980). Subselves. In L. Wheeler (Ed.), *Review of personality and social psychology* (Vol. 1, pp. 193–218). Beverly Hills, CA: Sage.
- Maslow, A. H. (1970). *Motivation and personality*. New York, NY: Harper & Row.
- McAdams, D. P. (1985). The imago. In P. Shaver (Ed.), *Self, situations, and social behavior*. (Review of Personality and Social Psychology, Vol. 6, pp. 115–141). Beverly Hills, CA: Sage.
- McAdams, D. P. (1996). Personality, modernity, and the storied self. *Psychological Inquiry*, 7, 295–321.
- McAdams, D. P. (1997). The case for unity in the (post)modern self. In R. D. Ashmore & L. Jussim (Eds.), *Self and identity* (pp. 46–78). New York, NY: Oxford University Press.
- McCall, G. J., & Simmons, J. L. (1966). *Identities and interactions*. New York, NY: Free Press.
- McCollaum, B., Zeyrek, E. Y., & Lester, D. (2006). Correlates of a Taoist orientation. *Perceptual & Motor Skills*, 103, 846.
- McConnell, A. R. (2011). The multiple self-aspects framework: Self-concept representation and its implications. *Personality & Social Psychology Review*, 15, 3–27.

- McConnell, A. R., Shoda, T. M., & Skulborstad, H. M. (2012). The self as a collection of self-aspects. *Social Cognition*, 30, 380–395.
- McConnell, A. R., Strain, L. M., Brown, C. M., & Rydell, R. J. (2009). The simple life. *Personality & Social Psychology Bulletin*, 35, 823–835.
- McCrae, R. R., & Costa, P. T. (1994). The stability of personality. *Current Directions in Psychological Science*, 3, 173–175.
- McCrae, R. R., & Costa, P. T. (1999). A five-factor theory of personality. In L. A. Pervin & O. P. John (Eds.), *Handbook of personality* (pp. 139–153). New York, NY: Guilford.
- McCulloch, W. W. (1965). *Embodiments of mind*. Cambridge, MA: MIT Press.
- McElwee, R. O., & Yurak, T. J. (2010). The phenomenology of the impostor phenomenon. *Individual Differences Research*, 8, 184–197.
- McFayden, A. I. (1990). *The call to personhood*. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.
- McGilchrist, I. (2009). *The Master and his emissary*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press.
- McIntosh, D. (1969). *The foundations of human society*. Chicago, IL: University of Chicago Press.
- McNair, D. M., Loe, M., & Droppleman, L. F. (1971). *Profile of Mood States*. San Diego, CA: Educational & Industrial Testing Service.
- McReynolds, P., Altrocchi, J., & House, C. (2000). Self-pluralism. *Journal of Personality*, 68, 347–381.
- Mead, G. H. (1934). *Mind, self, and society*. Chicago, IL: University of Chicago Press.
- Mellqvist, M., Wiktorsson, S., Joas, E., Ostling, S., Skoog, I., & Waern, M. (2011). Sense of coherence in elderly suicide attempters. *International Psychogeriatrics*, 23, 986–993.
- Mendlovic, S. (2008). *L'ordine sociale dei sé multipli* [The social order of the multiple self-s]. Rome, Italy: Alpes Italia.
- Merton, R. K. (1957). *Social theory and social structure*. New York, NY: Free Press.
- Millham, J., & Kellogg, R. W. (1980). Need for social approval. *Journal of Research in Personality*, 14, 445–457.
- Minsky, M. (1986). *The society of mind*. New York, NY: Simon & Schuster.
- Minuchin, S. (1974). *Families and family therapy*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press.
- Miotto, P., & Preti, A. (2008). Suicidal ideation and social desirability among school-aged young people. *Journal of Adolescence*, 31, 519–533.
- Mischel, W. (1968). *Personality and assessment*. New York, NY: Wiley.
- Mitchell, S. S. (1993). *Hope and dread in psychoanalysis*. New York, NY: Basic Books.
- Moldoveanu, M., & Stevenson, H. (2001). The self as a problem. *Journal of Socio-Economics*, 30, 295–330.
- Moules, N. J. (2010–2011). Internalized connections and conversations. *Omega*, 62, 187–199.

- Murray, H. A. (1959). Preparations for the scaffold of a comprehensive system. In S. Koch (Ed.), *Psychology* (Vol. 3, pp. 7–54). New York, NY: McGraw-Hill.
- Murray, H. A. (1981). *Endeavors in psychology*. New York, NY: Random House.
- Nederhof, A. J. (1985). Methods of coping with social desirability. *European Journal of Social Psychology*, 15, 263–280.
- Nicolo, G., Carcione, A., Semerai, A., & Dimaggio, G. (2007). Reaching the cover, fragile side of patients. *Journal of Clinical Psychology*, 63, 141–152.
- O'Connor, E. (1971). *Our many selves*. New York, NY: Harper & Row.
- Ogilvie, D. M., & Ashmore, R. D. (1991). Self-with-other representation as a unit of analysis in self-concept research. In R. C. Curtis (Ed.), *The relational self* (pp. 282–314). New York, NY: Guilford.
- Ogilvy, J. (1977). *Many dimensional man*. New York, NY: Oxford University Press.
- Ornstein, R. (1986). *Multimind*. Boston, MA: Houghton Mifflin.
- Orton, J. D. (1974). A transactional approach to suicide prevention. *Clinical Social Work Journal*, 2, 57–63.
- Osatuke, K., Mosher, J. K., Goldsmith, J. Z., Stiles, W. B., Shapiro, D. A., Hardy, G. E., & Barkham, M. (2007). Submissive voices dominate in depression. *Journal of Clinical Psychology*, 63, 153–164.
- Ouspensky, P. D. (1949). *In search of the miraculous*. New York, NY: Harcourt, Brace & World.
- Oyserman, D., & Lee, S. W. S. (2008). Does culture influence what and how we think? *Psychological Bulletin*, 134, 311–342.
- Palmer, S. (1972) *The violent society*. New Haven, CT: College & University Press.
- Parini, J. (2005). *The art of teaching*. New York, NY: Oxford University Press.
- Park, B. C. B., Zeyrek, E. Y., & Lester, D. (2007). Correlates of a Taoist orientation among Korean students. *Perceptual & Motor Skills*, 104, 1042.
- Pears, D. (1985). The goals and strategies of self-deception. In J. Elster (Ed.), *The multiple self* (pp. 59–77). New York, NY: Cambridge University Press.
- Perlmutter, D. D. (2008, March 14) Get another life. *The Chronicle of Higher Education*, C2–C3.
- Perls, F. (1969). *Gestalt therapy verbatim*. Moab, UT: Real People Press.
- Perls, F. S., Hefferline, R. F., & Goodman, P. (1951). *Gestalt therapy*. New York, NY: Julian.
- Petrov, K. (2013). The art of dying as an art of living. *Journal of Medical Humanities*, 34, 347–368.
- Platman, S. R., Plutchik, R., Fieve, R. R., & Lawlor, W. G. (1969). Emotion profiles associated with mania and depression. *Archives of General Psychiatry*, 20, 210–214.
- Power, M. J. (2007). The multistory self. *Journal of Clinical Psychology*, 63, 187–198.
- Power, M. J., & Dalgleish, T. (1997). *Cognition and emotion*. Hove, UK: Psychology Press.

- Power, M. J., de Jong, F., & Lloyd, A. (2002). The organization of the self-concept in bipolar disorders. *Cognitive Therapy & Research*, 26, 553–561.
- Prince, M. (1928). The problem of personality: How many selves have we? In C. Murchison (Ed.), *Psychologies of 1925* (pp. 245–271). Worcester, MA: Clark University Press.
- Progoff, I. (1973). *Jung's psychology and its social meaning*. Garden City, NY: Anchor.
- Proulx, T., & Chandler, M. J. (2009). Jekyll and Hyde and me. *Human Development*, 52, 261–286.
- Rafaeli-Mor, E., & Steinberg, J. (2002). Self-complexity and well-being. *Personality & Social Psychology Review*, 6, 31–58.
- Rainwater, J. (1979). *You're in charge*. Los Angeles, CA: Guild of Tutors Press.
- Ramanaiah, N. V., Schill, T., & Leung, L. S. (1977). A test of the hypothesis about the two dimensional nature of the Marlow-Crowne Social Desirability Scale. *Journal of Research in Personality*, 11, 251–259.
- Ramírez-Esparza, N., Gosling, S. D., Benet-Martínez, V., Potter, J. P., & Penebaker, J. W. (2006). Do bilinguals have two personalities? *Journal of Research in Personality*, 40, 99–120.
- Redfearn, J. W. T. (1985). *My self, my many selves*. San Diego, CA: Academic.
- Reid, A., & Deaux, K. (1996). Relationship between social and personal identities. *Journal of Personality & Social Psychology*, 71, 1084–1091.
- Rhodewalt, F., & Agustdottir, S. (1986). Effects of self-presentation on the phenomenal self. *Journal of Personality & Social Psychology*, 50, 47–55.
- Richards, D. G. (1990). Dissociation and transformation. *Journal of Humanistic Psychology*, 30(3), 54–83.
- Riha, A. (2011). Being a professional chameleon. Doctoral Thesis, Roehampton University, England.
- Ring, K. (1992). *The Omega project*. New York, NY: William Morrow.
- Roberts, B. W., & Donahue, E. M. (1994). One personality, multiple selves. *Journal of Personality*, 62, 199–218.
- Rogers, C. R. (1959). A theory of therapy, personality, and interpersonal relationships as developed in the client-centered framework. In S. Koch (Ed.), *Psychology: A study of a science* (Vol. 3, pp. 1–59). New York, NY: McGraw-Hill.
- Rogers, T. B. (1981). A model of the self as an aspect of the human information processing system. In N. Cantor & J. F. Kihlstrom (Eds.), *Personality, cognition, and social interaction* (pp. 193–214). Hillsdale, NJ: Lawrence Erlbaum.
- Rorty, A. O. (1985). Self-deception, akrasia and irrationality. In J. Elster (Ed.), *The multiple self* (pp. 115–131). New York, NY: Cambridge University Press.
- Rosenberg, M. (1965). *Society and the adolescent self-image*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press.
- Rosenberg, M. (1979). *Conceiving the self*. New York, NY: Basic Books.

References

- Rosenberg, M. (1997). Multiplicity of selves. In R. D. Ashmore & L. Jussim (Eds.), *Self and identity* (pp. 23–45). New York, NY: Oxford University Press.
- Rowan, J. (1990). *Subpersonalities*. London, UK: Routledge.
- Rowan, J. (2010). *Personification*. New York, NY: Routledge.
- Ruck, C. A. P., & Staples, D. (1994). *The world of classical myth*. Durham, NC: Carolina Academic Press.
- Ryle, A., & Fawkes, L. (2007). Multiplicity of selves and others. *Journal of Clinical Psychology*, 63, 165–174.
- Sackeim, H. A., & Gur, R. C. (1978). Self-deception, self-confrontation, and consciousness. In G. E. Schwartz & D. Shapiro (Eds.), *Consciousness and self-regulation: Advances in research and theory* (Vol. 2, pp. 139–197). New York, NY: Plenum.
- Sackeim, H. A., & Gur, R. C. (1979) Self-deception, other-deception, and self-reported psychopathology. *Journal of Consulting & Clinical Psychology*, 47, 213–215.
- Sampson, E. E. (1983). Deconstructing psychology's subject. *Journal of Mind & Behavior*, 4, 135–164.
- Sarbin, T. R. (1952). A preface to a psychological analysis of the self. *Psychological Review*, 59, 11–22.
- Sarbin, T. R. (1968). Notes on the transformation of social identity. In L. M. Roberts, N. S. Greenfield, & M. H. Miller (Eds.), *Comprehensive mental health* (pp. 97–115). Madison, WI: University of Wisconsin Press.
- Satir, V. (1967). *Conjoint family therapy*. Palo Alto, CA: Science and Behavior Books.
- Satir, V. (1978). *Your many faces*. Berkeley, CA: Celestial Arts.
- Schelling, T. C. (1980). The intimate contest for self-control. *Public Interest*, 60, 94–118.
- Schwartz, R. C. (1995). *Internal family systems therapy*. New York, NY: Guilford.
- Scielo, C. (1983). An analysis of Baba-Yaga in folklore and fairy tales. *American Journal of Psychoanalysis*, 43, 167–175.
- Sedikides, C., & Brewer, M. B. (2001). Individual self, relational self, and collective self. In C. Sedikides & M. B. Brewer (Eds.), *Individual self, relational self, and collective self* (pp. 1–4). Philadelphia, PA: Psychology Press.
- Shapiro, S., & Elliott, J. (1976). *The selves within you*. Berkeley, CA, Explorations Institute.
- Shavelson, R. J., Hubner, J. J., & Stanton, G. C. (1976). Self-concept. *Review of Educational Research*, 46, 407–441.
- Sheldon, K. H., Ryan, R. M., Rawsthorne, L. J., & Hardi, B. (1997). Trait self and true self. *Journal of Personality & Social Psychology*, 73, 1380–1393.
- Shostrom, E. (1965). *Three approaches to psychotherapy*. Orange, CA: Psychological Films.
- Showalter, E. (2003). *Teaching literature*. Oxford, UK: Blackwell.

- Showers, C. J. (1992). Compartmentalization of positive and negative self-knowledge. *Journal of Personality & Social Psychology*, 62, 1036–1049.
- Showers, C. J., & Zeigler-Hill, V. (2007). Compartmentalization and integration. *Journal of Personality*, 75, 1181–1204.
- Showers, C. J., Zeigler-Hill, V., & Limke, A. (2006). Self-structure and childhood maltreatment. *Journal of Social & Clinical Psychology*, 25, 473–507.
- Sidgwick, H. (1893). *The methods of ethics*. London, UK: Macmillan.
- Simmons, R. G., & Rosenberg, F. (1975). Sex, sex roles, and self-image. *Journal of Youth & Adolescence*, 4, 229–258.
- Simon, H. A. (1997). *An empirically based microeconomics*. New York, NY: Cambridge University Press.
- Smith, G. M. (1958). Six measures of self-concept discrepancy and instability. *Journal of Consulting Psychology*, 22, 101–112.
- Smith, E. R., & DeCoster, J. (2000). Dual-process models in social and cognitive psychology. *Personality & Social Psychology Review*, 4, 108–131.
- Smith, K. W., & Greenberg, L. S. (2007). Internal multiplicity in emotion-focused psychotherapy. *Journal of Clinical Psychology*, 63, 175–186.
- Snyder, M., & Gangestad, S. (1986). On the nature of self-monitoring. *Journal of Personality & Social Psychology*, 51, 125–139.
- Southgate, J., & Randall, R. (1978). *The barefoot psychoanalyst*. London, UK: Association of Karen Horney Psychoanalytic Counsellors.
- Speckhard, A., & Akhmedova, K. (2005). Talking to terrorists. *Journal of Psychohistory*, 33, 125–156.
- Starek, J. E., & Keating, C. F. (1991). Self-deception and its relationship to success in competition. *Basic & Applied Social Psychology*, 12, 145–155.
- Steedman, I., & Krause, U. (1985). Goethe's Faust, Arrow's possibility theorem and the individual decision-taker. In J. Elster (Ed.), *The multiple self* (pp. 197–231). New York, NY: Cambridge University Press.
- Stein, M. (1973). Hephaistos: a pattern of introversion. *Spring*, 35–51.
- Steiner, C. (1974). *Scripts people live*. New York, NY: Grove.
- Steiner, J. (2011). The impostor revisited. *Psychoanalytic Quarterly*, 80, 1061–1071.
- Stern, D. (1985). *The interpersonal world of the infant*. New York, NY: Basic Books.
- Stevenson, I. (1976). A preliminary report of a new case of responsive xenoglossy. *Journal of the American Society for Psychical Research*, 70, 665–677.
- Stevenson, I. (1977a). The explanatory value of the idea of reincarnation. *Journal of Nervous and Mental Disease*, 164, 305–326.
- Stevenson, I. (1977b). Research into the evidence on man's survival after death. *Journal of Nervous and Mental Disease*, 165, 152–170.
- Stigler, G. J. (1966). *The theory of price*. New York, NY: Macmillan.
- Stiles, W. B. (1999). Signs and voices in psychotherapy. *Psychotherapy Research*, 9, 1–21.
- Stone, H., & Winkelman, S. (1989). *Embracing ourselves*. Sherman Oaks, CA: Natarajto.

References

- Strawson, G. (2005). *The self?* Oxford, UK: Blackwell.
- Stryker, S. (1980). *Symbolic interactionism*. Palo Alto, CA: Benjamin/Cummings.
- Stryker, S., & Serpe, R. T. (1982). Commitment, identity salience, and role behavior. In W. Ickes & E. S. Knowles (Eds.), *Personality, roles, and social behavior* (pp. 199–218). New York, NY: Springer Verlag.
- Stryker, S., & Serpe, R. T. (1983). Towards a theory of family influence in the socialization of children. In A. C. Kerckhoff (Ed.), *Research in the sociology of education and socialization* (pp. 47–74). Greenwich, CT: JAI Press.
- Sullivan, H. S. (1953). *The interpersonal theory of psychiatry*. New York, NY: Norton.
- Swann, W. B., Rentfrow, P. J., & Guinn, J. S. (2002). Self-verification. In M. R. Leary & J. P. Tangney (Eds.), *Handbook of self and identity* (pp. 367–383). New York, NY: Guilford.
- Tajfel, H., & Turner, J. C. (1986). The social identity theory of intergroup behavior. In S. Worchel & W. G. Austin (Eds.), *Psychology of intergroup relations* 2nd ed, pp. 7–24). Chicago, IL: Nelson-Hall.
- Tart, C. T. (1986). *Waking up*. Boston, MA: New Science Library.
- Taylor, J. L., Morley, S., & Barton, S. B. (2007). Self-organization in bipolar disorder. *Cognitive Therapy & Research*, 31, 83–96.
- Tevendale, H. D., DuBois, D. L., Lopez, C., & Prindville, S. L. (1997). Self-esteem stability and early adolescent adjustment. *Journal of Early Adolescence*, 17, 216–237.
- Thaler, R. H., & Shefrin, H. M. (1981). An economic theory of self-control. *Journal of Political Economy*, 89, 392–406.
- Thaler, R. H., & Sunstein, C. R. (2003). Libertarian paternalism. *American Economic Review*, 93(2), 175–179.
- Thiselton, A. C. (1995). *Interpreting God and the postmodern self*. Edinburgh, UK: T & T Clark.
- Thoits, P. A. (1983). Multiple identities and psychological well-being. *American Sociological Review*, 48, 174–187.
- Thoits, P. A., & Virshup, L. K. (1997). Me's and we's. In R. D. Ashmore & L. Jussim (Eds.), *Self and identity* (pp. 106–133). New York, NY: Oxford University Press.
- Tomkins, S. S. (1987). Script theory. In J. Aronoff, A. I. Rabin, & R. A. Zucker (Eds.), *The emergence of personality* (pp. 147–216). New York, NY: Springer.
- Tomm, K., Hoyt, K., & Madigan, S. (1998). Honoring our internalized others and the ethics of caring. In M. Hoyt (Ed.), *The handbook of constructive therapies* (pp. 198–218). Philadelphia, PA: Brunner-Routledge.
- Trafimow, D., Triandis, H. C., & Goto, S. G. (1991). Some tests of the distinction between the private self and the collective self. *Journal of Personality & Social Psychology*, 60, 649–655.
- Triandis, H. C. (1989). The self and social behavior in differing cultural contexts. *Psychological Review*, 96, 506–520.

- Turner, J. C. (1999). Some current issues in research on social identity and self-categorization theories. In N. Ellemers, R. Spears, & B. Doosje (Eds.), *Social identity* (pp. 6–34). Oxford, UK: Blackwell.
- Turner, L. P. (2007). First person plural. *Zygon*, 42, 7–24.
- Turner, L. P. (2008). *Theology, psychology and the plural self*. Burlington, VT: Ashgate.
- Turner, R. (1978). The role and the person. *American Journal of Sociology*, 84, 1–23.
- Van Dusen, W. (1973). The presence of spirits in madness. In J. Fadiman & D. Kewman (Eds.), *Exploring madness* (pp. 118–134). Monterey, CA: Brooks/Cole.
- Vargiu, J. (1974). Subpersonalities. *Synthesis*, 1(1), WB9–WB47.
- Verkuyten, M. (1995). Self-esteem, self-concept stability, and aspects of ethnic identity among minority and majority youth in the Netherlands. *Journal of Youth & Adolescence*, 24, 155–175.
- Viney, L. L. (1981). Experimenting with experience. *Psychotherapy: Theory, Research & Practice*, 18, 271–278.
- Volpe, J. (1981). The development of concepts of self. In J. Meacham & N. R. Santilli (Eds.), *Social developments in youth* (pp. 131–144). Basel, Switzerland: Karger.
- Wagner, E. (1971). Structural analysis. *Journal of Personality Assessment*, 35, 422–435.
- Wapner, S. (1964). Some aspects of a research program based on an organismic developmental approach to cognition. *Journal of the American Academy of Child Psychiatry*, 3, 193–230.
- Watkins, H. H. (1993). Ego-state therapy. *American Journal of Clinical Hypnosis*, 35, 232–240.
- Watkins, J. G., & Watkins, H. H. (1979–1980). Ego states and hidden observer. *Journal of Altered States of Consciousness*, 5, 3–18.
- Watkins, J. G., & Watkins, H. H. (1997). *Ego-state: Theory and therapy*. New York, NY: Norton.
- Weiss, E. (1950). *The structure and dynamics of the human mind*. New York, NY: Grune & Stratton.
- White, V. (1996). *Paying attention to people*. London, UK: SPCK.
- Winnicott, D. W. (1965). *The maturational processes and the facilitating environment*. New York, NY: International Universities Press.
- Wolfe, R. N., Lennox, R. D., & Cutler, B. L. (1986). Getting along and getting ahead. *Journal of Personality & Social Psychology*, 50, 356–361.
- Woolfolk, R. L., Gara, M. A., Allen, L. A., & Beaver, J. D. (2004). Self-complexity. *Journal of Social & Clinical Psychology*, 23, 463–474.
- Woolfook, R. L., Gara, M. A., Ambrose, T. K., Williams, J. E., Allen, L. A., Irvin, S. L., & Beaver, J. D. (1999). Self-complexity and the persistence of depression. *Journal of Nervous & Mental Disease*, 187, 393–399.

References

- Woolfolk, R. L., Novalany, J., Gara, M. A., Allen, L. A., & Polino, M. (1995). Self-complexity, self-evaluation, and depression. *Journal of Personality & Social Psychology*, 68, 108–120.
- Woolger, R. J. (1988). *Other lives, other selves*. New York, NY: Bantam.
- Wright, A. (1994). *After Gregory*. Dallas, TX: Baskerville.
- Yablonsky, L. (1976). *Psychodrama*. New York, NY: Basic Books.
- Yalom, I. D. (2005). *The Schopenhauer cure*. New York, NY: HarperCollins.
- Yang, B., & Lester, D. (2008). Reflections on rational choice. *Journal of Socio-Economics*, 37, 1218–1233.
- Yang, K. S., & Bond, M. H. (1980). Ethnic affirmation by Chinese bilinguals. *Journal of Cross-Cultural Psychology*, 11, 411–425.
- Ying, Y. W., Lee, P. A., & Tsai, J. L. (2007). Predictors of depressive symptoms in Chinese American college students. *American Journal of Orthopsychiatry*, 77, 316–323.
- Yost, J. H., Strube, M. J., & Bailey, J. R. (1992). The construction of the self. *Current Psychology*, 11, 110–121.
- Zajonc, R. B. (1960). The process of cognitive tuning in communication. *Journal of Abnormal & Social Psychology*, 61, 159–167.
- Zeyrek, E. Y., & Lester, D. (2006). The plural self and a Taoist orientation in two cultures. *Psychological Reports*, 99, 91–92.

Senior Author Index

- Adams, K., 119
Alexander, N. C., 84
Allen, L. A., 131
Allport, G. W., 2, 15, 127
Alsaker, F., 140
Altman, M., 45
Altrocchi, J., 15, 140, 141
Angyal, A., 1, 2, 4, 16, 25, 26, 55, 63, 70, 125, 167
Anthis, K., 134
Antonovsky, A., 149
Arkin, R. M., 150
Assagiolo, R., 73

Baldwin, J. M., 84, 136
Baldwin, M. W., 134
Bakan, D., 70
Bandura, A., 159
Baumeister, R., 1, 31, 159
Bazin, D., 128
Bearhs, J. O., 13
Beck, A. T., 61
Bénabou, R., 126
Benet-Martinez, V., 99
Berne, E., 2, 4, 13, 16, 17, 20, 26, 28, 29, 117
Biddle, B. J., 119
Bloch, M., 74
Block, J., 153
Bloom, P., 63
Bogart, V., 16
Bolen, J. S., 38
Bonarius, J. C. J., 116
Bond, M. H., 99
Boulding, K. E., 18
Bourguignon, E., 22
Brewer, M. B., 129, 132
Bromberg, P. M., 83
Brown, M. H., 73

Browning, D. S., 64
Bruner, J. S., 32, 111
Burke, P. J., 85
Buss, A. H., 140
Butt, T., 155
Butzer, B., 146

Campbell, J. D., 3, 16, 131, 146
Carter, R., 51, 143
Cattell, R.B., 14
Cervone, D., 3, 131
Chaiken, S., 137
Chen, S. X., 98
Connell, D., K.144
Cooley, C. H., 84, 163
Cory, G. A., 126
Coser, L., 85
Cox, M. J., 14, 167
Crowne, D., 143

Davidson, D., 43
de Beauvoir, S., 92
de Sousa, R., 5, 44
Deaux, K., 32, 132
Demorest, A. P., 133, 134
Dennett, D. C., 5, 44, 73
Deutsch, H., 95
Dimaggio, G., 111
Doi, T., 75
Donahue, E. M., 152
Doucette-Gates, A., 142
Dunkel, C., 18, 134
Dunn, T., 142

Eagleman, D. M., 67
Ellison, R., 34
Elster, J., 5, 44
Epstein, S., 88, 137

- Erikson, E., 20, 90, 119
Evreinov, N., N. 31
Ewing, K. P., 27, 30, 31
Eysenck, H. J., 145
- Fairbairn, W. R. D., 6
Federn, P., 4, 117
Festinger, L., 163
Firestone, R. W., 27, 28, 60
Fiske, D. W., 87
Flanagan, O., 1
Flournoy, T., 22
Foels, R., 136
Franzoi, S. L., 139
Frazier, L. D., 134
Frick, W. B., 12, 16, 26
- Gallwey, W. T., 136
Gangestad, S. W., 142
Gara, M. A., 148, 156
Gecas, V., 86
Gediman, H. K., 93
Geertz, C., 30
George, D., 44
Gergen, K. J., 16, 31, 165
Gilligan, C., 92
Glickauf-Hughes, C., 32
Glover, E., 90
Goffman, E., 32, 93
Goode, W. J., 85
Goulding, M. M., 28, 59
Greenwald, A. G., 125, 160
Gregg, G. S., 161
Grossman, L., 87
Gudjonsson, G. H., 145
- Haidt, J., 131
Hall, D. T., 102
Harding, T., 159
Harre, R., 30
Hart, D., 85
Harter, S., 91
Hartman, H., 90
Heenan, D., 66
Helses, E., 144
Hennig, K. H., 153
Hermans, H. J. M., 26, 29, 111, 163
Herrigel, E., 137
Higgins, E. T., 3, 89, 131
Hilgard, E. R., 13, 118
- Hofstadter, D. R., 5, 44
Hong, Y. Y., 97
Hooker, K., 18, 134
Horowitz, H. J., 7, 111
Horowitz, M., 7
Hurley, D., 118
- Jacobson, E., 90
James, W., 3, 64, 163
Jamison, J., 128
Jones, E. E., 88
Jones, S., 101
Joyce, J., 34
Jung, C. G., 22, 167
- Kakutani, M., 159
Katzko, M. W., 29
Kelly, G. A., 13, 20, 21, 27, 56, 116, 142, 153
Kenrick, D. T., 80
Kernberg, O., 90
Kernis, M. H., 140
Kerpelman, J. L., 134
Kets de Vries, M. F. R. M., 94
Kihlstrom, J. F., 29
King, L. A., 129
Kitayama, S., 76
Klein, M., 47
Klimo, J., 24
Knoblauch, D. L., 141
Kohut, H., 91, 111
Koslowski, S. W. J., 127
Kuiper, N. A., 135
Kurzban, R., 71
- Laing, R. D., 14, 20, 21
Lang, J. M., 104
Laufer, R. S., 107
Lecky, P., 163
Lennox, R. D., 150
Lester D., 2, 14, 15, 17, 19, 21, 22, 23, 29, 43, 44, 66, 69, 75, 82, 83, 84, 126, 130, 142, 143, 154, 167
Levin, J. D., 64, 90
Levitsky, A., 58
Lifton, R. J., 33, 45, 105
Linville, P. W., 83, 146
Luyten, P., 125
Lycan, W. G., 5, 44
Lynn, R., 151
Lynne, G. D., 5, 125
Lysaker, P. H., 115

Senior Author Index

- MacLean, P. D., 125
Mair, J. M. M., 7, 13
Margolis, H., 5, 44
Marks, S., 85
Markus, H., 26, 70, 89, 134
Marriott, J., 22
Marsh, H. W., 140
Martindale, C., 135
Maslow, A. H., 2, 5
McAdams, D. P., 70, 111, 159, 163, 165
McCollaum, B., 142
McConnell, A. R., 81, 146, 148
McCrae, R. R., 3, 131, 150
McElwee, R. O., 96
McFayden, A. I., 31
McGilchrist, I., 130
McIntosh, D., 126
McNair, D. M., 155
McReynolds, P., 141
Mead, G. H., 3, 84, 163
Mellqvist, M., 149
Mendlovic, S., 47
Merton, R. K., 32, 84
Millham, J., 144
Minsky, M., 7, 67, 73
Minuchen, S., 29, 168
Miotto, P., 144
Mischel, W., 1, 14, 76
Mitchell, S. S., 47
Moldoveanu, M., 17, 126
Moules, N. J., 119
Murray, H. A., 2, 160

Nederhof, A. J., 143
Nicolo, G., 114

Ogilvy, J., 8, 40, 79
Ornstein, R., 137
Orton, J. D., 28
Osatuke, K., 114
Ouspensky, P. D., 6
Oyserman, D., 100

Palmer, S., 86
Parini, J., 103
Park, B. C., B. 142
Pears, D., 43
Perlmutter, D. D., 67
Perls, E., 16, 19, 55
Petrov, K., 46

Platman, S. R., 69, 155
Power, M. J., 68, 69
Prince, M., 164
Progoff, I., 2, 16, 19, 20
Proulx, T., 1, 152

Rafaeli-Mor, E., 148
Rainwater, J., 74
Ramanaiah, N. V., 144
Ramírez-Esparza, N., 97
Redfearn, J. W. T., 89
Reid, A., 21
Rhodewalt, F., 88
Richards, D. G., 20, 24
Riha, A., 119
Ring, K., 23
Roberts, B., W. 157
Rogers, C. R., 20
Rogers, T. B., 70
Rorty, A. O., 5, 44
Rosenberg, M., 85, 139, 162
Rowan, J., 2, 8, 15, 66, 82, 127, 162
Ryle, A., 112

Sackeim, H. A., 144
Sarbin, T. R., 65, 85
Satir, V., 16
Schelling, T. C., 19
Schwartz, R. C., 26, 28
Scielo, C., 121
Sedikides, C., 135
Shapiro, S., 9, 15, 17, 20, 28, 79, 127
Shavelson, R. J., 133
Sheldon, K. H., 150, 152
Shostrom, E., 11
Showalter, E., 102
Showers, C. J., 68, 83
Sidgwick, H., 44
Simmons, R. G., 139
Simon, H. A., 125
Smith, E. R., 138
Smith, G. M., 130
Smith, K. W., 113
Snyder, M., 150
Speckhard, A., 108
Starek, J. E., 145
Steedman, I., 5, 46
Stein, M., 40
Steiner, C., 40
Steiner, J., 94
Stern, D., 91

- Stevenson, I., 22, 23
Stigler, G. J., 126
Stiles, W. B., 111
Stone, H., 77
Strawson, G., 74
Stryker, S., 84
Sullivan, H. S., 70
Swann, W. B., 163
- Tajfel, H., 167
Taylor, J. L., 69
Tevendale, H. D., 140
Thaler, R. H., 64, 126
Thiselton, A. C., 31
Thoits, P. A., 84, 167
Tomkins, S. S., 133
Tomm, K., 118
Trafimow, D., 130
Triandis, H. C., 130
Turner, J. C., 132
Turner, L. P., 31
Turner, R., 32
- Van Dusen, W., 23
Vargiu, J., 2, 11, 15, 19
- Verkuyten, M., 140
Viney, L. L., 116
Volpe, J., 86
- Wagner, E., 20
Wapner, S., 26
Watkins, H. H., 117
Watkins, J. G., 117
Weiss, E., 4, 117
White, V., 31
Winnicott, D. W., 20, 91
Wolfe, R. N., 149, 150
Woolfolk, R. I., 148, 156
Woolger, R. J., 22
Wright, A., 163
- Yablonsky, L., 16, 32
Yalom, I. D., 43
Yang, B., 45
Yang, K. S., 100
Ying, Y. W., 149
Yost, J. H., 27, 65
- Zeyrek, E. Y., 140, 141

Subject Index

- Abagnale, Frank, 93
Abhidhamma, 130
Abuse, 92, 119
Acculturation, 97
Actors, 104
Addictions, 63
Afanasyev, Alexander Nikolayevich, 121
Agencies of the mind, 7
Aggregates, 130
Alienation, 31
Alters, 136
Altruism, 125
Amnesia, 30
Anarchy, 85
Anima/animus, 4
Aphrodite, 37
Apps, 71
Archetypes, 3, 38, 70, 79, 89
Arimori, Yuko, 76
Artifacts, 118
As-if personality, 94
Assimilation analysis, 114
Auschwitz, 105
Authenticity, 150, 167
Automatic thoughts, 61
Autonomy, trend toward, 70, 125
Avatars, 53, 63
Aware ego, 78

Behavioral economics, 45
Biculturals, 99
Big 5 personality traits, 3, 52, 143, 151
Bilinguals, 97
Bilinguals, compound, 97
Bilinguals, coordinate, 97
Biopositive system principle, 135
Bipolar disorder, 69, 75

Black professional women, 101
Blob, 74
Brainwashing, 33
Buddhism, 65, 130

Camus, Albert, 1
Carryover effect, 88
Categorical representation, 136
Characters, 111
Churchill, Winston, 66
Classical economics, 45
Co-consciousness, 13
Cognitive analytic therapy, 112
Cognitive approach, 3
Collage, 34
Collective unconscious, 3
Community of selves, 7
Compartmentalization, 68, 83
Complex, 2, 3, 89
Compulsions, 63
Conflict, 57
Consistency versus unity, 163
Contamination, 2, 25, 28, 168
Conversion, 35
Core self-conception, 89
Counselors, 119
Counter-transference, 112
Crisis intervention, 28
Cubism, 34
Cultural accommodation, 97
Cultural anthropologists, 31
Cultural frame switching, 97
Culture conflict, 97

Day dreams, 63, 129
Day-Lewis, Daniel, 95
Decision theorists, 5, 43
Defense mechanisms, 31

- Depression, 35, 114, 131, 134, 140, 141, 144, 146, 147, 148, 149
Development, 26, 91, 118
Diachronic unity, 160
Diachronics, 74
DiCaprio, Leonardo, 94
Disengaged, 28
Dissociation, 22, 23, 24, 35, 83, 90, 107, 109, 113, 118, 119, 141
Doer, 136
Double lives, 66
Doubling, 105
Dream analysis, 61
Dreams, 78, 123
Drifters, 35
Duel-process theories, 67, 137
Dyadic representations, 136

Economic decision-making, 5
Economists, 125
Ego nuclei, 90
Ego psychology, 90
Ego states, 4, 28, 66, 70, 117, 160
Ego states, covert, 118
Ego targets, 162
Ego, Gestalt therapy, 56
Ego-Grasping Scale, 141
Ego-ideal, 95
Egoism, 126
Ego-state therapy, 117
Ellis, Albert, 11
Ellison, Ralph, 34
Emotional schemes, 113
Emotion-focused psychotherapy, 113
Empathy, 126
Endopsychic situation, 6
Energy patterns, 77
Energy systems, 126
Enmeshed, 28
Episodics, 74
Ethnic affirmation, 100
Ethnic minorities, 92
Evolutionary perspective, 65, 80
Executive power, 13, 25, 28, 66, 78, 82, 89, 99, 160
Experimental psychologists, 160
Extraversion-introversion, 39, 146

Faculty, university, 67
Fairbairn, Ronald, 47
Fairy tales, 121

Family therapy, 14, 16, 167
Fatherless, 34
Femininity, 93
Fixed role therapy, 116
Franklin, Benjamin, 34
Fugue, 30
Fundamentalism, 34

Gaia, 37
Games, 28
Generic frame, 77
Genetic factors, 39
Gestalt therapy, 55, 78, 123
Gloria, 11
Greek Gods, 37, 79
Group dynamics, 14, 127, 167
Group syntality, 14
Gurdjieff, Georges, 6

Hallucinations, 23, 115
Havel, Václav, 33
Hidden observer, 13, 118
Hierarchical structure, 15
Hierarchy of needs, 81
Hobbes, Thomas, 1
Holistic approach, 1
Homelessness, 34
Homonymy, trend toward, 70, 125
Homunculi, 5
Hone, 75
Hopelessness, 144
Humor, 35
Hypnosis, 13, 118
Hysterics, 49

Identity, 85, 102
Identity accumulation hypothesis, 84
Identity crises, 39
Identity diffusion, 165
Identity, partial, 12
Imaginary playmates, 118
Imago, idealized-parental, 91
Imagoes, 70, 111
Immigrants, 34
Impostor, 93
Impression management, 144
Inconsistencies, 14
Indigenous peoples, 31
Individuation, 70
Information encapsulation, 72
Inner children, 51

Subject Index

- Inner parent, 51
Inner voices, 60, 142
Integration, 19, 57
Integrative self-structure, 69
Internal saboteur, 6
Internalized objects, 6
Internalized other interviewing, 118
Internet, 142
Intrapsychic conflict, 92
Introjected subselves, 21
Introjection, 57
Intrusions, 2, 25, 28, 168
Invisible Man, 34
I-positions, 111, 162
I-possession, 90
- James, William, 64, 80
Joyce, James, 34
Jungian psychology, 19, 38, 121
Juries, 127
- Kierkegaard, Soren, 1
Klein, Melanie, 47
Kronos, 37
- Limbic system, 67
Locke, John, 1
Locus of control, 153
- Maslow, Abraham, 81
Materialism, 143
Meaning bridges, 114
Mediums, 22
Mengele, Joseph, 107
Metacognitive interpersonal therapy, 114
Metaeconomics, 125
Meta-preferences, 44
Mind-body split, 131
Modularization, 68
Modules, 72
Monodrama, 31
Multifaceted entity 5, 111
Multimind, 137
Multiphrenic, 31
Multiple personality, 35, 69, 74, 108, 164
Multiplicity, 40
Multiplicity Scale, 143
Multiplicity, diminished, 112
Multiplicity, pathological, 113
Münchhausen syndrome, 95
- Narcissism, 112
Nazi doctors, 105
Near-death experiences, 23
Neocortex, 67
Network embeddedness, 85
Neuroticism, 141, 143, 150, 153
Neurotics, 12, 56, 75, 84
- Object relations, 47, 70
Observing ego, 41
Obsessive-compulsives, 49
Oedipal conflict, 95
Omote, 75
Opposites, 52
Other-interest, 125
- Pantheon of selves, 8, 128
Paranoia, 48
Paranoid personality, 112
Paternalism, libertarian, 64
Pattern of noncommitment, 27, 49
Pattern of vicarious living, 27
Pattern sets, 73
Perls, Fritz, 11, 16, 74
Persona, 3
Personal constructs, 13, 27, 116
Personality disorders, 83, 112, 114
Personified images of the self, 70
Pluralism, 35
Polarity of subselves, 19
Possession, 22
Possible selves, 18, 129
Postmodern society, 142
Post-traumatic stress, 109
Preference rankings, 44
Press release, 161
Press-secretary, 72
Priming, 100
Prison guard subself, 90
Projection, 57
Proteus, 33
Prototypes, 70, 135
Psychic numbing, 34
Psychoanalysis, 6, 27, 47, 83, 93
Psychodrama, 16, 74
Psychological adjustment, 16, 24
Psychopaths, 75
Psychosomatic patients, 56
Psychosynthesis, 73
Psychotherapists, 160

- Psychotherapy, 28
Psychoticism, 144
Pure ego, 64
- Rationality, 17, 126
Reciprocal role procedures, 112
Recording secretary, 79
Redecision Therapy, 28
Regressive subelves, 21
Reification, 162
Reincarnation, 22
Relationship schemas, 112
Renegades, 52
REP Test, 21, 142, 154
Reptilian brain, 67
Retroflection, 57
Right brain-left brain, 130, 131
Rogers, Carl, 11
Role conflict, 32, 84
Role diffusion, 153
Role distance, 32
Role identities, 151
Role merger, 32
Role reciprocity, 86
Role sets, 32, 84
Role strain, 32, 84, 119
Role tension, 86
Role variability, 153
Roles, 7, 14, 66, 76, 80, 84, 85, 111, 134, 151
Roosevelt, Franklin 67
Rumination, 146
- Salience hierarchy, 84
Sami Ma'ari, 31
Satisficing, 125
Schemas, 133, 135
Schemata, 70, 83
Schizoid personality, 17, 94, 126
Schizophrenia, 23, 48, 68, 75
Screen identity, 94
Scripts, 40, 133
Secondary personalities, 22
Self objects, 90
Self states, 119
Self statuses, 47
Self, abject, 119
Self, accommodating, 136
Self, actual, 131
Self, adaptive, 108
Self, ambivalent, 68
Self, as a committee, 41
Self, bad, 89, 109
Self, bodily, 64
Self, body, 88
Self, collective, 135
Self, constricted, 35
Self, core, 20, 65, 74, 91
Self, demonic, 78
Self, dialogical, 115, 163
Self, diffuse, 135
Self, disowned, 78
Self, divided, 126
Self, emergent, 91
Self, empirical, 64, 66, 88
Self, experiencing, 68
Self, façade, 20, 27, 75, 92, 93, 131
Self, false, 20, 91, 92, 94
Self, feared, 89
Self, fractured, 12
Self, fragmented, 31, 34, 122
Self, Fundamentalist, 35
Self, future, 134
Self, Gestalt therapy, 56
Self, good, 89
Self, grandiose, 91
Self, habitual, 136
Self, hoped for, 89
Self, ideal, 89, 130, 131
Self, individual, 135
Self, inferred inner, 88
Self, introjecting-exterojecting, 66
Self, killer, 108
Self, looking-glass, 84
Self, major, 51
Self, material, 64
Self, minimal, 74
Self, minor, 51
Self, monological, 115
Self, moral, 88
Self, multifaceted, 68
Self, multiple, 47
Self, narrative, 74
Self, not-me, 89
Self, observing, 68, 73, 112
Self, ought, 89, 131
Self, personal, 129
Self, phenomenal, 88
Self, possible, 89
Self, primal psychophysiological, 90
Self, primitive–construed, 66
Self, private, 130, 135
Self, Protean, 33

Subject Index

- Self, pseudo, 20
Self, public, 130, 135
Self, rational, 77
Self, real, 75, 86, 88, 91
Self, receptor-effector, 66
Self, reflective, 68
Self, relational, 135
Self, serial, 107
Self, single, 29, 31
Self, social, 20, 64, 66, 86, 87, 88, 130
Self, somatic, 66
Self, spiritual, 64
Self, stable, 139
Self, subjective, 91
Self, superordinate, 86
Self, true, 150
Self, unconscious, 78
Self, unified, 40
Self, verbal, 91
Self, working, 89
Self-aspect categories, 68
Self-aspects, 81
Self-categorization theory, 132
Self-clarity, 153
Self-complexity, 3, 69, 83, 146
Self-concept, 141
Self-concept clarity, 146
Self-concept differentiation, 151
Self-conceptions, 89
Self-consciousness, 146
Self-construals, 129
Self-deception, 43, 71, 144
Self-definitions, 84
Self-esteem, 139, 144, 146, 148, 150
Self-facets, 114
Selfhood, 14
Self-interest, 125
Self-monitoring, 83, 141, 142
Self-Monitoring Scale, 150
Self-Multiplicity Sorting Task, 153
Self-objects, 111
Self-Pluralism Scale, 140
Self-processes, 113
Self-representations, 90, 161
Self-schematas, 89
Self-system, 107
Self-theories, 88
Self-variation, 65
Sense of coherence, 149
Sensing-intuition, 39
Shadow, 3, 52, 78
Shape-shifting, 34
Shaw, George Bernard, 70
Shifting, 101
Shifting set, 1, 4, 25
Shyness, 150
Situated identities, 84
Skandhas, 130
Skinner, B. F., 1
Social Desirability Scale, 143
Social identity, 132
Social support, 148
Soldiers, 107
Spin doctor, 72
Spirit guides, 22
Split-brain, 68
Split-off personalities, 22
Splitting, 109
State of mind, 7
Structural analysis, 28
Sub-agents, 67
Subidentities, 102
Subnarratives, 83
Subpersonalities, 2, 8, 73, 77, 89
Subroutines, 5, 71
Subselves, functional, 80
Suicidal ideation, 144
Suspension, 13
Synchronic unity, 160
Syndrome, 2, 5

Taoism, 141
Tatemaes, 75
Teaching personae, 102
Teams of rivals, 67
Temperaments, 39
Terrorists, 108
The Schopenhauer Cure, 43
Themata, 2
Thinker, 136
Thinking-feeling, 39
Tolerance of ambiguity, 142, 143
Tolkien, J. R. R., 102
Top-dog/bottom dog, 58
Transactional Analysis, 9, 17, 20, 28, 40, 47, 51, 61, 117, 127, 163
Transference, 112
Trauma, 89, 118
Triune brain, 125

Ulysses, 34
Unconscious, 3, 90, 121, 136
Ura, 75

Voice dialogue, 78
Voice, loss of, 92
Voices, 111, 113, 142

War, 107
Western world, 30

Winnicott, Donald, 47
Wirths, Eduard, 105

Zen, 19, 137
Zeus, 37
Zuckerberg, Mark, 87